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THE GRADUATE SCHOOL

TESTING THE ROLE OF BOUNDARY MANAGEMENT TACTICS WITHIN THE WORK-NONWORK INTERFACE

by
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ABSTRACT

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Testing the Role of Boundary Management Tactics within the Work-Nonwork Interface

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In an effort to balance competing work and personal demands, recent research suggests that individuals put forth effort to control the implicit or explicit boundaries around their work and nonwork domains by either segmenting domains from one another or integrating them. Empirically assessing boundary work behaviors and their relationships with work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment will facilitate a better understanding of the boundary management process. Accordingly, the goals of the current research were to (1) elucidate the nature of unique work-to-nonwork segmentation behaviors, and (2) understand the placement of such behaviors in the broader nomological network of work-nonwork boundary management.

To achieve these goals, a pilot study was first conducted to develop an empirically valid measure of segmentation behaviors. The content of the items was constructed using extant boundary management literature and was subjected to a multi-stage peer review process. These items were next piloted on a snowball sample of 101 full-time working professionals to analyze the comprehensiveness of the behaviors and refine item content and response options.

Following the construction of the segmentation scales, a second study was conducted with a sample of 161 full-time workers to examine the placement of unique segmentation behaviors in the work-nonwork interface. The primary objectives included (1) evaluating how unique segmentation behaviors are influenced by individual preferences for segmentation, self-efficacy for work-nonwork boundary management, and perceptions of organizational norms for segmentation; and (2) the effects of unique segmentation behaviors on perceptions of work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment. Results indicated that the more an individual prefers to segment work from the nonwork domain, the less likely he or she is to perform specific segmentation actions. Self-efficacy for managing the work-nonwork boundary and perceptions of workplace norms were also found to differentially relate to the use of unique segmentation behaviors. Finally, the use of general segmentation behaviors did not explain incremental variance in work-to-nonwork conflict, beyond the more established predictors of age and psychological demands.

These results are interpreted in combination with other proposed relationships and exploratory findings. Theoretical implications of these findings, directions for future research, and suggestions for practitioners are also discussed. Overall, continued investigation of the use and benefits of specific boundary management behaviors will help advance the field's understanding of the work-nonwork interface and aid practitioners in helping employees to manage their work and personal domains.

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TABLE OF CONTENTS

LIST OF TABLES

Page

Page

Page

Page

LIST OF FIGURES

CHAPTER 1

OVERVIEW

Since the industrial revolution, work activities and personal or family activities have generally been carried out “in different places, at different times, with different sets of people, and with different norms for behavior and expressed emotion” (Clark, 2000, p.748). Each set of activities operates within unique spheres (Clark, 2000), realms (Frone, Russell, & Cooper, 1992a), or domains (Ashforth, Kreiner, & Fugate, 2000). Connections among these domains, however, are ever-present and frequently experienced. This idea, that work and nonwork domains are inexorably linked (Kreiner, Hollensbe, & Sheep, 2009), is captured by the concept of the work and nonwork ‘interface’.

A substantial amount of scholarly activity in the past decade has been devoted to understanding the work-nonwork interface, with research efforts strengthening as more and more workers struggle to balance competing work and nonwork role demands (e.g., Kossek & Lambert, 2005; Poelmans, 2005). In the U.S., these demands have largely stemmed from steady increases in the percentage of women in the workforce, a growing number of dual-earner and single-parent families, and changes in social norms regarding the division of household labor (Kelly et al., 2008; Kossek, 2006; Kossek, Lewis, & Hammer, 2010). One also sees these changes reflected in the growing social trend to uncover the dynamics of work-life balance, which Greenhaus, Collins, and Shaw (2003) broadly conceptualize as the reflection of a person’s general (and more or less, equal) satisfaction with their work and life roles.

The predominant theoretical framework through which Industrial and Organizational (I/O) Psychology scholars most often examine the work-nonwork interface is role theory (Katz & Kahn, 1978). In this framework, work and personal roles are defined by the duties, expectations, norms and behaviors that individuals are expected to enact as part of holding a particular work (e.g., supervisor or colleague) or personal (e.g., partner or friend) role. In order to manage the competing demands that often emanate from distinct roles, recent research suggests that individuals try to control the implicit or explicit boundaries they place around these roles (Ashforth et al., 2000; Kossek, Noe, & deMarr, 1999; Kreiner et al., 2009).

In general, boundaries set forth the scope and perimeter of a particular domain (Kreiner et al., 2011). Weak boundaries are those that allow for the free flow of elements between domains, and are often described as being ‘permeable’ or ‘open to influence.’ Strong boundaries are characterized by attempts to separate elements from distinct domains and are therefore considered to be ‘closed to influence’ and ‘impermeable’ (Ashforth et al., 2000; Kreiner et al., 2009). By exhibiting a tendency to perform either segmenting or integrating behaviors, individuals are said to fall along what is referred to as a segmentation-integration continuum; a person’s preferred boundary management strategy is defined by their location along this continuum.

Enacting effective boundary behaviors is becoming increasingly important for today’s workforce, as rapid technological advancements further enable individuals to access work at all hours of the day (Kossek et al., 2010), and generally facilitate boundary blurring more than boundary segmentation. Further, research also indicates that the adoption of a particular strategy has important implications for whether or not an individual feels that their work and personal domains are more or less compatible.

Specifically, research suggests that an individual's boundary management behaviors can drive their experiences of work-nonwork enrichment and work-nonwork conflict. Work-nonwork enrichment reflects the transference of resources between work and nonwork roles, such as psychological assets, social capital, or behaviors and skills (Greenhaus & Powell, 2006). Work-nonwork conflict refers to the presence of incompatible work and nonwork role demands, whereby fulfilling the demands of the work role impedes meeting the demands of a personal role (or vice-a-versa; Greenhaus & Beutell, 1985). Studies indicate that the experience of work-nonwork conflict has negative effects for worker stress (Adams & Jex, 1999; Greenhaus & Beutell, 1985) and health (Burke, 1988; Frone et al., 1997a; Grandey & Cropanzano, 1999), and is positively associated with important organizational outcomes, such as work withdrawal (e.g., Netemeyer, Boles, & McMurrian, 1996), and turnover (e.g., Greenhaus, Collins, Singh, & Parasuraman, 1997). Indeed, Frone (2003) defined the construct of work-life balance as the simultaneous experience of high levels of work-nonwork enrichment and low levels of work-nonwork conflict.

Given the effects of boundary management on work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment, it is important that research be conducted to advance our understanding of the variety of behaviors that may characterize a particular boundary management strategy. Kreiner et al. (2009) referred to these behaviors as boundary *tactics*, and they are the primary interest of my study. Specifically, I will be examining the tactics that individuals use to segment their work domain from their nonwork domain. Empirically assessing the tactics that underlie this boundary strategy and gauging their effectiveness for decreasing work-nonwork conflict and enhancing work-nonwork enrichment will facilitate a better understanding of the boundary management process. It will also provide practitioners with empirically validated boundary behaviors that they may then use to directly or indirectly coach workers on how to better prevent their work domain from unnecessarily encroaching upon their personal domain.

To underscore the broader placement of work-nonwork boundary management within the nomological network of boundary-related constructs, I therefore propose to examine the antecedents and outcomes of work-from-nonwork (WFNW) segmentation tactics and how the use of those tactics is related to the presence of unique job demands. These constructs and their placement within my study are provided in Figure 1 (see Appendix A for construct definitions). More specifically, I will first assess the extent to which the outcomes of WFNW segmentation tactics—work-to-nonwork conflict (WTNC) and work-to-nonwork enrichment (WTNE)—explain variation in physical health, citizenship performance, job satisfaction, and organizational commitment. Then, to further delineate the nature of WFNW segmentation tactics, I will examine how specific tactics are related to each of the following types of job demands: psychological (pace and amount of work), physical, emotional, and mental. Finally, I will test the role of each of the following constructs as predictors of WFNW segmentation tactics: individual *preferences* for boundary management, individual *self-efficacy* for boundary management, and workplace boundary *norms.*

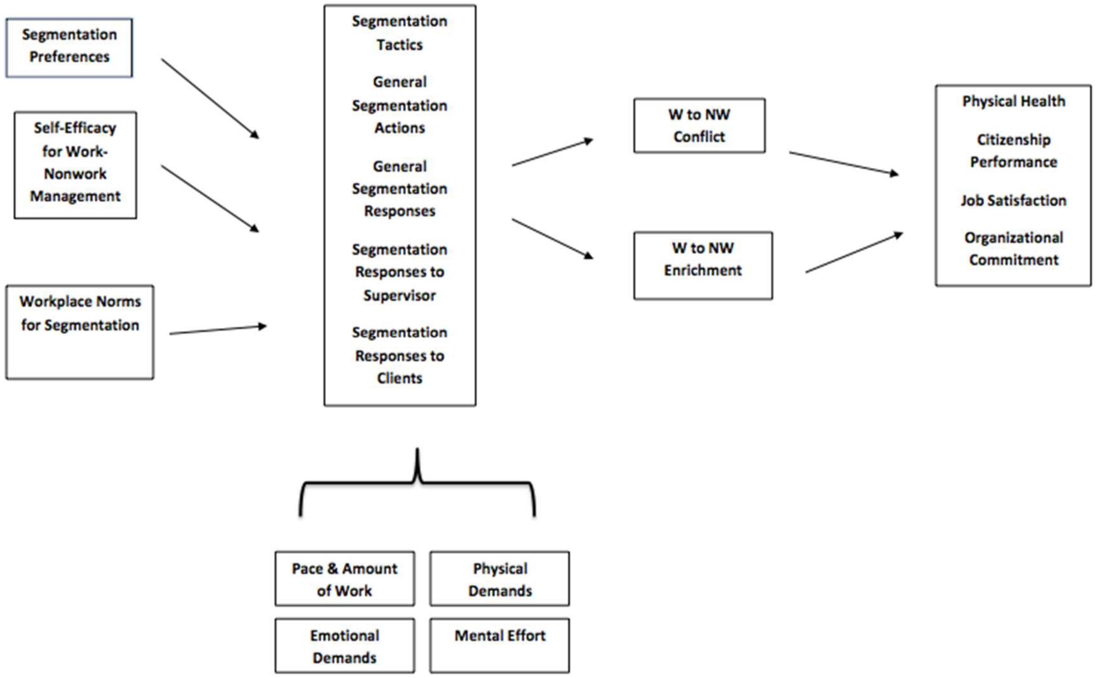

Figure 1. Conceptual Model of Study.

CHAPTER 2

INTRODUCTION

Role Theory

The vast majority of scholars in the I/O field who have examined relationships among work and nonwork have used role theory (Katz & Kahn, 1978) as the primary theoretical foundation for their studies (Kossek, Baltes, & Matthews, 2011). Role theory focuses on how individuals enact expectations of their roles or positions within certain social contexts. In an effort to understand the dynamics of the work-nonwork interface, researchers have drawn and tested inferences applying theories of stress and role accumulation as well as theories of role expansion. In general, role accumulation theories underlie examinations of work-nonwork conflict, and role expansion theories underlie the examination of work-nonwork enrichment.

Role Conflict

Kahn, Wolfe, Quinn, Snoek, and Rosenthal (1964) suggested that the enactment of multiple roles (e.g., worker, spouse, parent) increases the likelihood of conflicts between role expectations and the likelihood that one will perceive a sense of role (e.g., work-nonwork) conflict. Specifically, role theory suggests that roles are enacted in separate environments that have distinct norms and requirements (Evans & Bartolome, 1986). The fact that these environments have unique role requirements necessarily increases the probability that a person will at some point have to sacrifice meeting the expectations of one role in order to fulfill the expectations of another role.

The idea that the accumulation of life roles is positively related to experiences of role conflict is also supported by the scarcity theory of role accumulation (Marks, 1977), which suggests that time and energy are fixed commodities. That is, scarcity theory suggests that people have finite personal resources (e.g., attention, energy, etc.) to transfer between roles (Edwards & Rothbard, 2000). By enacting multiple roles, an individual is more likely to drain these resources, which can negatively impact role enactment and cause stress.

Role Enrichment

Role expansion theories suggest that greater involvement in meaningful roles with positive experiences can enhance well-being and positive functioning (Barnett & Hyde, 2001; Sieber, 1974). Greenhaus and Powell (2006) defined enrichment as "the extent to which experiences in one role improve the quality of life in another role" (p.73). This transference occurs through two paths: 1) an instrumental path, whereby resources in one role can be applied to enhance performance in a second role, and 2) an affect-based path, whereby overall gains in positive affect can be transferred between roles.

Role Experiences in the Work-Nonwork Interface

Development of Constructs

Between the two perspectives (work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment), work-nonwork conflict has to date received comparatively far more attention in the study of the work-nonwork interface. The explicit avoidance of role conflict has been examined more often than not. As noted by Kelly et al. (2008), an increasing number of employees are currently juggling paid work and unpaid family work. The proliferation of dual-earning households, single-parent families, and individuals caring for aging relatives has contributed substantially to this increased competition between the work and nonwork domains (e.g., Casper & Bianchi, 2002; Hammer & Neal, 2007).

However, scholars have recently pointed out multiple reasons for including both positive (work-nonwork enrichment) and negative (work-nonwork conflict) perspectives within research of the work-nonwork interface. Kossek, Baltes, and Matthews (2011) argue that scholars should address how to make the joint enactment of roles as positive as possible because (1) more and more people have no choice but to juggle roles, (2) a growing proportion of the population will increasingly be in the workforce for longer periods of the life span, and (3) a positive focus may provide a better understanding of how individuals can more effectively manage conflict that is virtually unavoidable. In keeping with these arguments, my study will explore how efforts to segment the work domain from the personal domain affect individual experiences of work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment. To reiterate the importance of conflict and enrichment for individual and organizations alike, I will first assess the ability of each of the constructs to explain variation in each of the following outcomes: physical health, citizenship performance, job satisfaction, and organizational commitment. Prior to presenting previous research on these constructs, however, it is first necessary to elaborate upon the terminology used in the literature to discuss the work-nonwork interface.

Construct Terminology

In addition to measuring both positive and negative processes within the work-nonwork interface, a second emerging consideration among those who study the work-nonwork interface is the collection of assumptions researchers often make when contrasting certain terms in their measures. For instance, the concept of work-life balance implies a contrast between work and *life* role, which is counterintuitive because *all* roles are life roles, including those in the work domain. The most frequent contrast in the literature is between work and *family*, with family roles implicitly understood as those of parent, spouse, caregiver, etc.

It is important that the implicit definition of family not be taken for granted, as the operationalization of family is far from stable across studies explicitly contrasting the work and family domains (e.g., work-*family* conflict or work-*family* enrichment). Indeed, many work-family scales contain items that tap a broader domain than the nuclear family unit (i.e., the broader personal domain that encapsulates roles such as friend and church member). Kossek, Baltes, and Matthews (2011) for instance indicate that in their research they do not use the term family to refer to *traditional nuclear families*, but to the *nonwork and personal roles* of all employees.

Notably, those who aim to truly contrast all nonwork roles with the work role generally do not endorse the implicit definitions of family offered in studies such as those of Kossek et al. (2011). Grawitch, Maloney, Barber, and Yost (2011), for instance, argue that it is unrealistic to expect that individuals responding to these scales (which explicitly use the *family* referent) would actually reference roles outside of the nuclear family when formulating their responses; to include roles such as friend, volunteer, and church member as part of a broader family domain is a stretch at best. Unfortunately, there is scant research examining the discriminant validity among scales that measure the work-family construct and the broader work-nonwork construct (Casper & Buffardi, 2004). However, preliminary research does suggest that the patterns of relationships found in the nomological network surrounding the construct of work-family conflict do indeed generalize to the broader work-nonwork construct (Casper & Buffardi, 2004; Reynolds, 2005).

As I agree with others who consider the confinement of literature on role conflict to simply the work and family roles as ‘too narrow’ (Casper, Weltman, & Kwesiga, 2007; Frone, 2003), I choose to use the term ‘nonwork’ in my study to reflect the constellation of all personal roles that individuals hold outside of the workplace. More specifically, I seek to understand through my study how individuals prevent their work domain from encroaching upon the personal domain that encapsulates all their other nonwork (personal) roles. Accordingly, I explicitly contrast the terms work and *nonwork* rather than work and *family*. Furthermore, when discussing research on the work-nonwork interface, I will also use the term ‘nonwork’ to reference any empirical research that measures the ‘family’ domain with scales that might be interpreted at a broader level (i.e., they contrasted the work domain against non-work referents such as “friends and family” or “home life” or “personal time”). However, I largely exclude from my review any research that singularly measures the interface between work and a specific nuclear family member role (e.g., the parental role), as efforts to separate work from a particular nonwork role may not generalize to other roles in the nonwork domain.

Work-Nonwork Conflict and Work-Nonwork Enrichment

Work-nonwork conflict has been defined as the experience that participation in one (work or nonwork) role is made more difficult by virtue of participation in another (work or nonwork) role (Greenhaus & Beutell, 1985). The construct of work-nonwork conflict has been pivotal to the development of research on the work-nonwork interface (Eby et al., 2005; MacDermid & Harvey, 2006), and to date has been robustly associated with lower job satisfaction (Anderson, Coffey, & Byerly, 2002; Aryee et al., 1999; Wiley, 1987), greater turnover intensions (Anderson et al., 2002; Greenhaus, Collins, Singh, & Parasuraman, 1997), and even actual turnover rates (Greenhaus et al., 1997).

Additionally, the construct of work-nonwork conflict has over the past decade come to be conceptualized and measured as a bi-directional phenomenon, such that most scholars now measure not only experiences of the work role interfering (or *conflicting* with) nonwork roles (work-to-nonwork conflict; WTNC) but also measure the experience of nonwork roles interfering with the work role (nonwork-to-work conflict; NTWC). It is becoming more and more rare to see single item measures of work-nonwork conflict (e.g., Quinn & Staines, 1979) and measures that do not specify the direction of conflict (i.e., work-nonwork conflict, as opposed to work-to-nonwork or nonwork-to-work; e.g., Kopelman et al., 1983).

In general, research suggests that people tend to experience WTNC more frequently than NTWC (Eagle, Miles, & Icenogle, 1997; Frone et al., 1992b; Kinnunen & Mauno, 1998). Investigations of both directions of conflict also suggest that factors associated with the domain in which the conflict is generated (e.g., factors in the work domain for WTNC, such as supervisor support) are more strongly related to that direction of conflict than the opposing direction (Bellavia & Frone, 2005; Frone, 2003). For instance, a recent meta-analysis by Mesmer-Magnus and Viswesvaran (2005) found that NTWC was more strongly related to non-work stressors than WTNC (.23 versus .17, respectively). This pattern of relationships also held for the opposing direction of conflict; WTNC was more strongly related to job stressors than NTWC (.41 versus .27, respectively).

The work-nonwork enrichment perspective suggests that resources such as psychological assets, social capital, and/or behaviors and skills can be transferred among work and nonwork domains to enrich experiences within each (Greenhaus & Powell, 2006). Implicit within the model is the idea that work experiences may enrich nonwork experiences (i.e., work-to-nonwork enrichment, WTNE) and vice-a-versa (i.e., nonwork-to-work enrichment, NTWE). While work-nonwork *conflict* is experienced when participation in a specific role (e.g., being a friend) is made difficult by participating in another role (e.g., being a worker), work-nonwork *enrichment* is experienced when the same participation in a given role actually enhances the quality of one's performance in the second role.

CHAPTER 3

OUTCOMES OF WORK-NONWORK CONFLICT AND ENRICHMENT

Overview

Three outcomes of work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment that are of particular interest to scholars and practitioners alike are workers' well-being, attitudes towards work, and job performance. Each of these outcomes has important implications for organizational functioning and growth; they indirectly or directly affect the viability of an organization. Furthermore, a large body of research has been conducted to assess how various indicators of well-being, job attitudes, and performance are affected by work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment.

In the section below I provide a review of (1) how scholars have defined and assessed the psychological constructs of well-being, job attitudes, and performance—particularly as they are studied in the workplace, and (2) what research has found in regards to the influence of work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment on well-being, job attitudes, and performance. Further, as the focus of my study is on the segmentation tactics that individuals use to prevent their work domain from encroaching upon their nonwork domain, the directions of conflict and enrichment that are most relevant to the nomological network of boundary work I examine in my study are those of WTNC and WTNE. I therefore purposefully limit the review below to past research examining the work → nonwork direction of conflict and enrichment.

Individual Well-Being

The stress process receives a great deal of examination in the field of occupational health psychology for its relationship to worker health and well-being. Occupational stress researchers typically categorize the outcomes of stress as behavioral, physical, or psychological in nature (Jex, 2002). Common behavioral indicators of strain include health-impairment behaviors such as excessive drinking and smoking (Jex, 2002). Physical strain has become an increasingly relevant concern to employers as a result of rising healthcare costs, and has been studied through self-report measures, physiological stress indices and diagnosed disease conditions (Spector & Jex, 1998). Psychological outcomes commonly measured in the workplace include affective or emotional responses to stressors, such as anxiety and frustration, hostility, and depression (Spector, Dwyer, & Jex, 1988).

Work-to-nonwork conflict has been associated with a variety of behavioral indicators of stress, including substance dependence (Frone, 2000), extensive medication use (Burke & Greenglass, 1999), alcohol addiction (Frone, Barnes, & Farrell, 1994), and smoking (Frone et al., 1994). It has also been studied in relation to physiological strain. Thomas and Ganster (1995) found WTNC positively related to diastolic blood pressure level. In a longitudinal study of employed parents, Frone, Russell, and Cooper (1997) found WTNC predicted hypertension. Consistent associations have also been found between WTNC and psychological indicators such as depression (Frone et al., 1997; Grzywacz & Bass, 2003; Netemeyer, Boles, & McMurrian, 1996), anxiety (Grzywacz & Bass, 2003; Schieman, McBrier, & Branch van Gundy, 2003), and life distress (**O'Driscoll** et al., 2003.)

On the other hand, research also indicates that well-being may be positively impacted by the presence of multiple roles in one's life and the experience of enrichment between the work and nonwork domains. General enactment of multiple life roles has been associated with higher levels of self-esteem (Barnett & Hyde, 2001) and increased resources for coping with other life demands (Greenhaus & Powell, 2006). The experience of WTNE in particular has been associated with low levels of depressive symptoms (Hammer, Cullen, Neal, Sinclair, & Shafiro, 2005) and psychological distress (Haar & Bardoel, 2008).

Job Attitudes

An attitude is an opinion or evaluation of some target (Schleicher, Hansen, & Fox, 2011). In the field of social psychology, attitudes are considered relatively stable evaluations towards an entity, which may vary in intensity and favorability, which tend to guide responses toward that entity (Eagly & Chaiken, 1993; Fishbein & Ajzen, 1974). They are also most commonly conceptualized in a tripartite fashion (Breckler, 1984) that includes three components: affect (feelings about the target), cognition (beliefs about the target), and behavior (tendencies to act a certain way towards the target). In the context of work, job attitudes therefore reflect people's general feelings about, thoughts of, and behavior towards, certain targets in the workplace, such as the organization, specific colleagues, or a supervisor. Two specific job attitudes that have been widely examined as outcomes of work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment are job satisfaction and organizational commitment. As I include both of these attitudes as outcomes of WTNC in my study, a review of each is provided below.

Job Satisfaction: Although some have considered it to be an emotional state (Cranny, Smith, & Stone, 1992; Locke, 1969), job satisfaction is conceptualized as a stable attitude reflecting the general evaluation of one's job (Schleicher et al., 2011). Furthermore, job satisfaction has also been conceptualized and measured at both a global and facet level. Global conceptualizations of satisfaction are said to capture an employee's overall or general satisfaction with all aspects of his or her job. Facet approaches to job satisfaction capture an individual's satisfaction with specific dimensions of their job. The most typical facet categorization (Smith, Kendall, & Hulin, 1969) measures the dimensions of pay, promotions, coworkers, supervision, and the work itself. The former approach to job satisfaction is best employed in investigations that seek to relate overall job satisfaction to other (conceptually) broad measures; facet-level approaches are best used to examine specific components of satisfaction or to predict more narrow, specific, criteria. These recommendations align with the notion that in order for attitudes to be effectively tied to other attitudes, or more often, behaviors, they need to correspond accordingly in terms of the specificity and/or generality of their respective predictors and criteria (Fishbein & Ajzen, 1974; Hanish, Hulin, & Roznowski, 1998). As most examinations of the relationship between work-nonwork constructs and job satisfaction have tried to capture general job satisfaction, the global measurement approach is most frequently found in the literature.

Job satisfaction has been the most prevalent attitudinal outcome assessed in studies of work-nonwork conflict (Allen, Herst, Bruck, & Sutton, 2000). In one of the earliest meta-analyses on the outcomes of WTNC, Kossek and Ozeki (1999) reported a mean weighted correlation of -.23 between WTNC and general job satisfaction. This association has been also found among a wide variety of populations, including police personnel (Burke, 1988), health professionals (Thomas & Ganster, 1995), working professionals (Adams & Jex, 1999), and dual-earner couples (Duxbury, Higgins, & Thomas, 1996). Recent research also indicates that WTNE is positively related to job satisfaction (Wayne, Musisca, & Fleeson, 2004), with meta-analytic evidence suggesting a mean corrected correlation of .34 between WTNE and job satisfaction (McNall, Nicklin, & Masuda, 2010).

Organizational Commitment: Organizational commitment is most often conceptualized as a higher order representation of three specific types of commitment (Allen & Meyer, 1990): (1) affective commitment, (2) continuance commitment, and (3) normative commitment. Affective commitment refers to the emotional attachment felt by an employee to the organization, which develops out of shared organizational values and interests (Mowday, 1998). Continuance commitment reflects attachment to an organization that is driven by a lack of alternative employment options. Normative commitment is attachment that is driven by a sense of obligation to one's employer; that staying with one's employer is the 'right thing to do.' As my study seeks to replicate the conflict-attitude relationships generally already supported in the literature, an affectively based measure of commitment (as opposed to a measure of normative or continuance commitment) will be adopted in my study.

With one notable exception (Lyness & Thompson, 1997) the bulk of past research on the relationship between WTNC and commitment has been investigated using primarily affect-based measures of commitment. Researchers often focus on this form of commitment as it has been positively related to both performance (Meyer, Paunonen, Gellatly, Goffine, & Jackson, 1989) and citizenship behavior (Shore, Barksdale, & Shore, 1995). In general, this research suggests that WTNC is negatively related to affective commitment (Allen et al., 2000, Lyness and Thompson, 1997, Netemeyer et al., 1996 and Streich.Casper, & Salvaggio, 2008). Investigations of WTNE, on the other hand, indicate that WTNE is positively associated with affective commitment (Aryee, Srinivas, & Tan, 2005; Balmforth & Gardner, 2006; Wayne, Randel, &Stevens, 2006).

Job Performance

Performance in an organization is a multidimensional construct (Johnson, 2001). It is most generally comprised of in-role (or task) performance and extra-role (or citizenship) performance. In-role or task performance is defined by how well an individual employee rates his or her ability to carry out the duties required by the job (Borman & Motowidlo, 1997). Performing these duties is thought to contribute to the core functioning of an organization. Research indicates that the most robust determinant of whether or not an individual will perform well is their cognitive ability **(**Bergman, Donovan, Drasgow, Overton, & Henning, 2008; Motowidlo et al., 1997). Studies indicate that one's mental capacity drives their ability to master the job, which in turn heavily drives performance (Motowidlo et al., 1997).

Citizenship performance is, in contrast, understood as a collection of discretionary behaviors that generally contribute to the well-being of the organization. These behaviors are not "directly or explicitly recognized by the formal reward system" and "in the aggregate, promote the effective functioning of the organization" (Organ, 1988, p.4). Although research indicates that strong task performers also tend to be strong citizenship performers (Dalal, 2007), certain individual differences have been shown to better predict citizenship behaviors better than mere task-related behaviors. These include individual differences such as dependability, work orientation, and cooperativeness (Motowidlo & Van Scotter, 1994). Further, features of the work environment also seem to drive contextual performance more so than task performance. Specifically, research indicates that a person is more apt to engage in citizenship behaviors when they believe they are treated fairly by their organization, they generally like their job, and they feel supported by their supervisor (Dalal, 2007).

Research has found limited support for the influence of WTNC on in-role performance (Frone, Yardley, & Markel, 1997; Aryee, 1992). For example, Frone, Yardley, & Markel (1997) found a significant relationship between WTNC and a measure of in-role job performance, and Aryee (1992) reported a significant negative relationship between job-parent conflict (i.e., conflict between one's job and parental role) and self-reported work quality. Other studies, such as those by Netemeyer et al. (1996) and Greenhaus et al. (1987) reported null results for the effect of WTNC on in-role performance. While Netemeyer et al.'s (1996) study employed self-ratings of sales performance, Greenhaus et al.'s (1987) research employed supervisor ratings of performance.

The relationship between WTNC and citizenship performance has not received as much attention in the literature as the relationship between WTNC and in-role performance. However, general role conflict (at work), of which WTNC is a specific form, has been negatively related to the performance of organizational citizenship behaviors (OCBs; Thompson & Werner, 1997). Further, time pressure at work—a psychological demand that is positively associated with WTNC (Stoner, Hartman, & Arora, 1990)—has also been found to negatively relate to OCBs (Hui, Organ, & Crooker, 1994; Thompson & Walker, 1994). Recent research by Bragger, Rodriguez-Srednicki, Kutcher, Indovino, and Rosner (2005) also found significant negative relationships between WTNC and citizenship performance.

Given the recent arrival of work-nonwork enrichment in the literature (compared to work-nonwork conflict), few empirical studies have examined its influence on work performance. Carlson, Kacmar, Zivnuska, Ferguson, and Whitten (2011) found WTNE had an indirect effect on (in-role) work performance; the relationship between enrichment and supervisor ratings of performance was partially mediated by job satisfaction and fully mediated by positive mood. Their findings also coincide with other research suggesting that the direct effect of enrichment between roles is on the behavioral outcomes that support job performance, including increased creativity (Madjar, Oldham, & Pratt, 2002) and better decision making (Rothbard, 2001). Such theorizing may also help explain the why some researchers (Baral & Bhargava, 2010) have found a positive association between WTNE and citizenship performance.

Conclusion

Outcomes of WTNC

As a form of interrole conflict (Greenhaus & Beutell, 1985), the incompatibility of the work and nonwork domains captured by WTNC is expected to be stressful, and so affect worker's health. The empirical research reviewed earlier in this section substantiates this theorizing – WTNC has been associated with behavioral (substance abuse; Frone, 2000), physiological (blood pressure; Thomas and Ganster, 1995), and psychological (depression; Frone et al., 1997; Grzywacz & Bass, 2003; Netemeyer, Boles, & McMurrian, 1996) indicators of stress.

Research also indicates that stressors emanating from the work domain are more strongly related to experiences of WTNC than are stressors from the nonwork domain (Mesmer-Magnus & Viswesvaran, 2005). That is, workers are more likely to attribute the source of WTNC to the work domain than to the nonwork domain, driving potential changes in workers' attitudes towards their job or organization. Indeed, Allen et al. (2000) found that two of the three strongest weighted mean correlations with WTNC were job satisfaction (-.24) and organizational commitment (-.23).

Furthermore, theoretical support for the effects of WTNC on job performance may be extracted from the implications of the conservation of resources theory (COR; Hobfoll, 1989). Specifically, the COR theory suggests that persistent threats to one's valued resources (i.e., such as chronic threats to one's personal resources, which is captured by WTNC) is not only stressful, but also culminates in burnout. The burnout experience is characterized by emotional exhaustion, cynical attitudes towards one's organization, and reduced perceptions of competence in one's work role (Maslach, Jackson, Leiter, 1996). Thus, by constantly threatening personal resources, the experience of WTNC is poised to ultimately affect the functioning of individuals in the work domain.

Additionally, as in-role performance is by definition monitored and formally recognized by organizations, individuals should also on any given day devote the greatest amount of their energy to accomplishing in-role (task) behaviors; when depleted of resources, individuals should possess even fewer resources than normal for application to contextual, or "above and beyond" performance at work. Recent meta-analytic work supports this theorizing, with Amstad, Meier, Fasel, Elfering, & Semmer (2011) reporting that WTNC was robustly and negatively associated with citizenship behavior.

Job Involvement and WTNC

Coinciding with reinforcement theory and research indicating that individuals are more inclined to enact roles with which they strongly identify (Stryker, 1980), boundary theorists suggest that individuals are more likely to favor or protect the domains that house their more self-identifying roles (Ashforth et al, 2000). For example, people are more likely to keep their work from interfering with their personal life when they identify more strongly with their personal roles (e.g., family member, spouse) than with their roles at work (e.g., colleague, supervisor). Those who strongly identify with their work roles, in contrast, are more likely to protect and favor their work domain. Such theorizing coincides with past research indicating that people who are highly involved in their job also tend to also report high levels of work-non conflict (Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Frone et al., 1992a; Kossek & Ozeki, 1999); those who highly identify with their work roles are more likely to allow for work to interfere with their personal lives. Such reasoning also substantiates the independent effects of conflict and involvement on work outcomes. For example, a study of public accountants by Greenhaus, Parasuraman, and Collins (2001) found that accountants' level of career involvement predicted their intentions to leave the profession and in their actual withdrawal behaviors, independently from their experiences of work-nonwork conflict. Given the theoretical and empirical substantiation for the independent effect of job involvement on the prediction of worker attitudes, I also expect to find in my study that job involvement will explain incremental variance in attitudes, beyond WTNC.

Hypothesis 1: Controlling for job involvement, WTNC will be positively related to physical health complaints and negatively related to job satisfaction, organizational commitment, and citizenship performance.

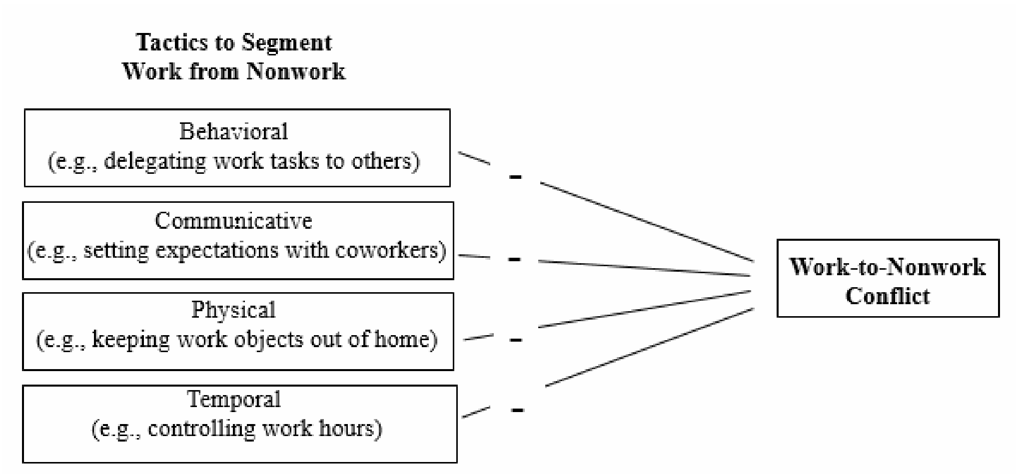

Figure 2. Hypothesis 1.

Outcomes of WTNE

The experience of WTNE is expected to positively affect individual well-being through the transference of both resources and affect between the work and nonwork domains (Greenhaus & Powell, 2006). Studies that have examined the effects of holding multiple life roles support these pathways (i.e., more coping resources, Greenhaus & Powell, 2006; higher self-esteem, Barnett & Hyde, 2001). Further, the WTNE construct itself has also been negatively related to specific indicators of poor well-being (e.g., depressive symptoms, Hammer, Cullen, Neal, Sinclair, & Shafiro, 2005; psychological distress, Haar & Bardoel, 2008).

Further, the broaden-and-build theory (Frederickson, 2001,2000) suggests that the presence of positive emotions (i.e., positive affect) is essential for optimizing psychological and physical functioning. Specifically, the theory asserts that positive emotions instigate coordinated changes in individuals physiological responses, thoughts, and actions, which ultimately results in favorable health outcomes. For example, research has found that experiencing positive emotions induces decreases in vascular resistance (Frederickson, 2000; Tomaka, Blascovich, Kelsey, & Leitten, 1993) and increases in approach-oriented and proactive behaviors (Frederickson & Branigan, 2005; Lazarus & Folkman, 1984). Thus, as the experience of WTNE is in part defined by the transfer of positive affect between the work and personal domains, theory and research suggests that the experience of WTNE should promote better physical health outcomes.

The previously reviewed research on WTNE and worker attitudes also substantiates the proposition that workers seem to make cognitive attributions for the source of their experienced enrichment (Wayne et al., 2004), suggesting that attitudes towards the work domain (e.g., job satisfaction and commitment) can be predicted from experiences of WTNE. A recent meta-analysis on the consequences of enrichment also supports this inference (McNall, Nicklin, & Masuda, 2010). McNall and colleagues reported that both directions of enrichment were positively related to job satisfaction and affective commitment. Yet the estimates between WTNE and the attitudes (.34 for job satisfaction and .35 for affective commitment) were higher than those between NTWE and the attitudes (.20 for job satisfaction and .24 for affective commitment).

Lastly, the job demands and resources framework (JD-R, Voydanoff, 2004; Friedman & Greenhaus, 2000) and social exchange theory (Podsakoff & MacKenzie, 1997) each provide a strong rationale for why WTNE should be positively related to performance. The JD-R framework suggests that support systems at work can be perceived as resources for increasing the efficiency and functioning of employees. Specifically, the theory posits that work resources can play motivational roles, which ultimately lead to strong work engagement, low cynicism, and high performance (Bakker & Demerouti, 2007). As WTNE is rooted in the experience that resources from the work domain positively affect nonwork role performance, it stands to reason that individuals experiencing WTNE are indeed accessing work-based resources, and that the availability and usage of such resources should enable better performance. Further, social exchange theory suggests that individuals who feel supported by an organization are more likely to reciprocate the organization's behavior by performing discretionary behaviors such as those rooted in citizenship (Podsakoff & MacKenzie, 1997).

Job Involvement and WTNE

Compared to the number of studies that have assessed its associations with work-nonwork conflict and work attitudes, limited research exists on the impact of job involvement on WTNE and attitudes. For example, Wayne et al. (2006) reported that work identity (but not family identity) predicted independent amounts of variance in affective commitment, in addition to that which could be explained by enrichment between roles. This suggests that job involvement and WTNE should have independent effects on worker attitudes. However, it is likely that those who indicate strong personal identification with their jobs are also likely to report that their work enriches their personal life, and so some overlap in variance in expected between these constructs in the current study. Nonetheless, it is also likely that individuals experience WTNE not only when they personally identify with their work roles, but also when their involvement at work provides them with important personal resources (e.g., a sense of competence) and financial resources (e.g., pay, benefits).

Hypothesis 2: Controlling for job involvement, WTNE will be negatively related to physical health complaints and positively related to job satisfaction, organizational commitment, and citizenship performance.

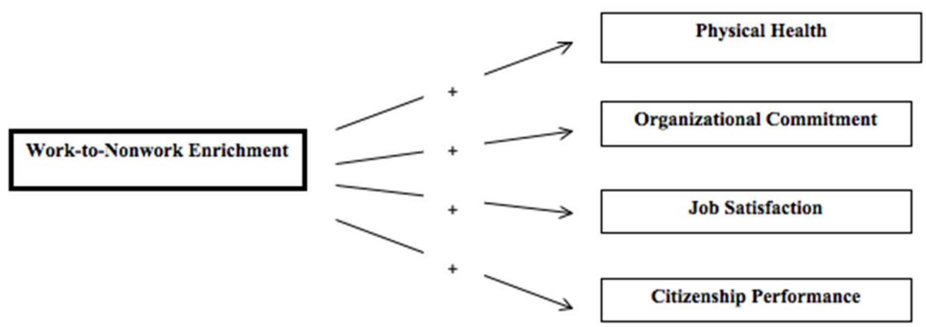

Figure 3. Hypothesis 2.

CHAPTER 4

ANTECEDENTS OF WORK-NONWORK CONFLICT AND ENRICHMENT

Overview

In general, research indicates that work-nonwork conflict is negatively related and work-nonwork enrichment is positively related to individual well-being, job attitudes, and performance. Understanding the boundary management behaviors that can potentially contribute to these experiences enhances our understanding of the field. In my study I will examine how the use of specific boundary management tactics or strategies affects individual tendencies to experience work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment. Prior to hypothesizing relationships between these constructs, I will first review some key antecedents to work-nonwork conflict and enrichment that have received support in the literature.

The antecedents of work-nonwork conflict that have been examined in the literature and which I outline in the following section include: (a) individual differences, (b) features of the work-domain, (c) features of the nonwork domain, and (d) involvement in work and nonwork roles. Research on individual differences has focused on the effects of sex (hereafter referred to as *gender* differences unless indicated otherwise), age, income, and stable dispositions. Features of the work domain that have been examined include the structural features of an individual's job (e.g., their occupation) and the amount of support he or she receives from others while at work. Similarly, features of the nonwork domain that have received attention include the structural features of an individual's personal life (e.g., the number of children at home), and the amount of support he or she receives from others outside the workplace. Lastly, scholars have also examined the construct of involvement from both a behavioral perspective (e.g., the number of hours one dedicated to a given role) and a psychological perspective (e.g., the degree to which an individual personally identifies with his or her roles).

Individual Differences

Gender

A preliminary review of the research on differences between men and women in the work-nonwork interface provides mixed results. Some research indicates that there are differences in the conflict experiences of men and women depending on the direction of conflict (e.g., Gutek, Searle, & Klepa, 1991; Behson, 2002). However, these findings may be qualified by unreported results of the effects of having children or other dependents. Accordingly, these research efforts and their implications are reviewed below.

Gutek, Searle, and Klepa (1991) examined both directions of conflict in a sample of (a) a systematically selected group of APA-affiliated psychologists and (b) a volunteer sample of 209 senior managers in executive education programs. In both samples, the authors found that women reported significantly more WTNC than men, but that women did not report any more or less NTWC than men. However, the authors also indicated that women in their sample reported more hours spent doing family work (e.g., household chores, child care, grocery shopping, etc.), and these results were not accounted for in their analyses of mean gender differences in either direction of conflict. Thus, the differences in WTNC found between men and women in their sample may be explained by women's comparatively stronger role in the home.

Similarly, Behson (2002) examined the NTWC experiences of a random sample of employees at 10 different Northeast locations of a large telecommunications company. Results indicated that women not only reported more NTWC than men, but that women also reported more felt responsibility for the family than men—which was also strongly positively related to an individual's experiences of NTWC. As family responsibilities were not accounted for in the examination of the gender-NWTC relationship, it is thus unclear as to whether or not the differences in NWTC found in their study can be truly attributed gender.

Further, while studies such as those of Gutek et al. (1991) and Behson (2002) indicate that men and women generally experience different levels of work-nonwork conflict, a number of other studies have also indicated there to be no differences at all (e.g., Eagel et al., 1997; Frone, 2000; Frone, Russell, Cooper, 1992b; Grandey & Cropanzano, 1999). Indeed, Frone (2003) suggests that other variables such as those mentioned in the studies of Gutek et al. (i.e. dependency status) and Behson (i.e., responsibility for family) often drive the relationships reported between gender and conflict experiences. Specifically, Frone suggests that:

> Although some studies with large samples may report statistically significant gender differences, the absolute size of these differences is typically not large enough to be of practical importance, and they often disappear after controlling for gender differences in age and family demographic characteristics. (p.149)

Accordingly, inconsistencies in findings on gender differences in work-nonwork conflict may be the result of certain methodological variation across studies, such as variation in sample demographics and how researchers consider these sample features during their analyses. To further parse out the implications of various demographic features and individual differences on gender experiences of work-nonwork conflict, more research examining these relationships is reviewed below.

Gender, Marital Status and Parental Demands: As indicated by Frone (2003), the parental status of an individual often has implications for his or her work-nonwork experiences. Research indicates that individuals with younger children experience greater parental demands (Erickson, Martinengo, & Hill, 2010; Higgins, Duxbury, & Lee, 1994) and these demands are disproportionately consequential for women's work-nonwork conflict. For example, nationally representative surveys indicate that women are still responsible for the majority of household chores and child-care activities (Bond, Thompson, Galinsky, & Prottas, 2002). On workdays, working mothers reported spending nearly an hour more than fathers caring for and doing things with their children and an hour more a day doing home chores (Bond et al., 2002).

Uneven responsibility for the home may also help explain why parental demands qualify the relationship between gender and experiences of the work-nonwork interface. For example, Higgins, Duxury, and Lee (1994) found that gender interacted with the age of children in the home to predict men's and women's experiences of work-nonwork conflict. Their sample consisted of full time dual-earners (i.e., two-partner households with each partner employed full time outside the home) who had children 18 years of age or younger living full time with the partners. Life-cycle stage was operationalized by the age of children living in the home as follows: (a) children under 6 years of age, (b) children from 6 to 12, and (c) children from 13 to 19. Families with children in more than one age group were excluded from the study. The authors found a main effect for gender on WTNC, suggesting that women experienced greater overall levels of conflict than men. However the authors also found that gender interacted with life-cycle stage to affect conflict. Specifically, WTNC for men was not significantly different across the 3 life-cycle stages. For women, however, a significant difference in conflict was found between mothers with children 13 years of age or older and mothers with younger children. Mothers reported significantly less conflict when the age of their child was 13 or greater. These findings therefore suggest that the age of children in a dual-earner household affects the WTNC experiences of the female earner rather than the male earner.

Furthermore, meta-analytic estimates of the main effects of gender on work-nonwork conflict are weak (Byron, 2005), but moderator analyses also support the substantial effects of parenthood. Byron (2005) reported in her meta-analysis that the number of parents within a given study moderated the gender-conflict relationship. As the number of parents in a sample increased, women's experiences of both directions of conflict became significantly greater than that of men. As the number of parents in the sample decreased, the trend reversed, with men reporting greater levels of both directions of conflict. Furthermore, the author also examined the moderating effects of marital status. Results indicated that marital status was negatively related to both directions of conflict as the number of parents in the sample increased, indicating that married parents tend to experience less conflict overall than single parents.

Gender and Ethnicity: Additionally, some research suggests that gender interacts with cultural differences to affect experiences of work-nonwork conflict. Analyzing a nationally representative sample of workers in the US workforce, Grzywacz and Marks (2000) found significant differences in NTWC between black and white females, with black women reporting significantly less NTWC than white women. The authors noted, however, that they were not able to test whether or not such differences could be explained by differences in the types of jobs held by these women or by differences in their kinship responsibilities.

In an attempt to clarify results such as those of Grzywacz and Marks (2000), Roehling, Jarvis, & Swope (2005) examined the interactive effects of gender and parental status of three different ethnic groups: Hispanics, Blacks, and Whites. Using a nationally representative sample (*N* = 1,761) and controlling for gender-role attitudes, the authors found that Hispanics displayed more gender disparity in both directions of work-nonwork conflict than either Blacks or Whites. However, these results were also moderated by parental status; the levels of conflict amongst Hispanic *parents* were indeed unique for men and women compared to parents of different ethnicities. Thus, limited research suggests that the effects of marital status and ethnicity on men's and women's experiences in the work-nonwork interface is generally qualified by parental status.

Age

Scholars have also considered the effects of age on experiences in the work-nonwork interface. Controlling for gender, Finegold, Mohrman, and Spreitzer (2002) found in a sample of over 3000 professionals across six large companies that perceiving a sense of work-life balance was more strongly related to affective organizational commitment for employees under 30 years of age than for those middle-aged or older. Greenhaus, Parasuraman, and Collins (2001) also found in a sample of 428 public accountants that age and gender influenced the relationship between WTNC and career satisfaction. Young (under 33) and middle-aged (33-39) women who experienced WTNC were less likely to indicate being satisfied in their careers, while this relationship was not found for men in these age groups. However, this negative relationship between WTNC and career satisfaction was found for both men and women aged 40 or above. Together, results from Finegold et al. and Greenhaus et al. provide preliminary evidence that experiences in the work-nonwork interface may negatively affect the commitment of younger workers and the career satisfaction of younger women more so than commitment and career satisfaction of older individuals.

Regarding the degree to which individuals at different ages experience unique levels of WTNC, Grzywacz, Almeida, and McDonald (2002) found in a representative (US) sample of workers that the average levels of WTNC did not differ between those aged 35-44 years and those aged 45-55, whereas older individuals tended to experience less WTNC than those in younger age categories. Similarly, Dex & Bond (2005) found in a sample of over 3000 UK workers in six organizations in the finance, health, and social services sectors that work-life balance concerns were reported more frequently by those in age groups 36-45 and 46-55 than those in older age categories.

A longitudinal analysis conducted by scholars in Finland also provides preliminary evidence for the role of parental status on the relationship between age and work-nonwork conflict. Rantanen, Kinnunen, Pulkkinn, & Kokko (2012) investigated the developmental trajectories of work-nonwork conflict at three time points (ages 36, 42, and 50) among a representative sample of Finnish workers. While the mean levels of

WTNC across the sample as a whole did not change over time, the authors found four distinct developmental profiles of individuals.

The most representative group (*n* =151) in the sample experienced decreases in WTNC over time. Results also found that upper white-collar workers were overrepresented in this group at ages 42 and 50. Furthermore, the number of children living at home decreased significantly among these workers between the ages of 36 and 50, as did the number of weekly working hours.

The second most representative group (*n* =105) experienced low and stable levels of both directions of conflict over time. This group was overpopulated by lower white-collar workers and also had the greatest number of children leave home during the study's 14-year time span. The number of working hours per week was also lowest in this group.

The third group (*n* = 14) experienced increases in WTNC and NTWC. At age 50, individuals in this group had more children living at home than those in the second most representative group (*n* =105). Further, individuals in this group did not experience a significant decrease in the number of children living at home (compared to those in the most representative group, *n* = 151).

The fourth group (*n* = 7) experienced decreases in NTWC conflict over time. This group also contained a disproportionate number of upper white-collar workers. Furthermore, the age of the youngest child of those in the group at age 36 was also significantly younger than the age of the youngest child in all the other groups.

Rantanen et al.'s (2012) research suggests that the effects of age on experiences of work-nonwork conflict are qualified by demographic features such as the number and age of children in the household, as well as structural work features such as number of weekly working hours. Specifically, results of their study's longitudinal profiles indicate that the more children an individual cares for in the home and the more time an individual spends at work during the week the greater likelihood one has for experiencing conflict between the work and nonwork domains. These findings also provide a possible explanation for why Grzywacz et al. (2002) and Dex and Bond (2005) found that workers between the ages of 35-55 tended to experience more work-nonwork conflict than older workers: middle-aged workers are the most likely in the workforce to be caring for children.

Income

Further, past research suggests that those with higher levels of education and income tend to experience more conflict between work and nonwork. In a meta-analysis on the antecedents of work-nonwork conflict, Byron (2005) reported that employees with higher personal income experienced greater WTNC (p = .10, 95% *CI*: +.08/+.12), whereas personal income was not significantly related to NTWC (p = .00, 95% *CI*: -.03/+.02). Further substation for these findings stems from results of a nationally representative (US) study (Ford, 2003) that analyzed data from American household data taken from 1995-1996. Ford's (2003) research indicated that total household income is positively related to WTNC, but unrelated to NTWC. Interestingly, results of this study also found that the relationship between WTNC and family strain were stronger for individuals with lower household incomes than for those with higher household incomes, suggesting the income also affects the degree to which WTNC negatively influences individual well-being.

Stable Dispositions

Limited research has been done to assess the personality variables most strongly related to experiences in the work-nonwork interface. Neuroticism and internal locus of control have been the two personality predictors of work-nonwork conflict (Michel, 2011) that have attracted ample attention and were recently included in a meta-analysis on the antecedents of work-nonwork conflict. As one of the traits within the 5-factor model of personality (Big Five; Goldberg, 1990), neuroticism reflects the tendency to experience negative emotions, such as anxiety, worry, and depressed mood. Locus of control refers to an individual's tendency to attribute control over their life's events to either themselves (i.e., internal sources) or other factors (i.e., external sources; Rotter, 1954). Michel (2011) reported strong positive meta-analytic estimates between neuroticism and both directions of conflict (.38 for WTNC and .33 for NTWC) and moderate negative estimates between locus of control and both directions of conflict (-.21 for WTNC and -.19 for NTWC, respectively). These findings suggest that those who are emotionally stable and those who feel in control of the events in their life tend to report low levels of conflict between the work and personal domains (in both directions).

Additionally, Bernas and Major (2000) found hardiness—a multidimensional personality characteristic consisting of commitment (to life's activities), control (over one's life circumstances), and challenge (i.e., viewing changes in one's life as challenges or opportunities for growth; Kobasa, 1979)—to have an indirect effect on WTNC through job stress. Specifically, the authors found that those who reported high levels of hardiness tended to experience lower levels of job stress, which was positively related to WTNC. Finally, Grzywacz & Marks (2000) also found that extraversion—the tendency to be outgoing, talkative, and energetic (Thompson, 2008)—negatively predicted WTNC and positively predict enrichment in both directions.

Collectively, research suggests that some personality traits do affect the degree to which individuals experience specific directions of work-nonwork conflict. There is strong support in the literature for the observation that those who are emotionally stable and those who feel they have control over their life's circumstances generally experience low levels of work-nonwork conflict (regardless of direction). Preliminary research also suggest that extraverts may not only experience relatively low levels of work interfering with their personal life, but may also tend to experience greater levels of work enriching their personal life and vice-a-versa.

Nonwork Domain Antecedents

Structural Features of Personal Roles

The number and ages of children in one's household is the structural feature of the personal domain that has been the most consistent predictor of work-nonwork conflict. Research consistently indicates that NTWC is strongly driven by the family demands associated with caring and providing for children (Rothausen, 1999), and especially young children (Pleck, 1980; Beutell & Greenhaus, 1983). Indeed, several studies have found that parents experience more NTWC (Behson, 2002; Eagel, Miles, & Icenogle, 1997; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000) than individuals without children. In recent meta-analytic work, Byron (2005) reported a rho (population correlation) of .16 (95% CI: +.14/+.17) between number of children in a household and NTWC. While lower in absolute value, Byron also reported a rho of .09 (95% CI: +.07/+.11) between the number of children in a household and experiences of WTNC.

A related structural variable in the personal domain that has been increasingly studied as a predictor of work-nonwork experiences is elder dependency status, or whether or not an individual is responsible for older dependents in addition to children. Working individuals caring for both of these groups are considered to be representative of the sandwiched generation (e.g., Durity, 1991; Fernandez, 1990; Hammer & Neal, 2007; Miller, 1981; Nichols & Junk, 1997; Rosenthal, Martin-Matthews, & Matthews, 1996; Spillman & Pezzin, 2000).

Analyzing data from the Informal Caregivers Survey a component of the 1982 National Long Term Care Survey conducted by the Bureau of the Census for the Department of Health and Human Services, Stone and Short (1990) found that 34% of all caregivers (n = 1,003) and 33% of all employed caregivers (n = 491) provided support to disabled elderly and children younger than 18 years old. More recent estimates suggest that between 9% and 13% of U.S. households contain adults aged 30 or over who simultaneously work and provide care to both aging parents and children (Hammer & Neal, 1997). Research suggest that these individuals tend to experience greater stress compared to those handling fewer role combinations (e.g., Fernandez, 1990; Fredriksen-Goldsen Scharlach, 2001; Neal, Chapman, Ingersoll-Dayton, & Emlen, 1993), more stress and absenteeism from work than employees occupying only one caregiving role (Chapman, Ingersoll-Dayton, & Neal, 1994), and are also more likely to hold negative attitudes towards their work (Buffardi, Smith, O'Brien, & Erdwins, 1999).

Interestingly, however, a 12-year longitudinal study of 2,033 married individuals by Loomis and Booth (1995) found that having multigenerational caregiving responsibilities did not significantly affect a variety of measures of well-being, including the caregivers' marital quality, psychological well-being, financial resources, or satisfaction with leisure time. The findings of this study and related research further suggest that the effects of being a sandwiched worker may be affected by gender. For example, the number of hours provided to parent care-giving for sandwiched individuals is significantly related to higher levels of depression for women but not for men (Voydanoff and Donnelly, 1999). Furthermore, Stevens & Townsend (1997) found that the stress of being a mother, wife, and employee exacerbated the effects of parent care on depression and life satisfaction. Receiving rewards in the employee role, however, was also shown to buffer the effects of parent care on stress. Subsequent research (Christensen, Stephens, & Townsend, 1998) also found that feelings of mastery (i.e., one's belief that one is able to influence/control life events and is competent in managing these events) helped explain variation in life satisfaction by sandwiched women.

Support Outside of the Workplace

In addition to parental workload and children's misbehavior, research also indicates that high degrees of tension in a marital relationship and low levels of spousal support positively predict NTWC (Frone et al., 1992). Whether or not one has a partner or spouse on whom to rely for support with taking care of these household duties (Greenhaus & Kopelman, 1981; Keith and Schafer, 1980) seems therefore to affect the degree to which one's nonwork domain exacerbates the incompatibility between one's work and nonwork roles. Related support systems in the nonwork domain that tend to decrease conflict include instrumental and emotional support from family members (Adams, King, & King, 1996; Burke, 1988; King, Mattimore, King, & Adams, 1995; Wayne et al., 2006.)

Collectively, research on the nonwork domain antecedents of work-nonwork conflict provides support for three general conclusions. First, individuals with children at home are more likely to experience conflict between the work and nonwork domain than those without children. Secondly, women who care for both children and other dependents (e.g., parents, disabled family members) are more likely to experience stress and conflict between the work and nonwork domains than their male counterparts. Third, the support a worker derives from the contacts in his or her personal life, whether that be a spouse or a family member, is vital for buffering the negative effects of work-nonwork conflict on worker health.

Work Domain Antecedents

Structural Job Features

A variety of qualities of one's work role contribute to an individual's experience of work-nonwork conflict and work-nonwork enrichment. Research has examined these relationships at the most general and abstract level by comparing the experiences of those within different occupational categories. For example, Frone et al. (1992) found that white-collar workers experience higher levels of WTNC and lower levels of NTWC than blue-collar workers. Duxbury and Higgins (1994) also found that those in managerial or professional positions experience more WTNC than those in other occupations.

Additionally, the stressors or *demands* of particular jobs have also been examined as predictors of work-nonwork conflict. In her meta-analysis of the antecedents of work-nonwork conflict, Byron (2005) reported job stress to be the strongest meta-analytic correlate to both directions of work-nonwork conflict, with the highest estimates stemming from studies that measured *role overload* as the job stress antecedent. A more recent meta-analysis by Michel et al. (2011) also found work role overload to be the best predictor of WTNC and family role overload to best predict NTWC.

A job feature or *resource* that has received increasing amounts of attention in the literature is flexibility, or the degree to which a job allows a worker to complete work tasks in a non-standard hours (9-5) fashion. Work-nonwork scholars have suggested that the psychological benefit emanating from flexible work arrangements is the degree of control or autonomy these arrangements provide a worker (Christensen & Staines, 1990). Indeed, Thomas and Ganster (1995) found that feelings of control mediated the effect of flexible scheduling on WTNC. Decision latitude – the ability to make substantial work-related decisions autonomously – has also been positively related to WTNE in both directions (Grzywacz & Marks, 2000).

Carlson, Grzywacz, & Kacmar (2010) have also provided initial evidence for the role of gender in the relationship between schedule flexibility and WTNC. The authors analyzed data from a sample of 607 individuals who reported having either a standard – schedule work arrangement (n = 443) or a flexible work arrangement (n = 164). Controlling for marital status and number of children in the home, the authors did not find a main effect for gender on individual's experiences of work-to-nonwork conflict. However, they did find that gender interacted with schedule flexibility to affect experiences of WTNC, such that schedule flexibility produced a greater negative correlation with conflict for women than for men.

Support in the Workplace

Stress researchers have known for some time that social support buffers the effects of stressors, affording individuals protection from stressful conditions (see Cohen

& Wills, 1985, for a review). Support-related features of the work domain that tend to decrease conflict include general supervisor support (Galinsky, Bond, & Friedman, 1996), supervisor support for work-family balancing (i.e., FSSBs, Hammer, Kossek, Zimmerman, & Daniels, 2007), supervisor commitment to work-family policies (Thompson, Beauvais, & Allen, 2008), and perceptions of a supportive organizational culture regarding work and family (Allen, 2001; Kelly et al., 2008). Support at work has also been shown to positively predict both directions of enrichment (Grzywacz & Marks, 2000).

To summarize, past research on the nonwork-domain antecedents of work-nonwork conflict support three conclusions. First, those who are in white-collar professions, in managerial or professional positions, or in jobs that entail substantial work role overload, tend to experience high levels of WTNC. Second, resources that afford individuals the ability to work autonomously—such as flexible scheduling—tend to reduce experiences of WTNC. Third, employees who perceive their organizations support worker efforts to manage work and nonwork tend to report lower levels of WTNC.

Involvement in Work and Nonwork Roles

There are two types of involvement an individual may have with a particular role. The first is behavioral involvement which refers to the amount of time a person spends in a given role. In work-nonwork research, behavioral involvement is typically captured by the number of hours one spends doing specific behaviors. In the work domain, common indicators of work involvement include the number of hours one spends at work or doing work tasks (Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Greenhaus, Bedeian, & Mossholder, 1987; Keith & Schafer, 1984; Nielson, Carlson, & Lankau, 2001; Staines, Pleck, Shepard, &

O'Conner, 1978). In the nonwork domain, indicators might include the number of hours one spends on childcare (parental involvement), household chores (home involvement), or more generally in one's personal domain doing a combination of these and other leisure activities (i.e., nonwork involvement; e.g., Carlson & Perrewe, 1999, Williams & Alliger, 1994; Yang, Chen, Choi, & Zou, 2000).

Psychological involvement, on the other hand, reflects how salient a particular role is to one's identity. Researchers have measured workers' levels of involvement with their jobs (i.e., job involvement, Carlson & Perrewe, 1999; Parasuraman & Simmers, 2001) as well as their careers (i.e., career involvement; Greenhaus, Parasuraman, & Collins, 2001; Honeycutt & Rosen, 1997). Related constructs that have also been investigated include work role identity (Wayne, Randel, & Stevens, 2006) and work commitment (Parasurman & Simmers, 2001). In the nonwork domain, studies have most often examined individuals' involvement with their children (i.e., parental involvement, Vinokur, Pierce, & Buck, 1999) and family (Higgins, Duxbury, & Irving, 1992; Parasuraman, Purohit, Godshalk, & Beutell, 1996).

Behavioral Involvement

Research has consistently found that the number of hours one dedicates to work roles is positively related to experiences of WTNC (Frone et al., 1992a; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000; Netemeyer, Boles, & McMurrian, 1996). Similarly, the number of hours one dedicates to personal roles (e.g., chores, home maintenance, childcare, grocery shopping) has been robustly related to NTWC (Gutek, Searle & Slepa, 1991). Furthermore, workers who perceive that their organizations place heavy demands on their time (reflecting low organizational support for one's personal life) have also been negatively related to WTNE (Wayne et al., 2006). These results suggest that the relationship between work hours and experiences of conflict and enrichment may depend upon nature of why a person is working so often – i.e., whether or not long work hours are self-induced or enforced by one's workplace.

Psychological Involvement

Early reviews of research on the relationship between psychological work involvement and experiences of conflict between the work and nonwork domains employing unidirectional measures of conflict report mixed findings. While some indicate job involvement is positively related to conflict (Frone & Rice, 1987; Hammer, Allen, & Grigsby, 1997; Higgins, Duxbury, & Irving, 1992) others found them to be negatively related (Jones & Butler, 1980).

Interestingly, studies employing bi-directional measures of conflict have also found mixed results. Some indicate that high job involvement is positively related to WTNC (Adams et al., 1996; Carlson & Frone, 2003; Carlson & Kacmar, 2000; Thompson & Blau, 1993; Wiley, 1987), while others have not (Frone et al., 1992; Parasuraman, Purohit, & Godschalk, 1996; Vinokur, Pierce, & Buck, 1999). Similarly, NTWC has been associated with both high levels of family involvement (Carlson & Kacmar; 2000) and low levels of family involvement (Thompson & Blau, 1993; Wiley, 1987). However, recent meta-analytic work by Michel et al. (2011) suggests that, in general, job involvement indeed does have a small positive effect on WTNC. However, the authors found no support for a relationship between home involvement and NTWC.

Taken together, past research on work-nonwork involvement provides clearer conclusions for the effects of behavioral involvement on work-nonwork conflict than the effects of psychological involvement. On one hand, substantial research suggests that the more time an individual devotes to a role, the more likely he or she is going to experience conflict between the role to which time is given and other roles. On the other hand, studies examining psychological involvement provide mixed results and suggest a need for further research on potential variables that qualify the seemingly contradictory relationships found between involvement and work-nonwork conflict.

Conclusion

Substantial research has been conducted to clarify the antecedents of WTNC, including individual differences (e.g., gender, age, education and income, and stable dispositions), features of the work domain (e.g., structural job features, workplace support mechanisms), features of the personal domain (e.g., structural features of personal roles, support mechanisms at home), and behavioral and psychological involvement in roles. Collectively these studies suggest that research examining WTNC and WTNE should consider, foremost, the parental (or other care-giving) demands of their sample, especially as it refers to the age of children in the home. Such demands have been consistently related to stronger experiences of WTNC (Byron, 2005) and lower levels of enrichment (Grzywacz et al., 2002). Further, the effects of these demands on WTNC and WTNE should be considered jointly with other demographic variables such as gender, age, and marital status, as the effects of gender and age on WTNC and WTNE are often qualified by parental demands (Byron, 2005; Higgins, Duxury, & Lee, 1994; Rantanen et al., 2012). Additionally, researchers should consider the level of education (Grzywacz & Marks, 2000), type of employment (e.g., white-collar or blue-collar; Frone et al. (1992) and the degree of role overload (Byron 2005, Michel, 2011) and sense of control (Thomas & Ganster, 1995) individuals experience in their work environment. Heeding these suggestions, I will be accounting for the possible effects of these variables in my study by empirically testing their relationships with WTNC in my sample and subsequently controlling for their effects in all hypotheses predicting WTNC.

Notably, despite the vast amount of literature that exists on the antecedents of WTNC and WTNE, the field of work-nonwork study has paid little attention to understanding the specific actions that individuals take throughout their workweek to better balance their roles (Kreiner et al., 2009). A growing stream of research on work-nonwork boundary management provides scholars with a valuable framework for capturing these actions. Boundary research suggests that individuals tend to perform certain actions that are meant to either maintain or break down role boundaries, which in turn, places individuals along a segmentation-integration continuum (Ashforth et al., 2000; Kossek et al., 1999), and these actions have differential consequences for individual experiences of stress, health, and work-nonwork conflict. Accordingly, next I review the literature on boundary management prior to outlining my study's research questions and hypotheses regarding specific segmentation behaviors.

CHAPTER 5

BOUNDARY MANAGEMENT

Overview

Boundary management (Ashforth et al., 2000) is an active navigation of the work-nonwork interface, where one is concerned with either preventing or facilitating the movement of elements from one domain (e.g., work) into another domain (e.g., personal life). In general, boundaries set forth the scope and perimeter of a particular domain (Kreiner et al., 2009). Weak boundaries are those that allow for the free flow of elements between domains, and are often described as being *permeable* or *open to influence*. Strong boundaries are characterized by attempts to separate elements from distinct domains and are therefore considered to be *closed to influence* or *impermeable* (Ashforth et al., 2000; Kreiner et al., 2009). Individuals create boundaries around domains (e.g., the work domain, the nonwork or personal domain) in order to simplify their environment (Ashforth et al., 2000), or to organize and separate role demands or expectations into specific realms (Kossek, Noe, & deMarr, 1999).

Integration-Segmentation

As a consequence of creating these boundaries, people naturally tend to fall along a *segmentation-integration continuum* which characterizes the relationships individuals form with either domain. Where a person lies along the continuum is a reflection of their preferred approach to work-nonwork role synthesis, and reflects the values and realities of their life (Kossek et al., 1999). On one end of the spectrum are *segmenters* who tend to reduce the amount of "flow" or transition of content between domains. They try to leave work matters at work (and personal matters out of the workplace). On the other end of the spectrum are *integraters* who prefer to do the opposite – they try to maximize the flow between domains. Different from the few who strictly segment or integrate, however, are the majority of others who segment only one domain from another (i.e., who segment work from their personal lives but not necessarily their personal lives from their work), or who segment both domains from each other but only to a modest extent. My study will focus on the nature and consequences of segmentation, and in particular the construct of segmentation work from nonwork.

Boundary Strength Stability

Research has implicitly conceptualized boundary behaviors as reflective of relatively stable individual differences (e.g., Edwards & Rothbard, 1999; Kreiner, 2006). Hecht and Allen (2009) note that such a conceptualization makes sense in light of the fact that the demands of predominant life roles (e.g., parent, worker) tend to be invariant over time. For example, despite potential minor fluctuations in duties, an individual's work role demands are unlikely to drastically change over time, especially for those who stay in a specific role and organization. Similarly, while the birth of a new baby moving into a new home temporarily brings upon stronger role demands at home, the general demands of being a parent and/or home owner are stable over time.

Some empirical support for the general stability of individual boundaries has been provided by a recent study conducted by Hecht and Allen (2009) on work-nonwork boundary strength The authors defined boundary strength as the extent to which a particular boundary (e.g., the home boundary) allows itself to be penetrated by, or resists penetration from, outside forces (e.g., work-related phone calls from a colleague). Using a sample of 205 alumni from a large Canadian university, these researchers measured individuals' (work and home) boundary strengths at two points in time (T1 and T2), which were a year apart, and found support for the general stability of individual work and home boundaries over time. While Hecht and Allen's (2009) study is the only investigation on boundary strength to date, their initial findings and the aforementioned theoretical rationale support my decision to consider the preference for segmenting one's boundaries to be a relatively stable individual difference variable.

Boundary Management Tactics

How individuals develop and uphold their (segmented or integrated) boundaries is captured by the specific tactics (Kreiner, Hollensbe, & Sheep, 2009) or strategies (Kossek, Noe, & deMarr, 1999) people use to construct, dismantle, and maintain the work-nonwork border (Nippert-Eng, 1996). One might also consider tactics to be specific instances of active coping, evoked for the purposes of managing certain boundary domains. In a recent study on the boundary behaviors of Episcopal priests, Kreiner et al. (2009) reported that these individuals used four types of general tactics: (1) behavioral, such as using other people to facilitate segmentation or integration of domains; (2) temporal, such as blocking periods of time for devotion to work or nonwork activities; (3) physical, such as erecting physical structures between work and nonwork domains; and (4) communicative, such as orally conveying one's boundary preferences to one's family or work colleagues. They propose that these tactics are social practices that are enacted to decrease incongruent expectations between one's boundary preferences and environmental constraints, to reduce the occurrence of boundary violations, and ultimately to diminish one's experience of work-nonwork conflict. In other words, tactics underscore the construction and negotiation of the work-nonwork border.

Importance of Boundary Tactics

Examining these tactics is important for understanding the work-nonwork interface because their nature and frequency impact how often a person experiences domain transitions, which over time increases the level of their perceived work-nonwork conflict. Daily domain transitions are experienced, for instance, when a person takes a phone call from a spouse while working at the office, psychologically shifting from the work domain to the personal domain. Physical shifts occur daily as well, for example, when a person leaves the office during the lunch hour to run a quick personal errand.

Empirical evidence has indicated that this daily (micro) transitioning, the frequent pausing of action in one domain to attend to another, leads to heightened role conflict (Desrochers et al., 2005; Matthews, Barnes-Farrell, & Bulger, 2010). Analyzing data from a representative sample of 1,003 wage and salaried employees in the United States workforce, researchers at the Family and Work Institute found that those who are in contact with work once or more a week outside of normal work hours are more likely to report feeling overworked (44%) than those who have little or no contact (26%; Galinsky et al., 2005). This indicates that multitasking and frequently being interrupted by work issues outside of one's standard work hours contributes to one feeling overworked. Further, this feeling of being overworked was positively related to self-reported levels of stress, symptoms of clinical depression, poorer health, and neglect for the self.

In addition to affecting worker stress, proper management of the work-nonwork interface also has important implications for employers. For instance, Galinsky et al. (2005) indicate that feeling overworked also increased workers' likelihood of making mistakes, feeling angry with their employers, and resenting coworkers who seemed to work less. Working long hours also has been associated with increased accidents on the job (Gander, Merry, Millar, & Weller, 2000; Loomis, 2005) and occupational injuries (Dembe, Erickson, Delbos, & Banks, 2005). Recent research therefore suggests that boundary management strategies have significant consequences that can affect both workers and their employers. However, more research is required to fully understand and expand upon these relationships.

Conceptualization of Boundaries

While Lewin (1951) proposed that work and nonwork should be thought of as distinct domains, the true origins of boundary theory may be traced to the cognitive sociological framework proposed by Zerubavel (1991), who fleshed out the processes and social implications related to people's classification of entities into bound categories. Nippert-Eng (1996) later explicitly applied this boundary framework to the study of work and nonwork domains, and Ashforth et al. (2000) subsequently refined the theory to allow for testable models of boundary dynamics. In 2000, Sue Campbell Clark also published a theoretical piece on a very similar theory—border theory—, which she offered as a model for how time, places, and people, may be differentially associated with distinct domains.

Although there are some conceptual distinctions between boundary theory and border theory, the two theories are more similar than unique. Each of the theories characterizes the segmentation-integration continuum by flexibility and permeability. They both define flexibility as the contraction or expansion of a domain boundary in response to demands from another domain and permeability as the extent to which a given domain boundary can be penetrated by elements from another domain. Secondly, the theories also propose that the strength of a boundary is determined by its flexibility and permeability, and that the similarity of two domains influences the extent to which the two domains become integrated or segmented. The two theories diverge on how the similarity of two roles (in two different domains) impacts work-nonwork conflict. Whereas boundary theory argues that the similarity between two roles is positively related to work-nonwork conflict *because* similarity increases boundary strength, border theory argues that role similarity and boundary strength are each unique constructs and *interact* to influence work-nonwork conflict. Most recent research has used the term 'boundary' when studying domain relationships in the work-nonwork interface (Chen, Powell, & Greenhaus, 2009; Glavin, Sheiman, & Reed, 2011; Winkel & Clayton, 2009), and so my study will do so as well.

Empirical Research on Boundaries

Past research on boundary management has been fairly limited. Although researchers have examined boundary dynamics through a variety of lenses, the diversity of these efforts has precluded the field from drawing strong inferences about just how boundaries operate. For instance, some studies have considered how the frequency of contact between two domains, conceptualized by either role integration, role blurring, or boundary-spanning activities, relates to stress and experiences in the work-nonwork interface (Chesley, 2005; Desrochers et al., 2005; Glavin, Schieman, & Reid, 2011; Illes, Wilson, & Wagner 2009; Kossek, Lausch, Eaton, 2006; Voydanoff, 2005a). Others have examined how the relationship between boundary management and stress outcomes can be understood from the perspective of person-environment fit (Chen, Powell, & Greenhaus, 2009; Edwards & Rothbard, 1999; Kirchmeyer, 1995; Rothbard, Phillips, & Dumas, 2005). Still others have investigated how specific elements of boundaries (e.g., flexibility, permeability, domain transitions, role referencing, and role identification) interact to influence individual and organizationally-relevant outcomes (Bulger, Matthews, & Hoffman, 2007; Matthews & Barnes-Farrell, 2010; Olson-Buchanan & Boswell, 2006; Park & Jex, 2011; Winkel & Clayton, 2009). Next I review the main tenants of these past efforts – specifically, what boundary-related constructs were examined and how they were reported to influence worker functioning.

Integrating/Blurring and Boundary Spanning

Overview: A handful of investigations in the work-nonwork boundary literature have tried to elucidate the consequences of boundary integration. These studies have focused on either the individual tendency to integrate (or blur) boundaries or the boundary demands that drive integration behaviors. Studies in the former category have examined the impact of integration on work-nonwork conflict (Desrochers et al., 2005; Kossek et al., 2006); job, marital, and family, satisfaction (Chesley, 2005; Illes et al., 2009); and psychological distress (Chesley, 2005). Studies of boundary demands have examined how such demands influence work-nonwork conflict and perceived stress (Voydanoff, 2005a), as well as guilt and psychological distress (Glavin et al., 2011).

Integration: Working at home on professional tasks was positively related to role blurring, and role blurring was positively related to work-nonwork transitions, the frequency of distractions when working from home, and work-nonwork conflict (Desrochers et al., 2005). Further, blurring increased with the age of the respondent's youngest child, suggesting that the parental role boundary is less negotiable and less adaptable to work when a dependent child is younger (Desrochers et al.). Kossek et al. (2006) also found that the tendency to integrate work and nonwork was positively related to the experience of NTWC after controlling for gender, children, marital status, and organization. This indicates that people who integrate their work and nonwork domains tend to experience greater interference from their personal life while in the work domain.

Furthermore, Illes et al. (2009) found that the integration of work and nonwork roles interacted with daily job satisfaction to predict home positive affect, such that the relationship between daily job satisfaction and home affect was positive for those with integrated roles but negative for those with more segmented roles. High integrators experienced a positive spillover of job satisfaction to their home affect, which was reflected in the home affect ratings provided by their spouses. In contrast, for those with more segmented roles, the more satisfied they were with their job, the weaker their positive affect (and stronger their negative affect) was while at home. These findings highlight a potential benefit to role integration: specifically, integration may increase the likelihood that an individual will on a daily basis transfer the positive emotions that they experience during their workday to their personal life.

Boundary Spanning**:** Voydanoff (2005a) found that commuting time, the bringing of work home, and job contacts while at home were all related to work-nonwork conflict and perceived stress. However, merely working at home did not affect conflict or stress, and overnight travel only impacted WTNC (not stress). Furthermore, multitasking (but not simply working from home) partially explained the effects of bringing work home and receiving job contacts at home on WTNC and stress. This would indicate that at least some of the negative consequences associated with bringing work into the nonwork realm might be curtailed by the elimination of excessive multitasking.

As for the influence of boundary-spanning resources, Voydanoff (2005a)'s findings did not provide support for the impact of work support *policies* (dependent care benefits or work schedule flexibility) on WTNC or perceived stress. However, being granted time off for personal obligations and perceiving a supportive work-nonwork culture were each negatively related to work-nonwork conflict and stress. Results also indicated that WTNC mediated the influence of commuting time, work-family multitasking, time off for family, and a supportive culture, on perceived stress. Therefore, it seems that the reason why long commutes and multitasking increases stress, and why receiving time off for one's personal life and a supportive organizational culture decreases stress, is because each of these demands and resources amplify the feeling that work is, or is not, interfering with one's personal life.

Glavin et al. (2011) also examined the impact of boundary spanning work demands on worker experiences of stress. However, their study focused on the specific stress outcomes of guilt and psychological distress. The authors found that the interaction of work contact and gender affects guilt (independent of the main effect of work-family conflict), such that the positive association between work contact and guilt was only applicable to women. In other words, women who frequently receive phone calls were more likely to report feelings of guilt, whereas the frequency of such contact for men did not influence their guilt. Similarly, work contact also contributed to women's (but not to men's) level of distress, independent of their experiences of work-nonwork conflict. Galvin et al.'s findings suggest that women were differentially stressed by merely receiving work contact outside of normal hours, regardless of whether or not they perceived it as a threat to their performance of nonwork roles,.

Furthermore, the authors also found that guilt attenuated the interaction coefficient of work contact and gender on stress to non-significance – suggesting that the impact of work contact on women's distress can be explained by their feelings of guilt. Including guilt in the prediction of distress also significantly attenuated the overall positive association held for both men and women between work-family conflict and distress. Therefore it seems that the stress associated with work-nonwork conflict may be partially explained by the guilt that ensues when one believes one is continually sacrificing personal time to meet work demands.

In a related study on work contact during personal hours, Chesley (2005) found that communications use (e.g., cell phones—not computer technology) during nonwork time was significantly linked to increases in negative affect and decreased family satisfaction, as well as to increases in WTNC and NTWC. Furthermore, the positive relationship between communication use and negative affect, as well as the negative relationship between communication use and family satisfaction, were each fully explained by increases in WTNC for men and women. Individuals who more frequently use communication technologies to conduct work while they are 'off-the-clock' tend to feel as if their work is interfering with their personal life, and as a result, tend to experience more negative emotions and less satisfaction with their personal life.

Park and Jex (2011) also conducted a study exploring the role of communications technology (CT) in the segmentation-integration continuum. The authors found that individuals who preferred to segment their work from their personal domain set more limits around the use of CT at home, and that those limits partially explained why the segmentation preference was related to decreases in WTNC. However, contrary to expectations, individuals who strongly identified with their personal roles outside of work were no more likely to place boundaries on CT use while at work than those with weaker identification.

Furthermore, the authors also found that those with strong preferences for keeping their personal life out of their work domain also tended to set more limits on CT use while at work. For these individuals, setting such limits also decreased their experiences of NTWC. Similarly, those who more strongly identified with their work role tended to exact fewer restrictions around CT use "off the clock," and those weaker restrictions helped to explain their tendency to experience more WTNC. Bearing in mind the nature of the sample – those employed in offices with standard working hours – the study suggests that strong identification with the work role drives more variation in standard-shift worker behavior than strong identification with roles in one's personal life, which is likely a result of workers having more discretion with CT use outside of the office.

Summary**:** Collectively, the reviewed studies suggest that the merging of work and nonwork roles is associated with feeling that work and nonwork domains are incompatible. Each of the studies suggests that conflict increases between the work and nonwork domains as individuals integrate their roles. Frequently transitioning between roles (Desorchers et al., 2005), being distracted by personal matters (Desorchers et al., 2005), multitasking (Voydanoff, 2005a), and using communications technology (Chesley, 2005) are some of the mechanisms that explain the effects of integration on work-nonwork conflict for those who often take on work responsibilities outside of the office. However, the work of Illes et al. (2009) suggests that integration may encourage the transfer of affect between domains, and Park and Jex's (2011) findings suggest that the influence of integration on various outcomes may depend on the nature of one's work and the strength of identification one has with work and nonwork roles.

Boundary Management and Worker-Workplace Fit

Overview: A handful of studies have examined how the alignment between individual boundary preferences and organizational practices can influence individual well-being and worker attitudes. Edwards and Rothbard (1999) and Chen et al. (2009) examined the impact of boundary congruence on specific health indicators and work-nonwork conflict, respectively. Kirchmeyer (1995) and Rothbards et al. (2005) mapped specific organizational practices and policies onto the segmentation-integration continuum and examined how the alignment between those practices and the preferences of workers influenced work-nonwork conflict and job attitudes, respectively.

Congruence, Health, and Conflict: Edwards and Rothbard (1999) examined how an individual's preference for segmentation interacts with organizational norms to affect well-being. Results indicated that anxiety, depression, irritation, and somatic symptoms all decreased as organizational segmentation supplies approached individual segmentation preferences. Indices of well-being were higher when segmentation supplies and values were both high – suggesting that high degrees of separation may generally be a more effective boundary management strategy than simply having no preference.

Chen et al. (2009) found that the congruence between preferences and supplies predicted decreases in WTN time-based and strain-based conflict, indicating that the match between employee and employer on boundary expectations can affect the degree to which workers perceive that their job negatively conflicts with their personal life. Congruence was also positively related to *instrumental* WTNE, suggesting that workers are more likely to transfer positive behavior, skills, and values from work to their personal life when their boundary expectations are mirrored by those of their organizations. However, the proposed positive relationship between congruence and *affective* WTNE was not supported; whether or not workers transferred emotions from work to home was not affected by boundary congruence.

Congruence and Attitudes: Kirchmeyer (1995) found that workers' organizational commitment was positively related to organizational practices of respect (characterized by the acknowledgement and valuing of workers' nonwork domain), but not to practices of integration (characterized by efforts to reduce the gap between workers' work and nonwork domains). Organizational commitment was also negatively related to practices of separation (characterized by efforts to enforce distance between workers' work and nonwork domains), suggesting that workers tend to be more committed in organizations that encourage and support workers' efforts to independently manage their own personal lives.

Rothbard et al. (2005) found that greater access to on-site childcare was positively related to satisfaction and commitment for integrators and negatively related to satisfaction and commitment for segmenters, supporting the notion that policies enabling integration are differentially beneficial for certain individuals. Counter to expectations, those who preferred to segment their work and nonwork lives and who reported having access to flextime did not report greater levels of job satisfaction than those with the preference to integrate. However, those who wanted segmentation and who perceived access to flextime did report higher levels of organizational commitment than those with more integrating preferences.

The authors' findings therefore generally substantiated the idea that policies mirroring different boundary management styles are beneficial to the extent that they match individual preferences. Post-hoc analyses also indicated that those with strong preferences to segment work and nonwork domains experience less satisfaction and commitment when they perceived simultaneous access to both types of policies (i.e., flextime and on-site care). For integrators, however, the simultaneous presence of an incongruent policy (i.e., flextime) with a congruent one (i.e., on-site care) did not substantially weaken their satisfaction or commitment. Such findings may accordingly provide justification for employers to approach the implementation of integration policies with caution.

Summary: Collectively, the studies reviewed suggest that congruence between employee boundary preferences and the projected boundary preferences of organizations have a positive effect on worker well-being (Edwards & Rothbard, 1999) and may decrease WTNC (Chen et al., 2009). They also suggest that practices and policies reflecting organizational support for work-nonwork integration tend to be least beneficial for the general workforce. Kirchmeyer's (1995) results suggest that positive changes in worker attitudes are more likely to stem from practices and policies that reflect a *respect* for workers' personal lives rather than practices and policies that encourage workers to *blend* their personal life with their work. Results from Rothbard et al. (2005) further caution against organizational endorsement of integration policies. The authors found that even when organizations provided integration policies alongside segmentation policies, the mere presence of integration policies precipitated a negative attitude change among segmenters. Given that these studies provide substantial support for the importance of worker-workplace fit in terms of boundary preferences and organizational practices, clarifying the nature of the behaviors that comprise worker efforts to segment is a logical next step towards the goal of providing workers in segmentation-friendly organizations with the most effective behaviors for enacting their segmentation preferences.

Elements of the Continuum and Role Identification

Overview: A final stream of studies in boundary literature has focused on understanding the unique effects that certain elements of the segmentation-integration continuum have on worker stress. The degree to which an individual allows oneself, and/or feels able, to respond to demands emanating from another domain, as well as whether or not a person actually transitions from one role to another, are the focal concepts investigated within these studies. Role identification, or the saliency of one's work and nonwork roles, is also prominently considered among these studies as a moderating condition of the relationships between boundary elements and stress outcomes.

Permeability and Role Referencing: Olson-Buchanan and Boswell (2006) found that role identification was positively associated with permeability and role referencing. The more an individual identified with a particular role, the more likely he or she was to allow elements from that role to permeate a second domain and to reference that role while in a second domain. Those who more frequently referenced the nonwork role in the work domain were also less upset when personal demands interrupted them during work-time. The same pattern of results was found in reactions to interruptions by work while in the nonwork domain; those who frequently referenced work while at home were less upset by work-related interruptions while 'off the clock'.

Permeability and Flexibility: Bulger et al. (2007) examined the boundary management profiles of 332 knowledge workers, conceptualizing flexibility by two constructs: flexibility-ability and flexibility-willingness. Flexibility-ability was defined as the cognitive appraisal of a domain's situational characteristics that one perceives as influencing one's ability to leave one domain for another (Edwards & Rothbard, 1999; Lazarus & Folkman, 1984). In comparison, the authors defined flexibility-willingness as a motivationally oriented individual difference variable that contributes to actual levels of integration-segmentation. Willingness to flex one's boundaries would, for example, influence whether or not one takes advantage of a work-family policy (Kossek et al., 2006) or views policies as supplying one's needs (Edwards & Rothbard, 1999).

The first cluster revealed in the profile analysis was readily identified as the 'integration' cluster; it was comprised of individuals with higher than average ability and willingness to flex both domains, and higher than average permeability of both domains. This group had the most even split of males and females, held the greatest number of partnered individuals of all the groups, and on average was older, more educated, and more tenured in their organizations than the other groups.

The second cluster represented individuals who were able to integrate their domains but did not seem to have a preference or reason for doing so. That is, individuals in this cluster reported being equally able to flex their work and nonwork boundaries but were slightly more willing to flex their work boundaries than their personal boundaries. They also reported a moderately strong preference to keep their domains segmented. This group also had a notably smaller percentage of children under the age of 18 living at home.

The third cluster was comprised of individuals who did not feel able, and were unwilling, to flex their work boundary. These individuals also reported higher than average ability and willingness to flex their personal boundary, and reported lower than average levels of nonwork permeability. On average, individuals in this cluster were younger, less tenured in their organizations, and more likely to be single than the individuals in the three other clusters.

The boundary characteristics of the third cluster were also almost perfectly opposite to a fourth category of workers, who reported a higher than average ability and willingness to flex the work boundary, a highly permeable work boundary, and a very strong nonwork boundary. Seventy-three percent of the individuals within this last cluster were women, and this category also represented workers with the greatest percentage (63%) of children under 18.

Analyses also indicated that those who did not perceive they could (or were unable to) flex their work boundaries and those with highly permeable work boundaries were more likely to experience WTNC . Those who were unable to flex their work boundaries also experienced less WTNE than those who reported having the ability. However, individuals who were more willing to flex their work boundaries reported stronger experiences of WTNE. Not being able to accommodate pressing personal demands while at work therefore seems to drive WTNC and inhibit WTNE, whereas being highly willing seems to foster WTNE.

As for the reverse direction of conflict, the authors found that stronger NTWC was reported by those who were less willing to flex the work boundary, by those less able to flex the personal boundary, and by those with highly permeable work boundaries. One's personal life therefore seems to negatively affect one's sense of work performance when the personal domain cannot accommodate work demands and when one's personal life is less prioritized than work.

Flexibility-Ability and Flexibility-Willingness: In a related study, Matthews and Barnes-Farrell (2010) sought to create a better measure of the flexibility construct, and so conducted a two-part study to create and validate measures of flexibility-ability and flexibility-willingness. The authors found that the ability to flex the nonwork boundary was negatively related to WTNC and workday strain, but not at all related to experiences of NTWC. This would suggest that the ability to control the timing and location of one's personal demands does help guard against the feeling that work impedes the performance of one's personal obligations. The ability to flex the work boundary, however, was positively related to even more stress outcomes; this ability was not only negatively related to WTNC, but also positively related to NTWC and strain.

Post-hoc analyses using regressions were also conducted to examine the unique ways that boundary characteristics affected each direction of conflict. WTNC was predicted by decreases in the ability to flex the home boundary, decreases in the ability to flex the work boundary, and decreases in the permeability of work, as well as by increases in nonwork permeability. NTWC was predicted by decreases in the ability to flex the home boundary and increases in the ability to flex work and the permeability of the home boundary.

Domain Transitions: Matthews et al. (2010) conducted a set of studies to further refine Matthews and Barnes-Farrells' (2010) flexibility measures, to introduce the construct of inter-domain transitions into boundary literature, and to consider the placement of role centrality (or role involvement) in the nomological network of boundary work. They found that willingness to flex the nonwork boundary was positively related to work centrality and negatively related to nonwork centrality: those who tended to flex the nonwork boundary were more strongly oriented to their work domain and less oriented to their nonwork roles. Willingness to flex the work boundary was negatively related to work centrality and positively related to nonwork centrality: those who tended to flex their work boundaries held stronger orientations to their personal roles and were less oriented toward their work domain. However, only the ability (not the willingness) to flex the work boundary was positively related to transitioning from work to nonwork, suggesting that leaving the work domain to meet personal obligations is more determined by contextual constraints than the sheer willingness to do so. In contrast, only the willingness (but not the ability) to flex the nonwork boundary was positively related to transitioning from nonwork to work, indicating that personal preferences ultimately drive the decision to exit one's personal domain to meet work demands.

Additional analyses by the authors also produced a number of significant mediations among the constructs of flexibility, role centrality, and work-nonwork conflict. The first of the mediations they discovered was the indirect negative effect of nonwork centrality on nonwork-to-work (NTW) transitions through a decreased willingness to flex the family boundary. This suggests that inflexible home boundaries act as the mechanism through which one's strong nonwork identity affects the actual transitions out of one's personal domain. The second mediation the authors found was flexibility-ability's indirect effect on NTWC through transitions from WTN. This suggests that workers who perceive they can rearrange their work to meet their personal needs will transition out of the work domain more frequently to take care of personal needs, which ultimately prevents them from feeling as if their personal life interferes with their ability to meet work obligations. Finally, a third discovered mediation was that the willingness to flex the home boundary indirectly affected WTNC through NTW transitions. Being able to rearrange one's personal commitments in order to meet work demands therefore also seems to reduce the degree to which individuals perceive that work interferes with their personal life.

Winkel and Clayton (2009) also found that the ability to flex the work role boundary moderates the relationship between the willingness to flex the work role boundary and WTN transitions; for those who were willing to flex, lower ability to flex the work boundary resulted in fewer transitions out of the work domain. Similarly, the ability to flex one's nonwork boundaries moderated the relationship between willingness to flex the nonwork boundary and NTW transitions; for those who were willing, lower ability to flex the nonwork boundary resulted in fewer transitions out of the nonwork domain. Collectively, these results suggest that both motivational and environmental factors interact to drive transition behaviors.

Summary: The studies reviewed above highlight the differential effects of being able to accommodate demands by expanding one's domain boundaries and being willing or motivated to do so. Those who identify strongly with a particular role will be more likely to allow elements emanating from that particular role's domain to enter into whichever domain they are in at the time (Olson-Buchanon & Boswell, 2006). However, an individual's environment also has a strong effect on whether he or she behaves in accordance with his or her preferences; being able to flex a boundary seems to qualify whether or not the motivation to flex a boundary actually results in transition behaviors and related psychological experiences in the work-nonwork interface (Winkel & Clayton, 2009). In light of these findings and in order to develop a valid picture of how and when segmentation preferences are reflected in specific tactics, my study will take into account important individual and contextual predictors of boundary behaviors.

Conclusion

Outcomes of Boundary Work Behaviors

The experience of WTNC is driven by the perception that work demands prohibit or interfere with one's ability to effectively meet the expectations of other roles in other domains. By either physically or psychologically preventing work demands from encroaching upon their nonwork domains, individuals should by definition experience less WTNC. The empirical research reviewed in this section supports these assertions, as studies consistently find that those who allow work demands to frequently encroach upon their nonwork domain experience greater WTNC. That is, microtransitioning (i.e., frequently pausing action in one domain to attend to another domain, Desrochers et al., 2005; Matthews, Barnes-Farrell, & Bulger, 2010) —specifically, bringing work home (Voydanoff, 2005a) and using communications devices during nonwork time (Chesley, 2005; Park & Jex, 2011; Voydanoff, 2005a)—has consistently been positively associated with WTNC.

Hypothesis 3: Frequent use of specific actions to separate one's work domain from one's personal domain will be negatively related to WTNC.

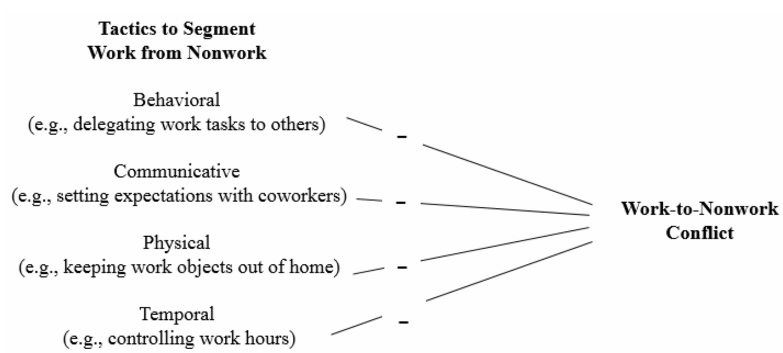

Figure 4. Hypothesis 3.

Antecedents of Boundary Work Behaviors

A number of the previously reviewed studies support the notion that both individual differences and environmental constraints help to determine whether or not a particular boundary management style (i.e., segmentation or integration) is effective for navigating the work-nonwork interface and producing positive job attitudes. However, the strategies or tactics individuals use to enact these boundary management styles have yet to be explored. Furthermore, research on the effects of individual differences and environmental constraints on the enactment of specific boundary management tactics has yet to take place. I accordingly seek to uncover these relationships in my study. In particular, I will first examine how the preference to segment one's work domain from one's home domain gets manifested one's segmentation behaviors. I will then subsequently assess how one's self-efficacy for boundary management and the norms of one's workplace contribute to variation in individual tactic behaviors. Finally, I will also examine the relative contribution of segmentation preferences, self-efficacy for boundary management, and workplace norms for segmentation to the frequency with which individuals enact segmentation behaviors.

Boundary Preferences: In general, individuals should be more likely to use segmentation behaviors when they have a strong preference for keeping their work domain separate from their nonwork domain.

Hypothesis 4: The preference to segment will be positively related to the frequency of using segmentation behaviors during the week.

Figure 5. Hypothesis 4.

Self-Efficacy for Work-Nonwork Boundary Management: Self-efficacy is the perception one has regarding his or her ability to succeed in specific situations (Bandura, 1977). This belief helps determine an individual's willingness to initiate specific behaviors, as well as their persistence and emotional reactions when confronting barriers and conflicts (Bandura, 1986). Theory and research on self-efficacy suggests that strong self-efficacy expectations should positively influence the ability to cope with multiple role demands (Bandura, 1986; Ozer, 1995).

Research also indicates that self-efficacy beliefs have important consequences for behavior in both the work and nonwork domains. Studies on career development decisions have found that self-efficacy for performing in specific occupations positively relates to the willingness to pursue those occupations (Tang, Fouad, & Smith, 1999) and similarly, to the premature elimination of certain career options (Betz & Hackett, 1981). Investigations of parental and marital role management of indicate that high self-efficacy for the parental role is related positively to parental (role) adaptation (Ardelt & Eccles, 2001), and that high marital self-efficacy is positively correlated with marital satisfaction (Fincham, Harold, & Gano-Phillips, 2000). Initial research on self-efficacy for managing the work-nonwork interface suggests that those with higher self-efficacy for managing future conflicts between work and nonwork also tend to anticipate less future conflict (Cinamon, 2006) and report lower concurrent experiences of work–nonwork conflict (Hennessy & Lent, 2008). On the basis of the aforementioned theory and research, I anticipate that one's self-efficacy for managing their work-nonwork boundaries (hereafter referred to as simply *self-efficacy*) will affect the extent to which individuals enact their preferred boundary management strategy. Among those who prefer to segment their work from their nonwork domain, high self-efficacy should predict increases in the use of work-to-nonwork segmentation tactics. Furthermore, individuals who prefer to segment their work from their nonwork domains, who have high self-efficacy, and who are presented with an opportunity to either integrate or segment their work and personal domains should also respond more frequently with segmentation behaviors than those working in environments with weaker segmentation norms.

Hypothesis 5a: Self-efficacy will moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of performing a segmentation action such that the preference-frequency relationship will be stronger for those high on self-efficacy.

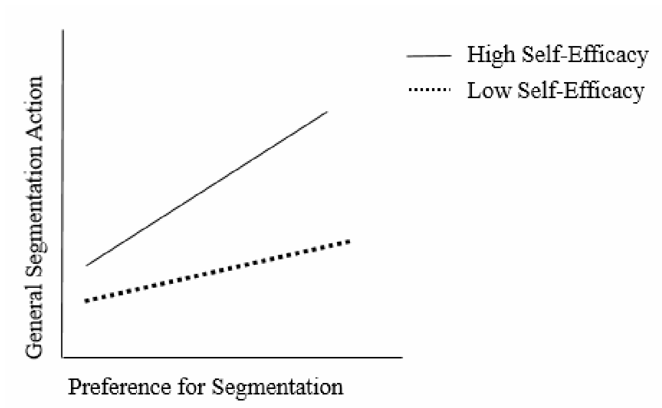

Figure 6. Hypothesis 5a.

Hypothesis 5b: Self-efficacy will moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of using a segmenting response such that the preference-frequency relationship will be stronger for those high on self-efficacy.

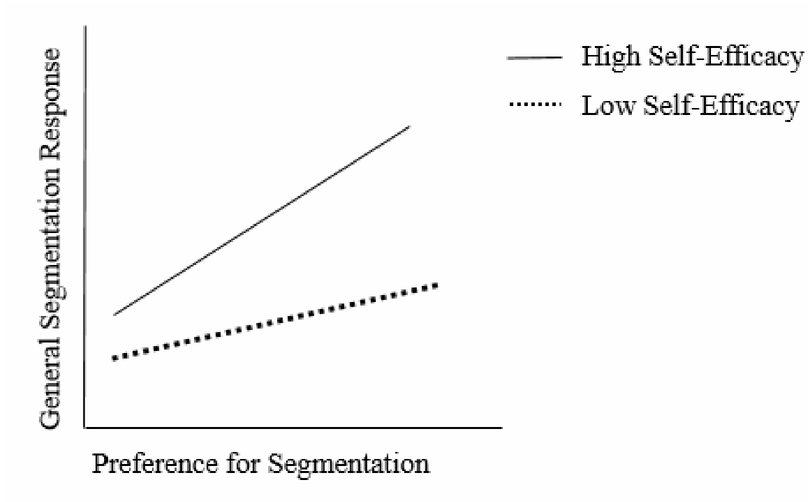

Figure 7. Hypothesis 5b.

Workplace Norms for Segmentation: Norms, or "normative standards" are explicit or implicit standards that govern behavior (Jex, 2002). These standards are thought to contribute to organizational functioning by providing workers with predictability; norms allow for smooth functioning because expectations are shared by all (Hackman, 1992). These expectations are manifested or portrayed through the actions of organizational role senders (e.g., other workers), or through organizational policies. For instance, a supervisory practice of avoiding phone calls to subordinates in the evenings and a 9-5 work hour policy are both actions that reflect an organizational norm to prevent work from encroaching on workers' nonwork domains.

The implications of workplace norms for how workers experience the work-nonwork interface in general have been examined through studies of nonwork-supportive organizational cultures. Thompson, Beauvais, and Lyness, (1999) defined a family-supportive work culture as the shared assumptions, beliefs, and values regarding the extent to which an organization supports and values the integration of employees' work and family lives. Research on this cultural construct has found that workers who perceive that their organizations support their efforts to meet their nonwork obligations report less work-nonwork conflict and greater job satisfaction and organizational commitment (Allen, 2001; Thompson et al., 1999).

These findings also align with the results of studies that have focused specifically on the implications of workplace boundary norms on worker health and attitudes. To elaborate, organizational norms for segmentation reflect the shared expectations in an organization for how separated a worker should keep their work and nonwork domains. The implications for worker behavior that arise from the alignment between these norms and individual preferences have been suggested by the previously reviewed studies of Chen et al. (2009) and Rothbard et al. (2005). Chen et al. (2009) found that workers who perceived alignment tended to report less WTN time-based and strain-based conflict, and more instrumental WTNE. Rothbard et al. (2005) found that workers who perceived access to organizational policies which matched their personal boundary preferences reported higher organizational commitment than those who perceived a mismatch between their organization's policies and their personal preferences. In summary, past research on supportive organizational cultures and specifically on organizational norms for segmentation suggests that the implicit messages that organizations send to their workers do affect worker attitudes and health, and are also likely to influence their boundary management behaviors.

In my study I will be examining boundary norms for segmenting work from nonwork, which effectively allow for and support individual efforts to keep the work domain separate from the nonwork domain. As such, I expect to find that those who prefer keeping their work domain separate from their personal domain (hereafter referred to as those who *prefer to segment*) and who work in environments that support these preferences will segment themselves from work during their nonwork hours to a greater extent than those who work in environments with weaker segmentation norms. Furthermore, individuals who prefer to segment, who are working in environments with strong segmentation norms, and who are presented with an opportunity to either integrate or segment their work and personal domains should also respond more frequently with segmentation behaviors than those working in environments with weaker segmentation norms.

Hypothesis 6a: Workplace norms will moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of performing a segmentation action such that the preference-frequency relationship will be stronger for those who perceive strong norms for segmentation.

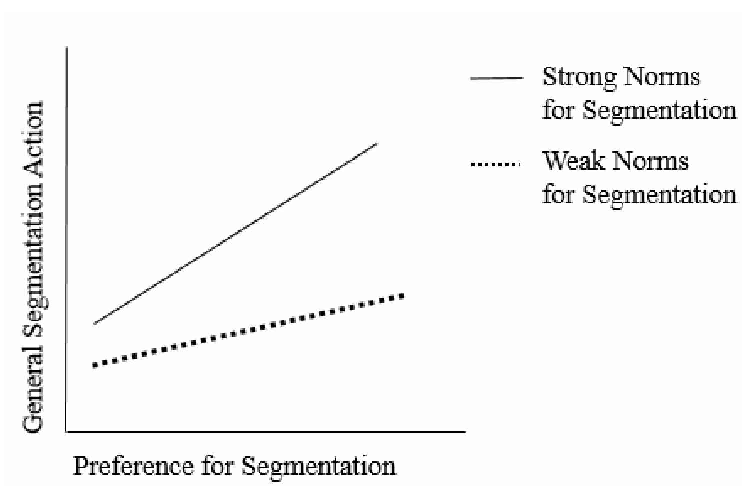

Figure 8. Hypothesis 6a.

Hypothesis 6b: Workplace norms will moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of using a segmenting response such that the preference-frequency relationship will be stronger for those who perceive strong norms for segmentation.

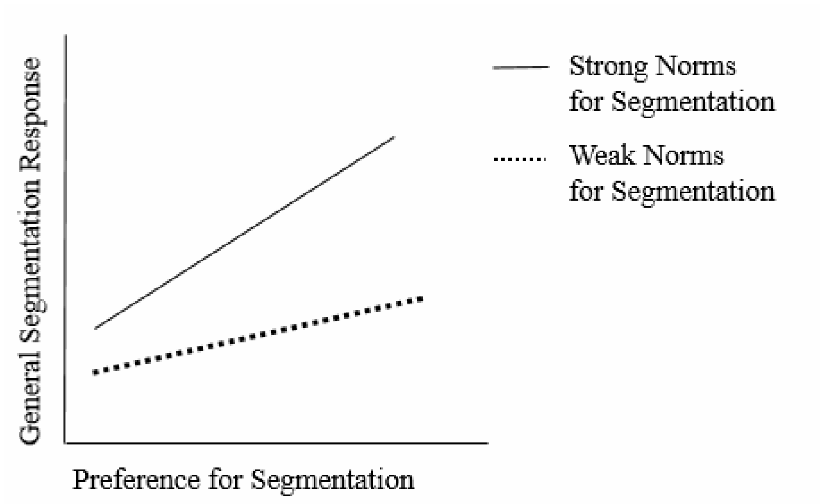

Figure 9. Hypothesis 6b.

The Theory of Planned Behavior: The theory of planned behavior (TPB; Ajzen, 1985, 1991) argues that behavior may be best determined by acknowledging the factors that drive behavioral intentions. As such, the theory argues that behavioral intentions are determined by three elements: (1) attitude towards the behavior, (2) perceived behavioral control, and (3) perceived norms for the behavior. In the context of segmentation preferences and tactics, this theory suggests that the strength of a person's intent to actively segment their work domain from their nonwork domain could be determined by measuring their attitude toward segmentation (segmentation preference) along with their perception of being able to control the segmentation process and their perception of whether or not their workplace condones (or does not punish) segmentation behaviors. In my study I will capture the perception of being able to control the segmentation process by measuring self-efficacy (for managing the work-nonwork boundary). I will capture perceptions of workplace norms by measuring workplace segmentation supplies, which captures individual perceptions of how supportive their workplace is of employee segmentation.

Initial research on self-efficacy for managing the work-nonwork interface suggests that those with higher self-efficacy for managing future conflicts between work and nonwork also tend to anticipate less future conflict (Cinamon, 2006) and report lower concurrent experiences of work–nonwork conflict (Hennessy & Lent, 2008). The influence of segmentation norms on the relationship between individual preferences and both worker stress and attitudes has been demonstrated by the previously reviewed literature on worker-workplace fit (e.g., Chen, Powell, & Greenhaus, 2009; Edwards & Rothbard, 1999). This research suggests that the congruence between individual boundary management preferences and organizational norms or 'boundary management supplies' can affect worker stress and attitudes. This presumably is because when organizational norms effectively 'match' individual preferences, a person receives the right kinds of work-nonwork resources to aid in boundary management (Kreiner, 2006). This essentially gives people more opportunity to enact their preferred boundary tactics. Therefore, the frequency with which individuals implement specific boundary tactics should be explained not only by one's preferences for boundary management, but also by their self-efficacy for managing the work-nonwork interface and by their perceptions of their working environment.

Hypothesis 7: Self-efficacy and segmentation norms will each independently predict variance in segmentation behaviors.

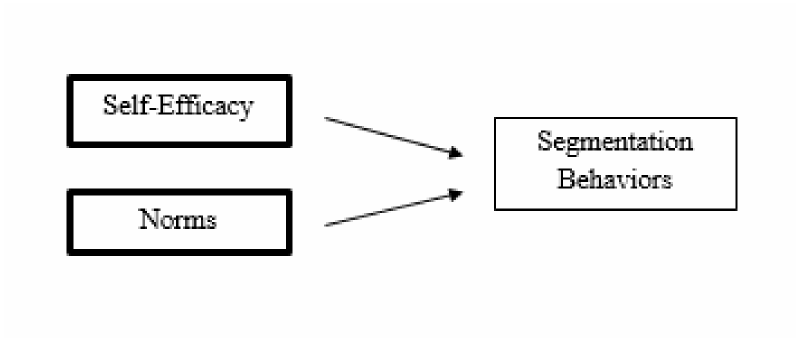

Figure 10. Hypothesis 7.

Job Demands and Boundary Tactics

In addition to clarifying the individual differences and contextual factors that may drive individuals to behave more or less in accordance with their boundary preferences, certain structural features of one's job are also likely to influence the *types* of strategies individuals employ. Specifically, the types of tactics people use may be affected by the nature of the demands placed upon them by their job. The nature of these demands and past research examining their effects on worker experiences within the work-nonwork interface are accordingly reviewed below.

Overview: The job demand-resources (JD-R) model of job characteristics places job elements into two broad categories: job demands and job resources. Job demands refer to those physical, social, or organizational aspects of the job that require sustained physical or mental effort and therefore are associated with certain physiological and psychological costs (e.g., exhaustion; Demerouti, Bakker, Nachreiner, & Schaufeli 2001).

Demands are said to evoke a health impairment process, whereby these demands negatively affect one's energy and health and ultimately drains workers' resources. Examples of such demands include the pace of one's work, the level of mental attention the work requires, the range and strength of emotions the work entails, and the physical intensity of the work. These demands also can be acute or chronic in nature. Acute demands are 'sudden, novel, and intense' demands that do not last very long and that require quick responses (Driskell & Salas, 1996, p.6). Chronic job demands refer to characteristics of the work environment that are relatively permanent in nature and thus present in everyday working activities (Driskell & Salas, 1996).

Resources, on the other hand, are those organizational or socially based forms of support that help individuals cope with various job demands; resources are said to evoke a motivation process, stimulating workers' commitment to goals. Organizational resources include the ability to control aspects of one's job (e.g., scheduling one's own work hours, the authority to make independent choices on the job), participation in organizational decisions, and task variety. Social resources refer to support from colleagues, family, and peer groups.

In this study I explore how individual boundary management behaviors are associated with four specific types of job demands: psychological (pace and amount of work), mental, emotional, and physical. Distinguishing among these types of demands is important because each has distinct effects for worker functioning. In particular, different types of demands ultimately may facilitate the use of unique boundary behaviors.

Psychological Job Demands: Psychological demands refer to psychological stressors in the work environment such as work pace, workload, and time pressure, and primarily affect workers' psychological health (e.g., feelings of exhaustion). Employees who perceive strong psychological demands in comparison with others in their immediate work group report more psychological health symptoms (loss of sleep, strain, hopelessness) and take more sick days, especially when they feel that they lack control on the job more than colleagues within their unit (van Yperen & Snijders, 2000). Work pace and time pressure have also been shown to predict the risk of diabetes, with increases in workloads predicting a greater risk for diabetes (Toker, Shirom, Melamed, & Armon, 2012). Huang, Du, Chen, Yang, and Huang (2011) also found a positive relationship between psychological demands and emotional exhaustion.

Psychological demands have also been shown to affect experiences of conflict in the work-nonwork interface. Specifically, several studies indicate that WTNC is associated with demands such as long work hours (Frone et al., 1997; Grzywacz & Marks, 2000; Gutek et al, 1991), work overload (experiencing a sense of having too much to do in a given time frame; Aryee, Luk, Leung, & Lo, 1999; Frone et al, 1997; Geurts et al, 1999), and work pressure (Goodman & Crouter, 2009).

Cognitive Job Demands: Cognitive or mental demands refer to burdens placed on the brain processes involved in information processing (e.g., displaying high levels of concentration and precision; making difficult decisions) and primary affect processes such as memory and planning. For those with the necessary skills, cognitive job demands tend to make work more attractive; the autonomy and intellectual stimulation associated with cognitive demands often are related to greater job satisfaction (Johnson, Mermin, & Resseger, 2011). Recent meta-analytic work suggests a positive relationship between challenge demands and work engagement (Crawford, LePine, & Rich, 2010). Research by Van de Ven, Vlerick, and de Jonge (2008) also indicates that these types of demands are positively related to workers' learning motivation. Their study found a positive relationship between cognitive demands and professional efficacy, a relationship that was even stronger among those in workplaces providing high levels of cognitive resources. Similarly, Bakker, van Veldhoven, and Xanthopoulou (2010) found high workload and high resource availability to be the most motivating environments for predicting task enjoyment and organizational commitment.

Research on cognitive demands and the work-nonwork interface suggests that supervisory support may act as a salient cognitive resource for buffering the effect of cognitive demands on WTNC. Van Yperen and Hagedoornb (2003) suggest that supportive leaders motivate employees and provide them with perspective on their job demands, ultimately mitigating the negative effect of cognitive job demands on WTNC. Bakker, ten Brummelhuis, Prins, and van der Heijden (2011) also found that among workers with high cognitive job demands, WHI was significantly higher among those reporting low-quality relationships with supervisors than those reporting high-quality relationships.

Emotional Job Demands: Emotional demands refer to efforts involved in handling emotions on the job or generating desirable emotional responses (e.g., dealing with angry customers or clients) and are especially consequential for interpersonal workplace relationships. Among human service employees especially, emotional demands are a primary source of occupational burnout (Lee & Ashforth, 1996; Maslach & Jackson, 1984). More specifically, highly emotionally-charged work environments tend to lead to emotional exhaustion—a component of psychological burnout (Leiter & Maslach, 1988; Montgomery, Peeters, Schaufeli, & Den Ouden, 2003).

Research investigating the role of emotional job demands in the work-nonwork interface has measured these demands in two primary ways. One stream of research has examined emotional labor constructs. Montgomery et al (2005) found that emotional labor, as measured by surface acting (i.e., matching the implicit emotional display rules of organizations by outwardly displaying an emotion that is not internally felt) was positively related to WTNC among doctors, and at home was positively related to WTNC among nurses. Montgomery et al. (2006) also found that WTFC partially mediated the relationship between surface acting and burnout, suggesting emotional management is exhausting is because it negatively affects a worker's home life.

A second stream of research on emotions in the work-nonwork interface has examined the extent of emotional arousal that workers experience on the job. Studies have found that unpleasant social interactions with clients or customers predict declines in workers energy (Dorman & Zapf, 2004). For instance, Schulz, Cowan, Paper Cowan, & Brennan (2004) found in a daily diary study that negative emotional arousal at work predicted angrier marital behavior for women and more withdrawal behavior for men. Montgomery et al. (2003) also found that the emotional job demands of Dutch newspaper managers more strongly predicted both burnout and WTNC than either mental or quantitative job demands.

Physical Job Demands: Physical demands refer to physical activity such as bending, lifting, or carrying objects and affect the musculoskeletal system. Jobs with strong physical requirements are often associated with injuries and ailments. There is clear evidence that musculoskeletal disorders (MSDs) are directly caused by strenuous working conditions such as lifting and carrying heavy loads, poor posture, tiring positions, vibrations or highly repetitive movements (Punnet & Wegman, 2004) De Zwart, Broersen, Frings-Dresen, & van Dijk (1997) reported the musculoskeletal complaints of Dutch workers in physically demanding jobs (n = 7324) to be significantly higher than those in mentally demanding jobs (n = 4686). These results coincide with other research that indicates that the work conditions most associated with work-related musculoskeletal disorders of the upper extremities (WRUEDs) are physical risk factors such as repetitiveness and forceful exertions (Kilbom, 1994). Further, exposure to uncomfortable physical working conditions have also been shown to negatively affect sleep quality (Metlaine et al., 2005; Ribet & Derriennic, 1999).

There has been a paucity of research examining the effects of physical job demands on work-nonwork conflict. The COR theory would suggest that high physical demands on the job may drain the resources workers need to meet demands in their personal domain (e.g., household chores, yardwork). Indeed, recent work by Hammig, Knecht, Laubli, & Bauer (2011) did find that work-life conflict (a composite scale of both directions of conflict) was moderately (r = .20) associated with musculoskeletal disorders (back pain, neck pain, or shoulder pain).

Summary: The COR theory (Hobfoll, 1989) suggests that people strive to protect and retain their valued resources and experience stress when such resources are threatened. As the experience of WTNC reflects the perception that when one's work role is interfering with the performance of one or more nonwork roles, it by definition reflects the perception that work is a threat to one's personal life. Stress theorists (Lazarus, 1991;

Lazarus & Folkman, 1984) suggest that any such threat in turn causes a person to negatively evaluate the source of the threat, which in the case of WTNC would be the work role. Job demands by definition are demands situated in the work domain, and therefore when perceived as threats to one's personal domain, should in theory be associated with high WTNC. The literature reviewed above suggests that each of the four primary types of job demands – psychological, mental, emotional, and physical – are to some degree viewed by workers as threats to their personal domain, as various studies have found each of these demands to positively predict WTNC. In my study I aim to investigate whether or not the generally negative correspondence between specific job demands and experiences of WTNC is affected by the use of boundary work behaviors.

> *Research Question*: Does the use of one or more WTN segmentation actions affect the correspondence between job demands and perceptions of WTNC?

CHAPTER 6

PILOT STUDY: DEVELOPMENT OF SEGMENTATION ACTIONS

Research on boundary management between the work and nonwork domains suggests that those who segment their work domain from their personal domain experience less WTNC (Desorchers et al., 2005; Voydanoff, 2005a; Chesley, 2005). Yet the specific actions individuals use to enact this segmentation strategy have not been fully explored in the literature. In order to examine the nature of these segmentation behaviors within the work-nonwork interface, I first developed a measure of these behaviors using the extant literature on boundary management and a peer-review process, and then piloted the measure with working professionals to analyze the comprehensiveness of the behaviors and refine their content and response options. The complete pilot survey is provided in Appendix B.

Rationale for Construct Operationalization

Measurement of the boundaries workers place between their work and personal domains has heretofore been examined through the use of scales that capture individual preferences for segmentation or integration in general. To fully understand the nature of these preferences, and how they come to affect worker experiences of work-nonwork conflict and enrichment, it is important to also examine the range of specific behaviors or actions that underlie efforts to segment or integrate. Accordingly, the purpose behind developing my own measures of segmentation was to facilitate a more complete examination of the segmentation construct. In order to best measure these segmentation behaviors, I incorporated in my scales not only the general behaviors that individuals may enact at any point during the workweek, but also those behaviors that typically only arise in response to specific incidents.

Furthermore, I also considered the role that distinct work targets (e.g., supervisors, colleagues, and clients) may play in an individual's decision to segment. Social exchange theory (Blau, 1964; Homans, 1958) and theory and empirical research on organizational commitment (Becker, 1992; Meyer, Allen, & Smith, 1993; Reichers, 1985, 1986) suggests that workers form unique relationships with and attachments to work-related targets that affects workers' responses to those targets. Taking these findings in to consideration, I constructed measures that allowed me to examine whether or not the identity of a target (i.e., being a supervisor, client, or coworker) affected the nature of a participant's segmentation actions. Lastly, I also examined how individuals' segmentation behaviors were reflected in individuals' usage of computer and information technology (CIT) devices – and more specifically, how individuals use these devices to facilitate segmentation from distinct work targets.

Survey Item Content and Response Options

Item Generation

I consulted Kreiner et al.'s (2009) work and past research on boundary management to construct the items for my study. Kreiner et al.'s (2009) typology and the items I generated to reflect their typology may be seen in Appendix C. Kreiner et al.'s (2009) objective was to categorize emergent tactics that were derived through their interview methodology; no attempt was made to elicit tactics that reflected the bidirectionality of preferences. Theory and research indicates that individuals not only fall along a general segmentation-integration continuum, but may indeed have different preferences for segmenting one domain from another; variation may exist in the preference to not only keep the work domain segmented from the nonwork domain, but also in the preference to segment the nonwork domain from the work domain. Accordingly, categorizing an individual as a "segmenter" may mean one or both of the following: a person (a) prefers to keep work from spilling into their personal life, or (b) prefers to keep their personal life out of the workplace. My study focuses solely on the former category of segmenters – those who actively segment their work from their nonwork domain. Accordingly, while I developed items to capture the nature of tactics being 'behavioral,' 'physical,' 'communicative' and 'temporal,' I worded the items to reflect the work-from-nonwork direction of segmentation.

Item Content

To attain the aforementioned objectives, I developed/generated three sets of items to capture individuals' segmentation behaviors. The first of these sets contained items that I refer to as General Segmentation Actions (GSAs) and comprised of 5 items beginning with the stem 'in a typical week, how frequently' prior to describing specific segmentation actions. Each of the 5 items was rated on a 0-4 Likert scale (0 = *Never*; 1 = *Rarely*; 2 = *Occasionally*; 3 = *Frequently*; 4 = *Constantly*). For example, one item read 'in a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you set limits on the number of times you check for work-related correspondence (e.g., emails or voice mails)? As such, the higher an individual rated a given item, the more frequently he or she performed the action in a typical week. Collectively, the GSAs capture behaviors that individuals do during their personal time to separate their work from their personal domain. They are performed independent of any given circumstances, and are therefore distinct from General Responses (GRs).

The second set of items contained groups of questions that I refer to as General Opportunities for Segmentation (GOs) and General Responses to Opportunities for Segmentation (GRs). The former asked participants to rate 1) how frequently a particular opportunity for segmentation *arises* for them during a typical workweek, and (2) how frequently they *respond* to the opportunity by performing one or more possible behaviors. Thus, GRs can only be performed when an individual is presented with an opportunity to segment (which may or may not elicit a segmenting response.) An example GO item is "In a typical week, how frequently do urgent work tasks or responsibilities "land on your desk" late in the workday (i.e., close to the time you intend to stop working)?" The three GRs that follow this sample item each begin with the stem "When urgent work tasks or responsibilities "land on your desk" late in the work day (i.e., close to the time you intend to stop working, how frequently do you do the following?" and ask participants to respond to each of the following GR items: 1) I stay late at my workplace, 2) I bring the tasks/responsibilities home with me, and 3) I plan to incorporate the urgent task in to my next day's work schedule.

Each of the GO and GR item sets were created in this two-part fashion in order to examine whether or not the frequency with which a person encounters a segmentation opportunity would have an effect on the frequency of their segmentation behaviors (and so, whether or not a single scale could be comprised of each of the responses alone). Each of the GOs and GRs was rated with the same 0-4 Likert scale as was used for the GSAs (0 = *Never*; 1 = *Rarely*; 2 = *Occasionally*; 3 = *Frequently*; 4 = *Constantly*). The higher an individual rated a given GO item, the more frequently he or she encountered the opportunity in a typical week. Similarly, the higher an individual rated a GR item, the more frequently the individual responded to the opportunity using the described behavior. An open-ended text box was also placed after each of these sets of GO and GR items with instructions to convey any other responses (not described in the survey) that they typically have in the face of each GO.

Finally, the third set of items asked participants to use the same 0-4 Likert scale (0 = *Never*; 1 = *Rarely*; 2 = *Occasionally*; 3 = *Frequently*; 4 = *Constantly*) to indicate first how frequently a specific work *target* (i.e., a client/customer, supervisor, and/or a colleague) asks them to accomplish a work-related task during their personal time. The higher an individual rated this item for a particular target, the more perceived requests the individual received in a typical week. Participants then continued to use the 0-4 Likert scale to rate the frequency with which they responded to the target by 1) offering their plan to the target to perform the task during their next available working hours and 2) agreeing to perform the task during their personal time. The higher an individual rated the former item, the more frequently he or she responded in a segmenting manner; the higher an individual rated the latter item, the more frequently he or she reported in a non-segmenting manner. Using the same format and response options, participants also referenced a specific target to indicate the frequency with which they receive a voicemail, email, and text from a target during their personal time. After rating the frequency of this occurrence, participants rated how frequently they responded to the occurrence by (1) communicating to the target a planned future action or response to the task (during their normal working hours), (2) immediately communicating with the target and addressing the task, and (3) waiting to take action until normal working hours. The higher an individual rated the 'planned future response' and 'waiting to take action' items, the more frequently he or she employed segmenting responses. The higher an individual rated the 'immediately communicating' item, the more frequently he or she used a non-segmenting response.

Demographics

Participants were asked a number of demographic questions to allow for a comprehensive description of the nature of the sample. Six of the questions were related to a participant's placement within an organization, including tenure in the job and organization, hours worked per week, industry (e.g., finance, education) functional work area (e.g., account management, customer service), and level (e.g., executive, clerical). Individual difference demographics included sex, age, race, and level of education. Further, the nature of a participant's household situation was ascertained by questions regarding the participant's relationship status (including whether or not a partner or spouse was a full-time worker), household income, and number of children under 18 years of age living in the home.

Procedure and Participants

I used a snowball sampling method to recruit 101 individuals to complete my survey. I provided instructions requesting participants to complete the survey and share it with others who are working at least part-time (20 hours a week) or more. The sample was mostly female (67.3%) and worked between 40-49 hours/week (60.4%). The most represented age group contained those between 26 and 35 years of age (44.6%) with the next most representative group being those between the ages of 36 and 45 (21.8%). Roughly half (50.5%) of the sample was either married or living with a significant other. Of those individuals, 85.7% reported having a partner/significant other who worked full time. Just over half of the sample (55.4%) worked in the following four industries: consulting (18.8%), education (14.9%), business/professional services (21.9%), and healthcare (8.9%). Most of the sample reported being either at the Professional (50.5%) level or the Management (18.8%) level.

Analyses

Appropriateness of Item Response Options

When developing a measure using Likert scale response options it is important to assess whether or not the scale's anchors appropriately capture the full range of possible behaviors that comprise the psychological construct being measured. For example, if no participants indicate 'constantly' performing a particular GSA during their workweek, it may suggest that it is impossible for an individual to perform the GSA constantly and therefore support the decision to remove the anchor from the item's response scale. To examine the appropriateness of each of the scale anchors, I accordingly examined the frequencies and skewness estimates for each of the segmentation items - the General Segmentation Action items (GSAs; 5 items), the General Segmentation Opportunity items (GSOs; 4 items), the General Segmentation Response items (GSRs; 12 items), the Segmentation From Supervisor items (SFSs; 20 items), the Segmentation From Coworker items (SFCWs; 20 items), and the Segmentation from Clients items (SFCs; 12 items). Frequency estimates provided the number of individuals who used a specific anchor to respond to an item, and helped determine if each of the anchors was used for a given item. Skewness statistics provided estimates of whether or not the distribution of frequencies for a given item was markedly different from a normal distribution. Only individuals who provided a response other than 'Never' to encountering a particular opportunity for segmentation were prompted to indicate how frequently they used specific behaviors to respond to a given segmentation opportunity. So while all participants responded to each of the GSOs and opportunity-based items referencing specific targets, the number of those who answered each of the response-based items that followed each of the opportunity items varied according to how many individuals indicated ‘never’ encountering a specific opportunity.

Conceptual Relations among Items

Other than examining the appropriateness of the selected anchors, I also examined conceptual relationships among general (GSR) and target-based response items as indicators of segmentation. I expected to find that, for each opportunity, individuals who frequently responded to an opportunity by using a quintessentially *segmenting* behavior would be less likely to indicate frequently responding with a quintessentially *non-segmenting* behavior. To examine these relationships, I calculated Pearson product-moment correlations between the responses for each of the specific segmentation opportunities (for all four sets of items measuring these opportunities – the GSRs, SFSs, SFWs, and SFCs). Pearson correlations provide an estimate of the strength and direction of the relationship between two variables, which in the present case were each of the segmentation responses.

The Influence of Segmentation Opportunities on Subsequent Responses

One explanation for variation in individuals’ segmentation behaviors is the frequency with which they are given the opportunity to enact a segmenting behavior. For example, those who often have work obligations arise late in the workday may be reporting these opportunities because a continual stream of new work demands is characteristic of their occupation. These workers may be faced with new demands both during and outside of their normal working hours. As a result, those who wish to keep their work from interfering with their personal domain may enact segmentation behaviors *more* frequently than those with fewer instances of late-in-the-workday demands because their job continually requires them to defend their preferences. On the other hand, some individuals who often have late-in-the-day work demands may enact segmentation behaviors *less* frequently than those with fewer such instances because they perceive an obligation to acclimate to the nature of the job.

To determine whether or not individuals' segmentation behaviors were influenced by how often they encountered specific opportunities for segmentation I ran a series between subjects MANOVAs. A between subjects MANOVA tests whether mean differences among groups on a combination of DVs are likely to have occurred by chance. In the current analysis, I wanted to know whether or not the mean scores of participants' segmentation responses were significantly different among individuals who reported encountering segmentation opportunities more or less frequently. To derive each of the high and low frequency groups, I collapsed the responses of each of the opportunity-based items into two groups. The first group contained those who reported either *rarely* or *occasionally* encountering a specific opportunity. The second group contained those who indicated *frequently* or *constantly* encountering a specific opportunity.

The Influence of Target and CIT Device on Segmentation Opportunities

Given the nature of the interpersonal working environment, it is important that research consider the role of individual work domain targets in the boundary work process. That is, workers may receive unique demands from specific targets in the work domain, which may help explain variation in workers' segmentation behaviors. Accordingly, the objective of my third set of analyses was to determine if participants received more frequent requests to work during their personal time from certain work-related targets (i.e., requests from supervisors, clients/customers, and co-workers/colleagues). To answer this first question I ran a within-subjects ANOVA on each of the mean request scores to the 3 target-based items that read: "In a typical week, how frequently does a (target) ask you to accomplish a work-related task during your personal time."

Next I assessed the degree to which work targets used specific CIT devices to communicate demands to workers. Understanding the most and least frequent methods that targets use to facilitate communication of work demands has implications for understanding why workers may segment themselves from targets using specific technologies. Specifically, results may indicate that workers segment from supervisors more often through email than through voicemail (e.g., they more frequently put off responding to supervisory emails than to supervisory voicemails), and a possible explanation for this may stem from the fact that workers are receiving far more emails from supervisors than voicemails. By receiving more emails than voicemails, workers are thus provided more opportunities to engage in segmenting behaviors via email than voicemail. To analyze these behaviors I conducted a series of within-subjects ANOVAs on the 3 items that referenced receiving either a voicemail, an email, or a text from a specific target. Each of these items read "In a typical week, how frequently do you receive a (work-related) (CIT) from a (target)?"

Response to Segmentation Opportunities by Target

How individuals respond to segmentation opportunities that emanate from the work domain not only depend on the number of segmentation opportunities they are provided but also on who is providing the opportunity (i.e., which target in the work domain). For example, workers are likely to have different responses to the opportunities provided by supervisors and coworkers, as most individuals place greater weight on the effects of their interactions with supervisors than with coworkers. Clarifying the different segmentation responses individuals may have to specific work targets helps to expand current understanding of general (interpersonal) segmentation behaviors. To analyze the variation in segmentation responses by target, I conducted a series of paired t-tests to test to assess differences among segmenting behaviors across unique targets.

The Influence of Gender, Age, and Occupation on Segmentation Behaviors

Theory and research suggests that gender, age, and variation in job requirements across occupations may play key roles in explaining boundary work behavior. Investigating the effects of these individual differences on the segmentation behaviors t can help clarify the boundary conditions under which specific efforts to manage the work and nonwork domains can be effective. To examine these effects I first conducted a series of MANOVAs using gender and age as independent variables predicting specific sets of segmentation behaviors. The first of these sets were the five segmentation action items. The rest of the sets of DVs were comprised of the segmentation responses. Following these analyses I then used the same DVs in a series of MANOVAs that tested for mean differences in behaviors across two dissimilar occupational groups: those in 1) consulting, business development, and sales, and 2) those in administration, clerical positions, and research.

Results and Discussion

Section 1: General Segmentation Actions

Appropriateness of Item Response Options: Each of the anchors were used by at least one participant across each of the GSAs, with the exception of the *constantly* anchor on the item “In a typical week, how frequently do you leave your office environment in order to take care of personal matters?” As this was the only item on which the full response scale was not used, I judged the anchors as appropriate for the response choices. Indeed, frequency estimates revealed a modest amount of endorsement for the anchors at the ends of the response scale (*never* and *constantly*), with most individuals endorsing the middle range anchors. The most frequent segmentation action reported by participants was distancing oneself from the workplace (a manifestation of creating physical space; $M = 2.49$, $SD = 1.04$, $N = 101$), which was negatively skewed. Closely followed in frequency was the item that captured ‘making plans for future non-work leisure activities’ (a manifestation of controlling work time; $M = 2.40$, $SD = .81$; $N = 101$), which was also negatively skewed. Indeed, over half of the 101 respondents indicated either *frequently* or *constantly* doing the former (52.4%) and the latter (52.5%). As for the remaining three items, most ($M = 1.57$; $SD = .85$; $N = 101$) individuals indicated that they infrequently leave the office to take care of personal matters (a second manifestation of creating physical space). Indeed, nearly half (48.5%) of the 101 participants indicated they *never* or *rarely* left their office to address personal issues. However, participants did indicate that they occasionally ($M = 2.02$, $SD = 1.12$; $N = 101$) take mental breaks from work (a second manifestation of controlling work time), with 37% indicating they do so *frequently* or *constantly*. Least often enacted by participants was limiting the use of technology (M = 1.47, SD = 1.30; N = 101). Over half of respondents (N = 101; 54.5%) indicated they *never* or *rarely* limited themselves from checking their work-related correspondence on their CIT devices.

Conceptual Relationships among Items: Correlations among the GSA items partially supported expectations of positive associations between general segmentation behaviors. No items positively correlated with GSA item 5 – on 'leaving the workplace to address personal matters.' However, the more frequently an individual took mental breaks from work during their personal time, the more frequently he or she tended to also set limits during the week on checking for work communication (e.g., checking emails; r = .38, $p <$ .001; N = 101) and physically distancing themselves from the workplace during their personal time (r = .38, p < .001; N = 101). Those who distance themselves from work during their personal time were also more likely to report frequently planning future leisure activities (r = .21, p = .04; N = 101). While the lack of association between the fifth GSA item and the other four in the set did provide some justification for its removal, results (to be discussed) later also suggested that the item may provide valuable information on the segmentation construct and so was ultimately retained.

The Influence of Gender, Age, and Occupation: The 2 (gender: female, male) X 3 (age: 18 to 35, 36 and older) between-subjects multivariate analysis of variance (MANOVA) performed on segmentation actions did not produce significant multivariate effects (using Wilk's lambda; Λ). The combined DVs were not significantly affected by gender F(5,93) = .55, p = .73, age F(5,93) = .22, p = .95, or their interaction F(5,93) =

.81, p = .54). Univariate results however did reveal that a significant interaction between gender and age on limiting usage of CIT devices to check for work-related correspondence. Younger women were less likely to limit usage of CIT devices (M = 2.40, SD = .40, confidence limits from 1.61 to 3.19) than older women (M = 2.76, SD = .39, confidence limits from 2.76 to 4.32).

Table 1
Segmentation Action Items

1. In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you set limits on the number of times you check for work-related correspondence (e.g., new emails or voice mails)?
2. In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you intentionally give yourself a "mental break" from thinking about work-related matters?
3. In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you make plans for future non-work leisure activities (e.g., social gatherings, getaways, or vacations?
4. In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you physically distance yourself from your workplace or home office?
5. In a typical week, how frequently do you leave your office environment in order to take care of personal matters?

Note. Response options included *Never* (0), *Rarely* (1), *Occasionally* (2), *Frequently* (3), and *Constantly* (4).

Section 2A: General Segmentation Opportunities (GSOs)

The only GSO item on which participants did not use the full range of response options was “having to handle simultaneous work and personal emergencies;” no participants indicated that this occurred *constantly*. As with the frequency estimates for the GSA items, however, this finding did not provide sufficient justification for removing the *constantly* anchor from the response options. Also in line with the frequency estimates of the GSA items, most participants endorsed the GSOs using anchors in the middle of the scale. The most frequent GSO reported by participants was working "outside of normal work hours in order to accomplish a task or meet a deadline" (M = 2.11, SD = 1.15, N = 101). Roughly 39% of participants indicated that this occurred either *frequently* or *constantly*. Fewer participants reported frequently having work "land on their desk late in the work day" (M = 2.0, SD = 1.0, N = 101), having to work from home (M = 1.7, SD = 1.1, N = 101), or having to handle simultaneous work and personal emergencies (M = 1.34, SD = .68, N = 101). The percentage of those who responded with *frequently* or *constantly* to each of these items was 30%, 27%, and 6%, respectively.

Section 2B: General Segmentation Responses (GSRs)

Responding to Last-Minute Tasks: When faced with urgent work tasks late in the day, the response participants endorsed with the highest frequency was "incorporating the task" into their next day's work schedule (M = 2.39; SD = 0.92; n = 96); roughly 54% of respondents indicated they did so *frequently* or *constantly*. Staying late at their workplace (M = 2.34; SD = 0.98; n = 96) and bringing the task home (M = 1.91; SD = 1.22; n = 96) were less frequent responses to the issue; roughly 46% and 36% indicated doing each of these behaviors either *frequently* or *constantly* as a result of late-in-the-day tasks at work, respectively. Correlation analyses also indicated a significant negative relationship (r = -.45, p < .01; n = 96) between staying late at one's workplace and making plans to incorporate the task into the next day's schedule, suggesting that those who stay late at the office to work tend to not put off tasks till the next day. Although one might argue that staying late at work to complete a task reflects segmentation — as an individual is actively preventing a work task from literally coming into his or her personal space (i.e., home) and preventing spillover— by staying later than one's standard hours, an individual is using personal time to complete work tasks. Accordingly, staying late at the workplace is not a conceptually strong manifestation of segmentation. Thus, between the three possible segmentation responses, I ultimately only chose to retain 'incorporating the task into the next day's schedule' for the final scale—for two reasons: (1) the task-scheduling item was the clearest conceptualization of segmentation, and (2) correlations indicated the item to be unrelated to bringing work home and moderately (negatively) related to staying late to work.

Furthermore, with the use of Wilk's criterion, a MANOVA revealed no significant differences $F(3,92) = 2.61$, $p = .06$ among any of the responses between those who reported infrequent (i.e., responses of *never* or *rarely*; $M = 4.60$; $n = 37$) occurrences of work landing on their desk late in the day and those who reported more frequent occurrences (i.e., responses of *frequently* or *always*; $M = 4.60$; $n = 31$). Accordingly, the item which asked individuals how frequently they received last-minute work tasks was also removed for final use in the segmentation response scale.

Working Outside of Normal Hours: When forced to work outside of their working hours, few individuals reported taking the initiative to make-up the lost personal time; over half (66.7%) of the 90 respondents who reported working beyond normal hours indicated that they made no such plans to get the time back. As with the previous set of items, an independent samples t-test revealed no significant difference ($t(43.59) = .51$, $p = .05$) on making up hours between those who reported infrequent (i.e., responses of *never* or *rarely*; $M = 1.11$; $n = 28$) occurrences of working overtime and those who reported more frequently doing so (i.e., responses of *frequently* or *always*; $M = 0.98$; $n =$

40). Accordingly, the item which asked individuals how frequently worked outside of normal work hours was also removed for final use in the segmentation response scale.

Working from Home: On average participants reported only occasionally having to perform work responsibilities from home (*M* = 1.70, *SD* = 1.10; *N* = 101) or having urgent work and personal issues arise at the same time (*M* = 1.34, *SD* = 0.68, *N* = 101). Indeed, 45% indicated they *never* or *rarely* felt they had to work from home and 64.4% indicated they never or rarely had urgent work and personal issues arise at the same time. Among the 83 respondents who reported working from home at least on occasion, over half indicated that they *never* or *rarely* contained their work activities (61.6%) or materials (64%) to a specific area of their home. Each of these responses was also positively skewed, and the two were strongly correlated (r = .84, p < .01; n = 86). Owing to the strong overlap of these response behaviors and their lack of variance across participants, neither was retained for the final segmentation response scale.

As for the third response behavior, more than half (57%) of the 83 participants who worked from home indicated that they *never* or *rarely* made the conscious decision to bring only specific types of work home with them. A MANOVA employing Wilk's criterion also revealed no significant differences, $F(3, 82) = .43$, $p = .06$,on each of the three possible response behaviors between those who infrequently worked from home (i.e., responses of *never* or *rarely*; M = 1.54; n = 28) and those who did so more often (i.e., responses of *frequently* or *always*; M = 1.19; n = 27). Accordingly, while the response item of selectively bringing work home was retained for use in the final segmentation response scale, the preceding item capturing the frequency of needing to work from home this occurrence was not retained.

Urgent Issues Arising Simultaneously: When urgent work and personal issues arise at the same time, individuals reported that they more frequently made attempts to prevent the urgent personal issue from interfering with the work issue (M = 2.37; SD = 0.94; n = 91) than the urgent work issue from interfering with the personal (M =1.78; SD = 0.94; n = 91). These responses were also strongly and negatively correlated (r = -.34, p < .01; n = 91), suggesting that those who frequently prioritize their personal emergencies over workplace emergencies tend to not frequently do the opposite. The moderate negative relationship between these two items and the adequate normality of the ‘keeping work from personal’ item substantiated the decision to retain the ‘work from personal’ item as an indication of work-to-nonwork segmentation. A MANOVA using Wilk’s criterion and run on the two response behaviors revealed no significant difference F(2,91) = .54, p = .06 on the frequency of prioritizing personal emergencies between those who infrequently experienced simultaneous work and personal emergencies (i.e., responses of *never* or *rarely*; M = 1.87; n = 31) and those who experience them more often (i.e., responses of *frequently* or *always*; M = 1.80; n = 5). Accordingly, the frequency item was not retained for use in the final segmentation response scale.

Conceptual Relations among Items: Correlation analyses also provided some evidence that segmentation responses may be positively related to one another. Those who responded to simultaneous work and personal urgencies by taking action to prevent the work issue from interfering with the personal were also more likely to plan to incorporate last minute work tasks into their next day’s schedule (r = .28, p = .01; n = 77), and to make up lost personal time (r = .25, p = .03; n = 77).

On the basis of feedback from participants, one additional response item was included in the final Segmentation Responses Scale. The additional responses given by participants were predominantly in regards to how they respond to work tasks or responsibilities "landing" on their desk late in the workday. Some of the suggestions included "revising priorities," "partially completing the work and updating my boss" and "penciling in" the task on one's calendar. As these were disparate suggestions, they were not added to the existing response items. However, delegating the task to others was a more frequent suggestion shared by participants, and was added as an item to the measure.

Table 2 General Segmentation Responses (GSRs)

1. When urgent work tasks or responsibilities "land on your desk" late in the workday (i.e., close to the time you intend to stop working), how frequently do you delegate the responsibility or task to others before leaving for the day?

2. When urgent work and personal issues arise for you at the same time, how frequently do you take action to prevent the urgent work issue from interfering with the personal issue (e.g., by delegating work tasks, modify work deadlines, or changing expectations for the accomplishment of work tasks)?

3. When you have to work outside of your normal working hours in order to accomplish a task or meet a deadline, how frequently do you subsequently plan to make up those lost hours (e.g., by adjusting your future work schedule in order to take additional amounts of time off)?

4. When you leave your workplace, how frequently do you choose to perform only certain types of work tasks from home (e.g., make work-related calls or check emails from home but not bring home physical documents or work materials)?

Note. Response options included Never (0), Rarely (1), Occasionally (2), Frequently (3), and Constantly (4).

Section 3: Targets

A total of 83 participants reported working directly with clients or customers as part of their job, 98 reported having co-workers/colleagues in their workplace, and 94 reported having a supervisor. The majority (60.2%) of the 83 individuals who reported working with clients or customers also indicated that those clients never or rarely asked them to accomplish a work-related task during their personal time. Similar requests from supervisors and coworkers were also not reported as frequent occurrences – 74.5% of those with supervisors and 77.6% of those with co-workers indicated that their supervisors and co-workers (respectively) *never* or *rarely* made such as requests.

To examine if specific targets made greater or fewer requests of participants to work during their personal time, I ran a one-way within subjects ANOVA on request frequency between the 76 participants in my sample who reported working with all three targets. Mauchly's Test of Sphericity indicated that the assumption of sphericity had been violated, $\chi^2(2) = 8.95$, $p = .01$. In order to correct the degrees of freedom of the F-distribution and thereby achieve a more accurate significant value, the Greenhouse-Geisser correction estimates were applied. A significant effect of target was found (Lambda = .87, $F(2, 74) = 5.63$, $p = .01$). Pairwise comparisons with Bonferroni adjustments were then examined to make post-hoc comparisons between conditions. The average frequency of requests made by supervisors ($M = .93$, $SD = .88$) and colleagues ($M = .80$; $SD = .86$) were not significantly different ($p = .55$). However, the average frequency of requests made by clients/coworkers ($M = 1.25$, $SD = 1.2$) was significantly greater than requests made by supervisors ($M = .93$, $SD = .88$, $p = .03$) and by coworkers ($M = .80$, $SD = .86$, $p < .01$). Owing to its particularly low mean and similarity to the frequency of supervisor requests, I chose to eliminate coworkers as a distinct target.

Prior to determining whether or not individuals tended to segment from clients as much as from supervisors, I first examined the frequencies with which participants were contacted via various CIT devices (see Table 3 below). The vast majority of participants (70%) who interfaced with clients reported never receiving work-related texts from such clients. Over half (50%) of the 94 individuals with supervisors reported never receiving a text from a supervisor.

I ran a one-way within subjects ANOVA on request frequency between the 83 participants who reported having a client. Mauchly's Test of Sphericity indicated that the assumption of sphericity had been violated, $\chi^2(2) = 7.64$, $p < .01$. Accordingly, in order to correct the degrees of freedom of the F-distribution and thereby achieve a more accurate significant value, the Greenhouse-Geisser correction estimates were applied. A significant effect of target was found (Lambda = .43, F (2, 81) = 53.091, $p < .01$). Pairwise comparisons with Bonferroni adjustments were then examined to make post-hoc comparisons between conditions. The number of requests that participants indicated they received from clients by email was significantly greater (M = 2.36, SD = .16,) than the number requests they received via voicemails (M = 1.21, SD = .11; $p < .01$) or texts (M = .51, SD = .10, $p < .01$). Voicemails were also significantly greater than texts.

I ran a one-way within subjects ANOVA on request frequency between the 94 participants who reported having a supervisor. Mauchly's Test of Sphericity indicated that the assumption of sphericity had been violated, $\chi^2(2) = 10.62$, $p = .01$. To correct the degrees of freedom of the F-distribution and achieve a more accurate significant value, the Greenhouse-Geisser correction estimates were applied. A significant effect of target was found (Lambda = .58, F (2, 92) = 32.70, $p < .01$). Pairwise comparisons with Bonferroni adjustments were then examined to make post-hoc comparisons between conditions. The number of requests that participants indicated they received from supervisors by email was significantly greater (M =1.65, SD = .13,) than the number requests they received via voicemails (M = .79, SD = .09; p < .01) or texts (M = .70, SD = .10, p < .01). However, there was no significant difference found between voicemails and texts (p = 1.00).

I ran a one-way within subjects ANOVA on request frequency between the 98 participants who reported having a coworker. Mauchly's Test of Sphericity indicated that the assumption of sphericity had been violated, $\chi^2(2) = 24.73$, $p < .01$. Accordingly, in order to correct the degrees of freedom of the F-distribution and thereby achieve a more accurate significant value, the Greenhouse-Geisser correction estimates were applied. A significant effect of target was found (Lambda = .64, F (2, 96) = 27.65, $p < .01$). Pairwise comparisons with Bonferroni adjustments were then examined to make post-hoc comparisons between conditions. The number of requests that participants indicated they received from coworkers by email was significantly greater (M = 1.65, SD = .13,) than the number requests they received via voicemails (M = 1.62 SD = .12; p < .01) or texts (M = .68, SD = .10, p < .01). However, there was no significant difference found between voicemails and texts (p = 1.00).

In order to capture a wider range of segmentation behaviors with CIT devices, I therefore decided to eliminate the text-based questions from the final Segmentation from Supervisor and Segmentation from Clients scales. To examine whether or not participants tended to segment themselves as much from clients as from supervisors, I next conducted a series of paired t-tests between the segmentation items referencing these work targets. Results indicated that participants were significantly more likely ($t(44) = 3.93$, $p < .01$) to offer a segmentation response to clients (M = 2.02, SD = .96; n = 45) than to supervisors

(1.29, SD = .99; n =45) when asked to perform work for the target during the participant's personal time. Participants were also more likely (t(33) = 6.28, p < .01) to wait until the following day to respond to a voicemail from a client (M = 2.00, SD = 1.13; n = 34) than to the voicemail of a supervisor (M = .88, SD = .91, n = 34) and more likely to wait until the following day to reply to an email (t(52) = 3.13, p < .01) from a client (M = 1.91, SD = 1.06, n = 53) than to an email from a supervisor (M =1.55, SD = 1.06; n = 53).

In order to assess whether or not the segmentation behaviors significantly differ according to the frequency with which they're asked to work during their personal time, I conducted a series of independent samples t-tests. The first of these tests revealed there to be no significant difference (t(58)= .17, p = .58) in the frequency of participants' segmentation responses (i.e., offering one's working hours) between those who are infrequently asked by clients to work during their personal time (M =2.09; n = 47) and those who more frequently receive such requests (M =1.77; n =13). The same pattern of results was also found among those responding to the requests of supervisors; there was no significant difference (t(58) = .23, p = .82) in participants' segmentation response between those who are infrequently asked by their supervisors to work during their personal time (M =1.38; n = 56) and those who more frequently receive such requests (M = 1.25; n = 4). Finally, no significant differences were found among the average segmentation responses used by participants across both targets and communication types (i.e., responding to voicemails or emails; see Tables 4 and 5 below). As these results collectively suggest that the frequency of requests has no impact on individuals' subsequent segmentation behaviors, I chose to eliminate the frequency items from the final Segmentation from Supervisor and Segmentation from Client Scales.

Table 3

Participant Responses to Voicemails by Target

	Segmentation Response					
	I return the call to communicate a planned future action or response (e.g., during my work hours) to the message					
	Clients $t(56) = -.22$, $p = .83$			***Supervisor*** $t(50) = -1.00$; $p = .32$		
	M	*SD*	*N*	*M*	*SD*	*N*
High	1.71	1.24	48	1.92	1.27	49
Low	1.8	1.03	10	2.67	0.57	3
	I wait to return the call until my normal working hours					
	Clients $t(56) = 1.41$, $p = .16$			***Supervisor*** $t(49) = -.87$, $p = .26$		
	M	*SD*	*N*	*M*	*SD*	*N*
High	2.1	1.26	48	0.62	0.61	48
Low	1.5	1.08	10	0.94	0.82	3

Table 4

Participant Responses to Email by Target

	Segmentation Response					
	I reply to the email to communicate a planned future action or response (e.g., during my working hours) to the message.					
	Clients $t(65) = -1.30$, $p = .29$			***Supervisor*** $t(69) = 1.20$, $p = .24$		
	M	*SD*	*N*	*M*	*SD*	*N*
High	1.72	1.32	18	1.77	1.12	43
Low	2.12	1.03	49	2.07	0.94	28
	I wait to reply to the email until my normal working hours.					
	Clients $t(65) = .53$, $p = .60$			***Supervisor*** $t(69) = 1.06$, $p = .30$		
	M	*SD*	*N*	*M*	*SD*	*N*
High	2	1.37	18	1.4	1.09	43
Low	1.84	1.03	49	1.68	1.12	28

Table 5
Segmentation Responses Scale

1. When a client/customer asks you to perform a work task during your personal time, how frequently do you offer the client/customer your plan to perform the task during your next available working hours?
2. When you receive a (work-related) voice mail from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you return the call to communicate a planned future action or response (e.g., during working hours) to the message?
3. When you receive a (work-related) voice mail from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you wait to return the call until your normal working hours?
4. When you receive a (work-related) email from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you reply to the email to communicate a planned future response or action to the message?
5. When you receive a (work-related) email from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you wait to reply to the email until your normal working hours?

Note. Response options included Never (0), Rarely (1), Occasionally (2), Frequently (3), and Constantly (4).

Implications and Future Directions

Results of this study indicate that there is variation in individual segmentation behaviors, and that such behaviors are especially influenced when one is interacting with particular work targets (i.e., supervisors and colleagues). That individuals indicated they received far fewer requests from colleagues than from other work targets to work during their personal time suggests that those who most frequently have the opportunity to enact interpersonal segmentation behaviors (with work targets) are those who have highly communicative bosses and/or clients. For practical reasons associated with response rates and diminishing returns on item variance, the items referencing coworkers as targets were not included in either of the Segmentation (from either target) Scales. Future studies may wish to include these items, however, should they be particularly interested in the dynamics of coworker communication. Results of such studies may be particularly informative to team-based organizations, for example, which may be strongly impacted by individual differences in segmentation behaviors directed towards colleagues.

CHAPTER 7

CURRENT STUDY

Objectives

The primary purpose of this study was to examine the role of segmentation behaviors within the work-nonwork interface. These strategies included those used to separate work from the "nonwork" domain that includes personally meaningful roles beyond the nuclear family unit (e.g., friend, church member, volunteer, etc.). Based on the results of the pilot study, I further clarify my expectations for the prediction of WTNC from each of the following categories of items: General Segmentation Actions (GSAs), General Segmentation Responses (GSRs), General Segmentation Responses to Clients (GSRCs) and to Supervisors (GSRS), Voicemail Responses to Clients (VMRCs) and Supervisors (VMRS), and Email Responses to Clients (ERC) and Supervisors (ERS).

Those who psychologically detach (Etzion, Eden, & Lapidot, 1998) from work effectively stop thinking about both the negative and positive aspects of work (Fritz & Sonnentag, 2006; Sonnentag & Bayer, 2005; Sonnentag & Fritz, 2007). This time allows individuals to replenish their lost resources from work, such that no functional job demands further tax their psychobiological systems (Demerouti, Bakker, Geurts, & Taris, 2009; Sonnentag & Fritz, 2007). Indeed, diary studies indicate that individuals who experience psychological detachment from work report better mood, less negative affect and fatigue, and fewer sleep disturbances at home (Cropley et al., 2006; Sonnentag & Bayer, 2005; Sonnentag, Binnewies, & Mojza, 2008). Not all behaviors categorized within Kreiner, Hollensbe & Sheep's (2009) four segmentation dimensions – temporal, physical, behavioral, and communicative – facilitate psychological detachment from work. I expect that the actions that do facilitate such detachment will predict decreases in WTNC.

General Segmentation Actions (GSAs) and Responses (GSRs)

GSAs and GSRs (see Table 6) tap the temporal, behavioral, and physical dimensions of segmentation behaviors (Kreiner, Hollensbe, & Sheep, 2009). Specifically, temporal actions place time constraints around work activities such that an individual can effectively ignore work demands during their personal time. Behavioral actions that use others (e.g., friends, family members) to screen out or block work from entering one's personal domain essentially hand these other individuals the responsibility of responding to work demands during one's personal time. Finally, the behavioral action of actively prioritizing the personal domain during simultaneous work and personal emergencies facilitates an individual's choice to disengage from work in order to fully engage in the personal realm; by definition, the prioritization of personal demands over work demands is associated with disengagement from the work domain. Thus, I expect that the temporal actions (GSA1, GSA2, and GSA3) and behavioral actions that either employ others in the boundary management process (GSR2) or reflect prioritization of the personal domain (GSR3) are most likely of all the actions to enable detachment from work.

In contrast, physical actions (GSA4) and differential permeability (GSR4; categorized with the behavioral dimension) do not foster work detachment. Physical actions use space or materials to create a distance between work and the personal domain. A growing number of today's workforce, however, is continually connected to their workplace through the use of mobile communications (e.g., cell phones, laptops, and tablets). The measurement of physical distance captures the distance one places between their physical workplace and their personal domain; it does not explicitly capture the distance one places between themselves and technology. Thus the GSA capturing physical distance will not predict decreases in WTNC. Further, differential permeability facilitates a worker's control over *which* elements of the work domain (e.g., the choice to bring home a work laptop but not client files) are allowed to enter his or her personal domain, but by definition permits at least *some* elements (e.g., the work laptop) to cross the personal domain boundary. As with physical distance, there should be no relationship between the use of differential permeability and WTNC.

> *Hypothesis 8*: Temporal actions and behavioral actions that reflect the use of others and prioritization will be negatively related to WTNC.

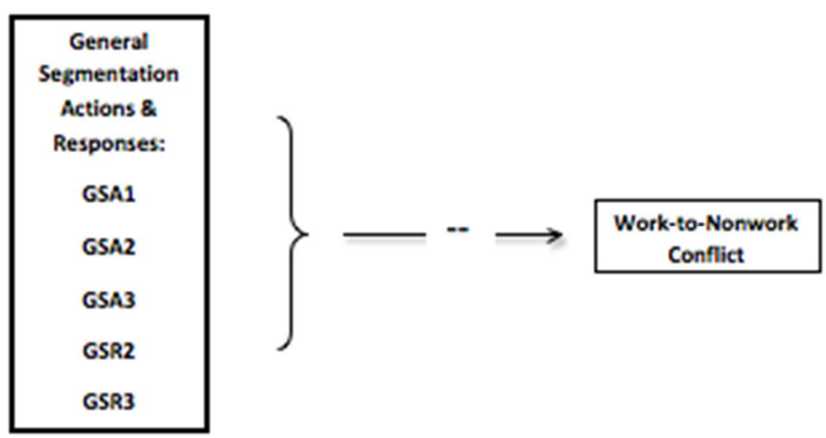

Figure 11. Hypothesis 8.

Table 6

Mapping GSAs and GSRs to Conceptual Dimensions

Dimension Represented	ID	Item
Temporal	GSA1	In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you set limits on the number of times you check for work-related correspondence (e.g., new emails or voice mails)?
	GSA2	In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you intentionally give yourself a "mental break" from thinking about work-related matters?
	GSA3	In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you make plans for future non-work leisure activities (e.g., social gatherings, getaways, or vacations)?
	GSR1	When urgent work tasks or responsibilities "land on your desk" late in the workday (i.e., close to the time you intend to stop working), how frequently do you plan to incorporate the urgent task in to your next day's work schedule?
Behavioral – Using Others	GSR2	When urgent work tasks or responsibilities "land on your desk late in the workday(i.e., close to the time you intend to stop working), how frequently do you delegate the responsibility or task to others before leaving for the day?
Behavioral – Prioritizing	GSR3	When urgent work and personal issues arise for you at the same time, how frequently do you take action to prevent the urgent work issue from interfering with the personal issue (e.g., by delegating work tasks, modifying work schedules, or changing expectations for the accomplishment of work tasks?)
Physical	GSA1	In a typical week, how frequently during your personal time do you physically distance yourself from your workplace or home office?
Behavioral – Differential Permeability	GSR4	When you work from home, how frequently do you choose to only perform certain types of tasks at home (e.g., make work-related calls or check emails from home but not bring home physical documents or work materials)?

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action. GSR = General Segmentation Response.

Segmentation Responses to Work Targets

General (GSR), voicemail-based (VMR), and email-based (EMR) segmentation responses (see Table 7) used by individuals when interacting with work targets fall within the temporal and behavioral dimensions of segmentation strategies (Kreiner et al., 2009). As behavioral tactics, the VMRs and EMRs capture the use of *technology* to segment the work domain from the personal domain. Both temporal and behavioral tactics enable individuals to effectively ignore work demands while in their personal domain, facilitating detachment.

However, research on exchange relationships in the workplace suggests that segmentation is only effective at reducing WTNC when the behaviors are directed towards clients – not supervisors. Responding to work requests during one's personal time may be viewed as 'above and beyond' performance when the request is coming from a supervisor. Going 'above and beyond for the job' (i.e., citizenship performance) is theorized to emanate from a social exchange relationship (Blau, 1964; Homans, 1958) rather than an economic relationship. The former type of relationship is characterized by diffuse, non-specified and informal agreements, whereas the latter is characterized by a specified contract. Employees are more likely to perform OCBs when they believe that performing those behaviors is consistent with how they have been treated by their organization (Moorman, Blakely, & Niehoff, 1998). Using this rationale, individuals who receive work requests from their supervisors while in their personal domain are more likely to respond to such requests from a sense of respect for their social contract with their supervisor, in addition to a sense of necessity stemming from their formal work contract with the organization. Segmenting oneself from supervisory work requests therefore not only segments an individual from a work task, but also from an important relationship with the organization. Knowing this, segmenting from a supervisor is not likely to facilitate proper detachment from work, and thus will not be related to experiences of WTNC.

Individuals who receive requests from clients to work during one's personal time are likely to view the request from the framework of an economic-exchange perspective (as clients are external to the organization); workers are more likely to perceive work requests from clients as threats to their personal time rather than opportunities to engage in an ongoing social exchange relationship. Strategies used to prevent client requests from encroaching on a worker's personal time should therefore enable psychological detachment and thereby predict decreases in WTNC.

Hypothesis 9: The use of general, voice-mail based, and email-based segmentation responses to clients will be negatively related to WTNC.

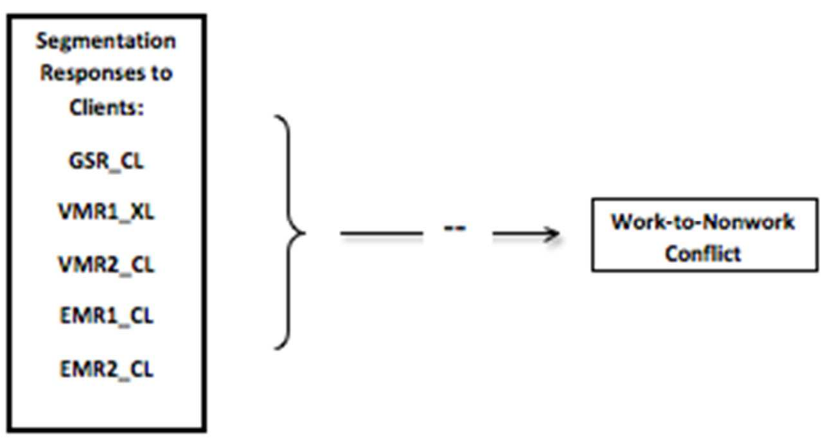

Figure 12. Hypothesis 9.

Table 7
Segmentation Responses to Clients

ID	Item
GSR_CL	When a client/customer asks you to perform a work task during your personal time, how frequently do you offer the client/customer a plan to perform the task during your next available working hours?
VMR1_CL	When you receive a (work-related) voice mail from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you return the call to communicate a planned future action or response (e.g., during your working hours) to the message?
VMR2_CL	When you receive a (work-related) voice mail from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you wait to return the call until your normal working hours?
EMR1_CL	When you receive a work-related email from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you reply to the email to communicate a planned future action or response (e.g., during your working hours) to the message?
EMR2_CL	When you receive a work-related email from a client/customer during your personal time, how frequently do you wait to reply to the email until your normal working hours?

Note. GSR_CL = General Segmentation Response to Client. VMR_CL = Voicemail Response to Client. EMR_CL = Email Response to Client.

CHAPTER 8

METHOD

Overview

The objectives of this study are to understand (a) the variety of actions individuals use to segment their work domain from their personal domain and (b) the placement of such actions within the broader nomological network of work-nonwork boundary management. To accomplish these objectives, data were obtained through the administration of two online surveys to full-time workers in a wide variety of occupations and industries. The first survey, hereafter referred to as Time 1, primarily assessed boundary-related constructs (e.g., segmentation preferences and tactics); the second survey, hereafter referred to as Time 2, primarily assessed the constructs hypothesized as outcomes of boundary work (e.g., WTNC and job attitudes). The surveys were administered two weeks apart in order to reduce the effects of common method bias. This bias refers to the systematic error variance that is shared among variables and attributed to the measurement method rather than to the constructs the variables represent (Podsakoff, MacKenzie, Lee, & Podsakoff, 2003).

Participants for the study were recruited through the StudyResponse Project, a non-profit academic service that recruits individuals via email that have registered to participate in web-based (online) survey research. The most recent estimates posted (SRP, 2005) suggest the current count of individuals in the SRP panel to be 95,000. A number of samples have been drawn from the panel to date, as reported in previous research (e.g., Harris, Anseel, & Lievens, 2008; Hausknecht, Sturman, & Roberson; 2011; Piccolo & Colquitt, 2006).

Most research on work-nonwork conflict has primarily focused on white-collar jobs (e.g., Judge & Colquitt, 2004, Thompson et al., 1999, Wayne et al., 2006). Limited research (see Frone, Russell, & Cooper, 1992a, for an exception) has been conducted to determine whether conceptual relationships in the work-nonwork interface (e.g., the influence of segmentation on WTNC) are relevant across workers in unique occupational categories. Thus, to enhance our understanding of boundary management tactics, as exploratory analysis, I collected data from a sample of full-time workers who were evenly split between white-collar occupations (i.e., jobs that are primarily performed at a desk) and blue-collar occupations (i.e., jobs with moderate to substantial amounts of physical labor). Accordingly, the results are structured in the following format. First, results for each hypothesis are presented based on the overall sample. Next, the same analysis is conducted separately for the white-collar and blue-collar respondents and presented in Appendix D. Data was analyzed using a combination of SPSS 20 and an extension (Hofmann, 2010) of MODPROBE (Hayes, 2009). Specifically, all hypothesized and exploratory analyses were first run with SPSS 20. Then, all hypothesized and exploratory interactions were run with the MODPROBE extension. The extension probes single-df interactions in OLS regression models and provides both confidence intervals around significant interaction effects as well as graphical interpretations.

Pre-Screening Study

Participants

In order to derive a sample of white-collar and blue-collar respondents, a pre-screen was conducted to first identify participants that met these requirements. A total of 1259 individuals completed the pre-screen survey. Of those 1259 that responded to the survey, 201 (16%) identified themselves as having a blue-collar job (i.e., a job with physical labor; e.g., mechanic, construction worker). Thirteen of the 201 respondents were excluded from consideration in the primary study because the respondents either (a) did not complete all of the items on the pre-screen survey, (b) identified themselves as retired or as part-time workers, or (c) did not provide their StudyResponse ID. Owing to the questionable nature of administrative positions as being 'blue-collar' (they are often service-oriented, and have fairly low physical demands), all those who identified themselves as being in an administrative position (12%; n = 23) were also removed. This left a total of 165 blue-collar respondents for invitation to the primary study. Of these 165 blue-collar workers, 77 (47%) identified themselves as a professional, 72 (44%) identified themselves as being in management, and 17 (10%) identified themselves as executives.

Nine hundred and eighty three respondents to the pre-screen (78%) identified themselves as white-collar workers. Twenty-five of those respondents were excluded from consideration because they either a) did not complete all of the items on the pre-screen survey, b) identified themselves as retired or as part-time workers, or c) did not provide their StudyResponse ID. Of the remaining 958 white-collar workers, 77 (8%) identified themselves as being at the administrative level, 272 (28%) at the executive level, 535 in the management level (56%), and 74 identified themselves as professionals (8%). In order to keep the levels represented in the sample consistent between blue-collar and white-collar workers, all of the 74 professional workers were selected for the primary study. All told, the participants chosen to receive invitations to participate at Time 1 included 77 blue-collar professionals, 74 white-collar professionals, 72 blue-collar respondents in management, and 52 white-collar respondents in management (for a total of 275 potential participants at Time 1).

Measures

Five questions were posed to potential study participants to determine if they (a) were eligible to participate, based on their work status (i.e., whether they worked full-time), (b) were eligible to participate, based on the nature of their work (i.e., whether they identified themselves as a white-collar or blue-collar worker), and c) were interested in participating in a time-lagged study. The survey in its entirety is presented in Appendix E.

Procedure

ZipSurvey.com was used to generate the 5-item pre-screen survey. Once created, the URL to the survey was provided to StudyResponse for delivery to potential participants via email. The email containing the survey informed participants that the survey would ask a few questions of them to determine their eligibility and willingness to participate in an upcoming survey study. The survey itself took approximately 2 minutes to complete.

Primary Study

Participants

One hundred and sixty-one full-time workers participated in the primary study, with roughly half of the sample identifying himself or herself as a white-collar worker (n = 80) and half identifying him or herself a blue-collar worker (n = 80). Participants worked in a wide variety of occupations (see Table F1 in the Appendix), with the most frequently reported occupations being executive management (20%, n = 34) and operations/productions (11%, n = 18). Participants were also spread across a wide range of industries (see Table F2 in the Appendix), with manufacturing (30%, n = 48) and construction (9%, n = 15) being the most frequently reported. The majority of the sample worked between 40-49 hours per week (63%, n = 101). Fewer reported working between 35-39 hours per week (37%, n = 59), or over 50 hours per week (1%, n = 1). Twenty-two percent of the sample (n = 36) reported not having a formal policy in place that prohibited or limited the usage of mobile (cell) phones during work. Of the remaining participants who indicated that the presence of such a policy, 77% (n = 48) said it was actually enforced and 44% (n = 27) said it was not.

More than half of the sample reported having either a bachelor's degree (42%, n = 68) or a master's degree (31%, n = 50); 9% (n = 15) held a high school diploma, 7% (n = 11) reported some college, 8% (n = 7) reported an associate's degree, and 2% (n = 3) reported a professional degree. Participants ranged in age from 26 to 69 (M = 40, SD = 9). Initial estimates of the sample income indicated a mean income of $230,465 ($SD$ = $1,063,809.48; n = 159) and median income of 85,000. However, box plots identified 16 outliers that reported incomes of greater than $200,000, suggesting the median to be a more representative estimate; after deselecting participants with outlying incomes, the mean and median estimates for the remaining *n* = 143 sample were $85,383.64 (*SD* = 35,040.90) and $80,000, respectively.

Estimates for position and organizational tenure also indicated a number of outliers in the sample. Specifically, initial estimates for position tenure were 6.99 years (*SD* = 5.07) and 5 years, respectively. Upon the removal of 15 cases that reported position tenures of greater than 15 years, the mean became 5.95 (*SD* = 2.88, *n* = 150) and median became 5. Further, initial estimates for organizational tenure suggested a mean of 9.70 (*SD* = 6.30), with a median of 8 years. Upon removing 11 cases with reported tenures greater than 22 years, sample mean tenure became 8.45 years (*SD* = 4.28,*n* = 150) and the median became 8.

The majority of the sample was male (65%, *n* = 105), white (75%, *n* = 120), and married (80%, *n* = 129). Most (80%, *n* = 129) of those with spouses reported that their spouse worked full time; 4% (*n* = 6) indicated that their spouse worked less than full time. Fifty-eight percent (*n* = 93) of the sample reported having children under the age of 18 living in the home. Of those, most reported having only one (30%, *n* = 47) or two (44%, *n* = 44) children; 3 participants indicated having 3 children under age 18 at home.

Work-Personal Boundary Survey: Time 1 Measures

Segmentation Actions and Responses: In the Time 1 survey, participants were first presented with 4 items beginning with the stem ‘in a typical week, how frequently’ prior to describing specific segmentation actions. Participants rated each of the 5 items on a 0-4 Likert scale (0 = *Never*; 1 = *Rarely*; 2 = *Occasionally*; 3 = *Frequently*; 4 = *Constantly*). Using the same rating scale, participants were next asked to indicate how frequently they *responded* to each of 4 opportunities for segmentation by performing a particular segmentation behavior.

After completing these first two sets of items, participants were asked to indicate whether or not they had a client or customer to whom they must report. Those who responded *yes* were then asked how frequently they respond to a given client's (a) general requests to work during non-work hours, (b) work-related voicemails received during non-work hours, and (c) work-related emails received during non-work hours. Those who responded *no* were prompted to continue to the next set of questions. The first item of the next set of questions asked participants whether or not they had a supervisor or superior to whom they must report; subsequent questions mirrored the previous set of client-focused items, but used *supervisor* as the target of each item rather than *client*.

After answering the aforementioned questions on segmentation behaviors, participants then responded to several sets of questions on their work-nonwork boundary experiences. These included questions regarding one's preference for segmentation, self-efficacy for managing the work-personal boundary, and perceptions of how supportive one's organization is of work-nonwork segmentation. Participants were also asked to indicate how much support they felt they received for work-nonwork balancing from their personal life and how much they felt that their work and personal domains conflicted. The complete Time 1 survey is presented in Appendix G.

Preferences for Segmentation: Kreiner's (2006) segmentation preferences scale was used to assess individuals' preferences for segmenting their work from their nonwork domains. A sample item from the 4-item scale is "I don't like to think about work while I'm at home." Individuals were asked to respond to the items using a 7-point Likert

Agreement scale (1 = *Strongly Disagree*, 7 = *Strongly Agree*). Kreiner (2006) reports a .91 alpha coefficient for the scale. The reliability of the scale in the current study was .64 (n = 158).

Self-Efficacy Work-Nonwork Boundary Management: The 4-item subscale assessing perceived efficacy to manage the work-to-nonwork boundary from Cinamon's (2006a) questionnaire was used to assess participants' confidence in being able to manage the boundary between work and nonwork, (e.g., 'Attend to obligations in your personal life without it affecting your ability to complete pressing tasks at work'). The items were rated on a nine-point scale ranging from *Not at all confident* (0) to *Very confident* (9). Cronbach's alpha for the initially developed scale was .86 (Cinamon, 2006). In the current study it was .76 (n = 158).

Perceived Segmentation Norms: Kreiner's (2006) measure of Segmentation Supplies was used to measure workplace segmentation norms. The four-item measure is on a 7-point Likert agreement scale that ranges from *Strongly Disagree* (1) to *Strongly Agree* (7) with a *Neutral* scale anchor at 4. A sample item from the scale is 'My workplace lets people forget about work when they're at home.' Kreiner (2006) reported an alpha coefficient of .94 for the scale. The scale's reliability in the current study was .80 (n = 159).

Support from Personal Life: The scales used to measure the construct of personal-life support for work-nonwork balancing were adapted by the author from existing scales tapping Family-Specific Supervisor Support (Hammer, Kossek, Yragui, Bodner, & Hanson, 2009). A sample item is "People in my personal life take the time to learn about my work obligations." The items were rated on a scale from 1 (*Strongly Disagree*) to 5 (*Strongly Agree*). Reliability for the scale in the current study was .84 (n = 153).

Work-Nonwork Conflict and Enrichment: Four scales developed by Fisher, Bulger, and Smith (2009) were used to capture the bidirectional experiences of conflict and enrichment between the work and nonwork domains. Participants were asked to indicate how frequently they felt a particular item applied to them, and used a Likert rating scale from 1 (*Not at all*) to 5 (*Almost all of the time*) to provide their answers. Sample items for each of these subscales include the following: for work interference with personal life (WIPL; α = .91), "I came home from work too tired to do things I would like to;" for personal life interfering with work (PLIW; α = .82), "My personal life drains me of the energy I need to do my job;" for work enhancement of personal life (WEPL; α = .70), "The things I do at work help me deal with personal and practical issues at home;" and for personal life enhancement of work (PLEW; α = .81), "I am in a better mood at work because of everything I have going for me in my personal life." Reliabilities in the current study were .84 (WIPL; n = 158), .83 (PLIW; n = 156), .80 (WEPL; n = 160), and .80 (PLEW; n = 160).

Work-Personal Boundary Survey: Time 2 Measures

In the second survey, participants were first asked a series of questions regarding their attitudes towards their work. These included how involved they felt they were with their job, how committed they were to their current organization, and generally how satisfied they were with their job. Following these questions, participants were asked to rate a variety of items pertaining to (a) their citizenship performance at work, (b) the psychological, mental, emotional, and physical nature of their work, (c) the level of autonomy they experience in their position, and (d) the presence of various symptoms of illness. Further, the inventory used to measure physical health did ask individuals to indicate the presence of *physical symptoms*. However, I refer to these health indicators as *physical complaints* in the results and discussion sections in order to reduce potential confusion between the use of these self-reported indicators and other objective metrics such as clinically derived diagnoses.

Job Involvement: Job involvement was measured using the 10-item Job Involvement Questionnaire by Kanungo (1982). Individuals were asked to respond to each item using a 5-Point Likert agreement scale (1 = *Strongly Disagree*, 5 = *Strongly Agree*). It has been referred to as the "clearest and most precise conceptualization of [job involvement]" (Brown, 1996, p. 236). A sample item is "the most important things that happen to me involve my job." Kanungo (1982) reported an alpha coefficient of .70 for the scale. Internal consistency of the measure in the current study was .87 (n = 149).

Organizational Commitment: Commitment was measured with the affective commitment subscale from Allen and Meyer's (1990) organizational commitment measure. The originally developed scale contained 8 items, each measured with a 7-point Likert scale ranging from 1 (*Strongly Disagree*) to 7 (*Strongly Agree*). Allen and Meyer (1990) reported an alpha of .87 for the scale. However, recent research examining the validity of the scale's items (Culpepper, 2000) supports the removal of the following reverse-coded item: "I think that I could easily become as attached to another organization as I am to this one." Accordingly, a revised 7-item version was used for the current study. A sample item from the revised scale is "I would be very happy to spend the rest of my career with this organization." Culpepper (2000) reported an alpha for the revised scale of .84. In the current study it was .87 (n = 156).

Job Satisfaction: Job satisfaction was measured with a commonly used single item indicator taken from the Job Satisfaction Scale (Warr, Cook, & Wall (1979). Respondents were asked to use a seven-point Likert scale (1 = *Very Dissatisfied* to 7 = *Very Satisfied*) to rate the following item: “Taking everything into consideration, how do you feel about your job as a whole?” Research on overall job satisfaction indices and scales supports the adequacy of single-item measures’ reliability and convergent validity with longer (overall) job satisfaction measures (Wanous, Reichers, & Hudy, 1997).

Citizenship Performance: Citizenship performance was measured by two scales developed by Williams and Anderson (1991). While both of the scales were originally written with supervisory ratings in mind (i.e., items are rated by a supervisor about an employee), each of the items was modified in the current study to reflect self-ratings of behavior. To clarify, the first of the two scales contained seven items and measured citizenship behaviors directed at individuals (OBCIs; e.g., altruism and courtesy). Rather than “goes out of way to help new employees,” a revised item for the OCBI scale read, “I go out of my way to help new employees.” The second scale contained seven items and measured behaviors directed at the organization as a whole (OBCOs; e.g., conscientiousness, civic virtue, and sportsmanship). Rather than “gives advance notice when unable to come to work,” a revised item read, “I give advance notice when I am unable to come in to work.” Responses were scored on a 7-point Likert scale from 1 (*Strongly Disagree*) to 7 (*Strongly Agree*). Internal consistency estimates reported by the authors are .88 and .75 for the OBCI and OCBO scales, respectively.

Item analyses and concurrent review of item content further justified the removal of four (of the original seven) items from the OCBI scale. Specifically, the item 'I take a personal interest in other employees' was more ambiguously written than any of the other items on the OCBI scale, and its removal raised the scale's reliability from .68 to .70 (n = 155). Further, three other items tapped behaviors with low behavioral base-rates (i.e., most employees are infrequently given the opportunity to perform them). By removing these items, 'I pass along information to co-workers,' 'I assist my supervisor with his or her workload when not asked,' and 'I go out of my way to help new employees,' the estimate raised to .84. This left the following three items for the final OCBI scale: 'I help other who have been absent,' 'I help others who have heavy workloads,' and 'I take the time to listen to my co-workers' problems and worries. Further, item-analyses and review also justified removal of one (of the original seven items) from the OCBO scale. Specifically, the item 'I adhere to informal rules devised to maintain order,' was weakly correlated with the overall scale. Its removal raised the reliability of the OCBO scale from .71 to .81 (n = 155).

Job Demands: Four scales were used to capture distinct types of job demands at work. Each of the scales was taken from the Questionnaire on the Experience and Evaluation of Work (VBBA; van Veldhoven, 1996) and was presented in a Likert-type format and rated on a 4-point scale from 1 = *Never* to 4 = *Always*. The first scale, Pace and Amount of Work, contained 11 questions. A sample item is "Do you have too much work to do?' Each of the remaining scales contained 7 items. A sample item from the Mental Load scale read, 'Does your work demand a lot of concentration?' A sample item from the Emotional Demands scale read, 'Does your work put you in a lot of emotionally upsetting situations?' A sample item from the Physical Effort scale read, "In your work, are you seriously bothered by having to lift or move loads?' Psychometric analyses justified the removal of one item from the Pace and Amount of Work scale – 'Do you find that you do not have enough work?' - raising the scale's reliability (Cronbach's alpha) index from .69 to .78 (n = 158). Reliability estimates for the remaining three scales were .83 (Mental Load, n = 153), .81 (Emotional Load, n = 158), and .89 (Physical Effort, n = 159).

Autonomy: The Maastricht Autonomy Questionnaire (MAQ; deJonge, 1995; deJonge, Landeweerd & Van Breukelen, 1994) was used to measure autonomy at work. The questionnaire contained 10 items and instructed respondents to indicate the extent to which their work provided them the opportunity to behave in specific ways. Each of the items was rated on a 5-point Likert Scale, ranging from 1 = *Very little* to 5 = *Very much*. A sample item is "To what extent does your work offer you the opportunity to determine the method of working yourself?" Internal consistency for the scale in the current study was .89 (n = 159).

Physical Symptoms of Illness: Physical health was measured with the Physical Symptoms Inventory (PSI, Spector & Jex, 1997). The measure contained 18 items. Respondents were asked to indicate for each of 18 symptoms (e.g., an upset stomach, eye strain), whether or not – in the past 30 days – they had (a) not experienced the symptom, (b) experienced the symptom but not seen a doctor for it, or (c) experienced the symptom and seen a doctor for it. The measure produces three overall scores: one for the number of symptoms reported (but that were not presented to a doctor), one for the number of symptoms presented to a doctor, and one for the sum of these two scores. As causal indicator scales, internal consistency estimates for the total scores are irrelevant.

Demographics: Demographic questions were included at the end of the survey. Work-related demographic questions included tenure in the organization and job, hours worked per week, industry, occupation, organizational level, and colloquial "collar" of the job (i.e., blue-collar, white-collar). Participants were also asked whether or not their organization maintained a formal policy on cell phone use during work and whether it was enforced. Other demographic items that were non-work related included sex, age, race, level of education, household income, relationship status, employment status of spouse/partner, and number of children less than 18 years of age in the home. The complete Time 2 survey is presented in Appendix G.

Additional Measures to Examine Post Hoc Explanations

Additional measures were included in the Time 2 survey to allow for tests of alternative explanations and exploratory relationships. Analyses and results involving these measures are not reported in the current document.

Neuroticism: The neuroticism subscale from the Big Five Inventory (BFI; John & Kentle, 1991; John, Naumann, & Soto, 2008) was used to measure emotional stability. The scale contained 8 items. Respondents were asked to indicate their agreement with each of the 8 statements using a 1-5 Likert response scale (1 = *Strongly Disagree*, 5 = *Strongly Agree*). A sample item is "I am someone who worries a lot." Internal consistency for the scale was .81 (n = 153).

Core-Self Evaluations: Core-self evaluations were measured with Judge, Erez, Bono, & Thorensen's (2003) 12-item scale. Participants were asked to respond to the items using a 5-point Likert rating scale, ranging from *Strongly Disagree* (1) to *Strongly Agree* (5). A sample item for the scale is "I am capable of coping with most of my problems." The scale authors reported alpha reliability estimates for the scale ranging from .81 to .87. Internal consistency in the current study was .81 (n = 145).

Procedure

The study's objectives, survey methodology, administration through StudyResponse, and all materials were outlined and provided to the University's Institutional Review Board for approval. Upon obtaining final authorization for the study, the Time 1 and Time 2 surveys were created in ZipSurvey.com and administered to participants via an online survey link sent directly from StudyResponse personnel (see Appendix G for Time 1 and Time 2 surveys). Those who did not complete the first (Time 1) survey on the day the link went out were sent a reminder one-week subsequent to the launch date. At the end of the first and second weeks of data collection for the Time 1 survey, a list of respondents was provided to StudyResponse that contained each of the respondents' unique StudyResponse IDs and their date of Time 1 survey completion. StudyResponse personnel then sent a Time 2 survey link to each of the Time 1 respondents exactly two weeks subsequent to an individual's Time 1 completion date.

Email scripts for the initial invitation to participate and for the Time 2 survey invitation were crafted in conjunction with StudyResponse personnel (see Appendix H for these documents). The initial email script informed participants that they were receiving the email as a result of their previously voiced interest in survey participation.

They were informed that the study would take place over the course of two weeks, and that each of the surveys would take approximately 20 minutes to complete. An Amazon gift card was offered in exchange for participation at each time point in the study. Upon clicking the link to participate, respondents were first presented with an informed consent form that provided them further information about the study and their rights as a participant. They were informed that clicking the 'Continue' button to take the survey would be considered as their formal consent to participate.

Response Rates

Of the 275 individuals invited to participate in the primary study, 261 (95%) completed the Time 1 survey. Of the 261 invited to continue to Time 2, 253 (95%) participated, providing an overall response rate of 92%. However, prior to including each of these participants, I first addressed the missing data in my sample. I then subsequently conducted a series of analyses to detect non-purposeful responding. These analyses were necessary for the integrity of my study's results, given the online (anonymous) nature of my data collection.

Missing Data

Approximately 2% of the data in the sample was missing. To clean this data the first step was to identify the nature of the missing data. Data points that are missing from a collection can be identified as missing completely at random (MCAR), missing at random (MAR), or patterned. Using SPSS' missing values syntax, the data points missing in the sample were identified as MAR, such that certain variables were predicted by missingness on two scales in particular: job involvement and core-self evaluations.

Research indicates that when less than 5% of data in a sample is missing, and the nature of the missing data is at least random, there is little variation in the results of different methods for handling the missing data (Tabachnick & Fidell, 2007). I chose to use mean substitution. It is important that a consistent procedure be followed when using mean substitution for the replacement of missing data points. I decided that at least 60% of the items on any given scale (or sub-scale, if the measure contained sub-dimensions) must be completed by a respondent to justify substituting the respondent's scale (or sub-scale) mean for his or her missing data point(s).

Careless Responding

In their research on the detection of careless responding in survey studies, Meade & Craig (2011) suggest that the most effective data screening method is to utilize several data quality indicators simultaneously. For rigorous data screening in particular, the authors advocate the use of instructed response items (when available) and three post-hoc indices: the Even-Odd Consistency (EOC) index, the LongString (LS) index, and the Mahalanobis Distance (MD) index. Once calculated, researchers may then make informed decisions on nonpurposeful responding by (a) carefully examining the frequency distributions of each index and (b) using cut-off values to categorize participants as *careless* (or not).

A 95% cut-of value was applied for all but one of the indices, such that participants whose scores exceeded values at the 95th percentile of the sampling distribution were labeled as careless. The exception to this cut-off was for the EOC index, as it was the only index of the four that allowed for negative values. Accordingly, a 5%

cut off value was applied such that participants whose EOC scores fell below the 5th percentile of the sampling distribution were labeled as careless responders.

The Even-Odd Consistency Index: The first computed was the EOC index, which provides a measure of the reliability of an individual's responses. Recommended by Douglas Jackson (1976; as cited in Johnson, 2005), the index is crafted by first splitting the items of multiple unidimensional scales into even and odd-numbered items, according to how they're presented to participants. Then, for each unidimensional scale, the average response for the even items and the average response to the odd items is calculated to produce an even-subscale score and an odd-subscale score. Once each participant has sub-scale scores for each of the standardized measures, a within-person correlation is computed to provide an overall index of the participant's reliability.

The unidimensional scales used to calculate the EOC index for Time 1 were Preferences (for Segmentation; 4 items), Self-Efficacy (for Work-Nonwork Boundary Management; 8 items), Norms (Segmentation Supplies; 4 items), and Support (for Work-Nonwork Balancing; 10 items). These were the only unidimensional scales included in Time 1; therefore, these were the only scales suitable for the index. The scales used to calculate the EOC index for Time 2 included Neuroticism (8 items), Core Self-Evaluations (12 items), Job Involvement (10 items), and Affective Commitment (7 items). These were selected for use in the Time 2 index for two primary reasons: (1) each of the scales are widely used and have robust reliability estimates, and (2) the collective number of items across each of the four measures was similar to the sum of the items used for the Time 1 index.

Further, after creating an EOC index for each respondent, I also heeded Jackson's recommendation to correct the index using the Spearman-Brown split half prophecy formula. Doing so produced some negative indices in excess of -1, for which I assigned the value of -1. The 5^{th} percentile for the EOC sampling distribution at Time 1 was .38 and for Time 2 was -1. There were 10 respondents at Time 1 whose indices fell at or below the cut-off value, and 59 cases at Time 2.

Bogus Items: While I did not include instructed items (i.e., items that instructed participants to *please select* a particular answer) in either one of my surveys, I did include items that Meade & Craig (2011) refer to as *bogus* items, or items that are expected to elicit a particular response from participants. For example, one of the four true-keyed bogus items I included in Time 1 was "I like to breath clean air." One of the two false-keyed bogus items in Time 2 was "I speak more than nine languages." I placed four items in the Time 1 survey that were all positively keyed. Two of the four items were within scales (measuring other constructs) that asked respondents to indicate their agreement with statements using a 1-7 Likert agreement scale (1 = *Strongly Disagree*, 7 = *Strongly Agree*). I placed the third and fourth items within scales (of other constructs) that asked respondents to indicate their agreement using a 1-5 Likert agreement scale (1 = *Strongly Disagree*, 5 = *Strongly Agree*).

I created two indices of careless responding in my analysis that each summed the number of bogus items an individual "failed" at Time 1 (Infrequency Score Time 1; INF T1) and (separately) at Time 2 (INF T2). For each of the four true-keyed items, failing was indicated by responses other than Agree or Strongly Agree. For the false-keyed items, failing was indicated by responses other than Disagree or Strongly Disagree. The cut-off value (i.e., 95th percentile) for the bogus items at Time 1 was 3. Thirty-eight participants scored a 3 on this index and 8 others scored a 4. The cut-off value for the bogus items at Time 2 was 2. One hundred and fourteen participants scored a 2 on this index.

The LongString Index: The second index I created was one recommended by Johnson (2005) to detect careless response patterns, whereby participants consistently respond with the same answer (e.g., "4"). Named LongString (LS), this index computes the maximum number of times a participant answers an item using the same response on the same survey page. I chose to calculate the maximum number of times a response is used, regardless of the value of that response. For example, if a participant uses "4" to respond to *12* items in a row on page 1 and then uses "6" to respond to *20* items on page 2, the participant's final index value would be 20. The cut-off value for LS at Time 1 was 12 and for LS at Time 2 was 11. These values identified 6 cases as careless at Time 1 and 17 cases as careless at Time 2.

Mahalanobis Distance Index: To provide additional information on the nature of responses I also calculated the Mahalanobis distance (MD) values of participants for two scales at Time 1 and four scales at Time 2. For Time 1 I used the work-nonwork conflict and enrichment scales. These scales were used primarily because they are well-validated and reliable scales. However, additional rationale for their use also stemmed from their ability to facilitate decision making, as individuals' responses to these scales can easily allow for identification of careless responding. For similar reasons, I used the job demands scales to identify outlier status at Time 2.

The criterion for multivariate outliers is MD at $p < .01$. This distance value is evaluated as χ^2, with degrees of freedom equal to the number of variables. For both Time 1 and Time 2, I therefore marked as a multivariate outlier any case with a MD greater than $\chi^2(4) = 18.467$. Three participants were identified as multivariate outliers at Time 1 and two were identified at Time 2.

Combining Cut-Off Values: After labeling the index scores for all participants as either passing or failing each of the indices of carelessness, a series of decisions was made as to which indices (or combinations of indices) would ultimately identify (or label) a respondent as careless. First labeled were all those who failed the EOC Time 1 and EOC Time 2 indices (8 cases) and all those who failed EOC at Time 2 (but not Time 1; 51 cases). Of the four remaining cases that failed EOC Time 1 (but not Time 2), 3 of the 4 cases were labeled as careless because they had concerning INF scores at both time points. One of the four was retained after a scan of its data was judged satisfactory.

The next index considered was Bogus Items. Labeled first were 3 cases that failed INF at both time points. An additional 3 cases were then labeled careless because while their only failed index was INF at T1, I scanned their data and judged it to be careless. Cases were also removed that failed the LongString index (at either time point) and that also failed at least one other index (4 cases). Next, 24 cases with EOC T2 scores below .42 were individually scanned. Twenty of the cases were judged to be careless, and four were judged as valid.

Finally, of the 5 cases that produced multivariate outliers, only one of the cases failed a second index. After scanning the case's data, I judged the data to not be careless, and so kept all 5 participants. In sum, 92 of the 253 participants were labeled as careless responders (36%), providing a final count of N = 161 valid participants for analyses.

CHAPTER 9

RESULTS

Data Screening

Prior to testing hypotheses, all variables were scanned for missing scale scores, outliers were detected, and data assumptions were evaluated. Missing scale scores were found on the emotional demands scale and on the job satisfaction measure. One of the 161 individuals who participated in the study did not complete at least 60% of the emotional demands scale, resulting in an n = 160 for analyses involving emotional demands. Another individual did not respond to the job satisfaction item, resulting in an n =160 for analyses involving job satisfaction. Eight scale scores were also missing across the general segmentation actions (GSAs, see Table I1 in the Appendix). Of the continuous demographic variables, additional scores were missing for age (one respondent), education (two respondents), and income (two respondents). Filtering out the aforementioned missing data provided a listwise n = 150 individuals for correlation analyses using all continuous variables (Table J1 in the Appendix).

Responses to general opportunities for segmentation and target-provided opportunities for segmentation included *Not Applicable* response options that necessitated further data cleaning. Specifically, one individual did not respond to GSR3, providing a listwise n = 160 for potential analyses involving GSRs. Further, some individuals responded to one or more of the GSRs by indicating that the particular situation described in the item did not arise for them during the week, and so could not provide a response (see Table H2 in the Appendix for individual item totals). Similarly, of the 145 individuals who reported having a supervisor, some neglected to respond to one or more items, resulting in an n = 139 total responses; of these 139, some individuals also indicated that one or more of the situations was not applicable to them (see Table H3 in the Appendix for individual item totals). Additionally, of the 139 individuals who indicated that they worked with clients or customers in their job, some neglected to respond to one or more items, resulting in an n = 136 total responses; of these 136, some individuals also indicated that one or more of the situations was not applicable to them (see Table H4 in the Appendix for individual item totals). Subsequent analyses involving the aforementioned items excluded those who not only neglected to complete items but also those who indicated that specific segmentation opportunities were not applicable to them.

Univariate outliers were next detected for each of the survey measures by first standardizing the scale scores for each measure. Scale scores equal to or greater than 2.5 standard deviations away from the scale mean were considered outliers and so were replaced with the nearest non-outlying value on the given scale. Frequency distributions were then examined to evaluate the normality of each of the variables. Specifically, the distributions were examined with respect to skewness and kurtosis. Skewness measures the degree of asymmetry in a probability distribution; kurtosis measures the degree of "peakness" in a probability distribution. Significance tests of skewness and kurtosis are best suited for evaluations of normality with small to moderate sized samples (Tabachnick & Fidel, 2007). As sample sizes increase, standard errors for both skewness and kurtosis provide for increasingly easier rejections of the null hypothesis of normality; statistically significant skewness often does not deviate enough from normality to make a substantive difference in the analysis (Tabachnick & Fidel, 2007). The sample size for the current study exceeded 104 respondents for all variables, and exceeded 160 respondents for the majority of variables. Accordingly, visual scanning of variable distributions was therefore conducted in addition to scanning the statistics and standard errors for skewness and kurtosis. None of the variables used in this study violated the assumptions of skewness or kurtosis. Thus, no transformations were applied.

The final statistical phenomenon examined was multicollinearity. This occurs when two or more predictor variables in a multiple regression model are highly correlated, causing one to question the validity of individual predictors. Multicollinearity was assessed using Pearson correlations and tolerance values; values of less than 10 indicate the presence of highly correlated predictors. Results of these analyses indicated that the ordinal variable measuring the presence of children in the home (0 = *no children at home*, 1 = *living at home part-time*, 2 = *living at home full-time*) was highly correlated with the continuous variable measuring the total number of children living at home under age 18. Further, each of the variables contributed less than 10% unique variance to the prediction of the criterion (i.e., case numbers). Consequently, subsequent analyses examining the influence of children in the home only included the continuous variable assessing total number of children.

Descriptives

Segmentation Actions

As one goal of this dissertation was to elucidate the nature of the segmentation behaviors used in the work-nonwork interface, analyses were first conducted to compare the frequency with which individuals engaged in unique general segmentation actions

(GSAs; see Table 6 for items). Specifically, paired sample t-tests were conducted to examine the mean differences in frequency of use between each of the GSAs (n = 156, listwise). Results indicated that the only two means that were not significantly different from one another were GSA1 (M = 2.40, SD = 1.21) and GSA2 (M = 2.51, SD = .93). This indicates that individuals did not restrict CIT use (GSA1) any more or less than they gave themselves mental breaks from work (GSA2). All other pairs of means were significantly different from one another. Thus, results indicated that individuals (1) made plans for leisure activities the most (GSA3; M = 2.82, SD = .85), (2) were next most likely to physically distance themselves from work (GSA4; M = 2.74, SD = .96), and 3) were least likely to either restrict CIT use or to take mental breaks from work.

Work-to-NonWork Conflict (WTNC)

Analyses were next conducted to (a) explore the nature of WTNC in the current sample and to (b) provide empirical rationale for the control variables used in subsequent hypothesis tests predicting WTNC. Two-tailed Pearson correlations provided tests of association between WTNC and the continuous variables of participant age, income, number of children in the home under age 18, organizational tenure, job tenure, psychological demands, and support for work-personal life balancing from the personal domain. Analyses of Variance (ANOVAs) provided tests of mean differences in WTNC between men and women, between those working greater or fewer than 40 hours per week, between those with unique cell-phone policies at work, between those of differing educational backgrounds, and between those in white-collar and blue-collar professions. No tests of mean differences were conducted between marital status groups, as the vast majority of the sample was married; i.e., the split of respondents across the categories of relationship status exceeded the recommended cut off of 90:10 (Tabachnick & Fidel, 2007).

Results indicated that age, psychological demands, number of hours worked, and level of education were all associated with WTNC in the current sample. While older individuals tended to experience less WTNC (r = -.38, p < .01, N =161), those with greater psychological demands at work (r = .47, p < .01, N = 161) tended to experience more WTNC. Further, ANOVA results revealed a significant effect for hours on WTNC (F (2, 158) = 6.79, MSE = .78, p < 01 ; $\eta\rho^2$ = .08). Those working between 35-39 hours per week (n = 59) experienced significantly greater levels of WTNC (M = 3.27, SD = .12) than those working between 40-49 hours per week (n = 101; M = 2.74; SD = .09). However, this effect size was small. Further, there was also a significant effect for education (F (5, 153) = 5.12, MSE = .74, p < .01; $\eta\rho^2$ = .14), such that those with master's degrees experienced significantly greater (M = 3.28, SD = .12) WTNC than those with a high school diploma (M = 2.25, SD = .22).

Neither income (r = .14, p = .08, n = 159), the number of children under 18 in the home (r = .05, p = .55, N = 161), the amount of support one has in their personal life for balancing their work and personal life (r = -.14, p = .07, N = 161), organizational tenure (r = .02, p = .80, N = 161), nor job tenure (r = .04, p = .64, N = 161) was associated with WTNC. Men and women also seemed to experience similar levels of WTNC (F (1, 159) = 3.81, MSE = .82, p = .05), as did those in blue-collar (n = 80) and white-collar (n = 81) occupations (F (1, 159) = 2.91, MSE = .83, p = .09). There were also no differences in WTNC (F(2, 154) = 1.50, MSE = .84, p = .23) between those who worked in environments without formal cell-phone policies (M = 2.72, SD = .90, n = 36), those who worked in environments with enforced cell-phone policies (M = 2.99, SD = .95, n =

77), and those who worked in environments with unenforced cell-phone policies (M = 3.04, SD = .87, n = 44).

To account for the effects of age, psychological demands, number of hours worked, and level of education on experiences of WTNC in the current sample, each of these variables was controlled for in analyses that included WTNC as a criterion variable. Accordingly, these four variables were first included as controls in the prediction model of WTNC from GSAs and GSRs (tested in Hypothesis 8). They were then subsequently included as controls in the prediction model of WTNC from segmentation behaviors directed towards clients (tested in Hypothesis 9).

Hypothesis Testing

Hypothesis 1

Hypothesis 1 stated that, beyond the effects of job involvement, WTNC would be positively related to physical health complaints and negatively related to (a) job satisfaction, (b) organizational commitment, (c) interpersonally-oriented citizenship performance, and (d) organizationally-oriented citizenship performance. To test this hypothesis, five separate hierarchical multiple regressions were conducted (see Table 8). Each analysis regressed WTNC on job involvement in step one, and regressed WTNC on one of the four outcomes in step two. Bonferroni corrections were applied to the overall model tests of significance to adjust the alpha levels of significance downwards and so maintain an overall family-wise error rate of .05.

Controlling for the effects of job involvement, WTNC predicted significant amounts of variance in each of the hypothesized outcomes – (a) physical health, (b) job satisfaction, (c) organizational commitment, (d) interpersonally-oriented citizenship behaviors, and (e) organizationally-oriented citizenship behaviors (see Table 8). Specifically, the experience of WTNC was positively related to physical health complaints ($\beta = .47$, $p < .01$), and negatively related to job satisfaction ($\beta = -.24$, $p < .01$), organizational commitment ($\beta = -.25$, $p < .01$), interpersonally-oriented citizenship behaviors ($\beta = -.35$, $p < .01$), and organizationally-oriented citizenship behaviors ($\beta = -.21$, $p = .01$). Accordingly, Hypothesis 1 was supported.

Table 8
Predicting Outcomes of WTNC

Physical Health Complaints						
F(2, 158) = 20.66, *MSE* = 19.73, *p* < .01	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	-.67	.52	-.10	-.10	.01	.20
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	-1.60	.49	-.24	-.10	.05	< .01
Work-to-Nonwork Conflict	2.52	.40	.47	.39	.19	< .01
Job Satisfaction						
F(2, 157) = 8.52, MSE = .97, p < .01	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	.30	.11	.21	.22	.04	.01
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	.40	.11	.29	.22	.08	< .01
Work-to-Nonwork Conflict	-.27	.09	-.24	-.15	.05	< .01
Organizational Commitment						
F(2, 158) = 90.41, MSE = .64, p < .01	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	1.07	.09	.69	.69	.48	< .01
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	1.18	.09	.77	.69	.53	< .01
Work-to-Nonwork Conflict	-.32	.07	-.25	-.02	.06	< .01
Citizenship Behaviors - Interpersonal						
F(2, 158) = 10.97, MSE = 1.44, p < .01	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
	.19	.13	.11	.11	.01	.16
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	.37	.13	.22	.11	.05	< .01
Work-to-Nonwork Conflict	-.48	.11	-.35	-.28	.11	< .01
Citizenship Behaviors - Organizational						
F(2, 158) = 4.75, MSE = 1.30, p < .01	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	-.21	.12	-.13	-.13	.02	.09
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	-.11	.13	-.07	.13	.00	.38
Work-to-Nonwork Conflict	-.26	.10	-.21	-.23	.04	< .01

Note. Listwise *n* = 160.

Hypothesis 2

Hypothesis 2 stated that, beyond the effects of job involvement, WTNE would be negatively related to physical health complaints and positively related to job satisfaction, commitment, and citizenship performance (both interpersonally-oriented and organizationally-oriented). To test this hypothesis, five separate multiple regressions were conducted. Bonferroni corrections were applied to adjust the alpha levels of significance for each model downwards and so maintain an overall family-wise error rate of .05.

Results indicated that after controlling for job involvement, none of the hypothesized relationships between WTNE and the outcomes were significant (see Table 9). Further, while the overall model predicting organizational commitment was significant, the relationship between WTNE and organizational commitment was not significant once job involvement was included in the model. Accordingly, Hypothesis 2 was not supported.

Table 9

Predicting Outcomes of WTNE

Physical Health Complaints						
$F(2, 157) = .98$, $MSE = 24.59$, $p = .38$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	-.68	.52	-.10	-.10	.01	.19
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	-.84	.61	-.13	-.11	.01	.17
Work-to-Nonwork Enrichment	.26	.51	.05	-.02	.00	.61
Job Satisfaction						
$F(2, 157) = 4.36$, $MSE = 1.02$, $p = .01$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	.30	.11	.22	.22	.04	.01
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	.24	.13	.17	.22	.02	.06
Work-to-Nonwork Enrichment	.09	.10	.08	.18	.00	.36
Organizational Commitment						
$F(2, 157) = 76.58$, $MSE = .70$, $p < .01$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	1.07	.09	.69	.69	.48	< .01
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	.95	.10	.62	.69	.27	.00
Work-to-Nonwork Enrichment	.18	.08	.14	.47	.01	.04
Citizenship Behaviors – Interpersonal						
$F(2, 157) = 1.27$, $MSE = 1.62$, $p = .28$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	.19	.13	.11	.11	.01	.16
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	.25	.16	.15	.11	.02	.12
Work-to-Nonwork Enrichment	-.10	.13	-.07	.01	.00	.47
Citizenship Behaviors – Organizational						
$F(2, 157) = 4.46$, $MSE = 1.31$, $p = .01$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Job Involvement	-.21	.12	-.13	-.13	.02	.09
STEP 2						
Job Involvement	-.39	.14	-.25	-.13	.04	.01
Work-to-Nonwork Enrichment	.29	.12	.22	.09	.04	.02

Note. Listwise $n = 160$.

Hypothesis 3

Hypothesis 3 stated that frequent use of specific actions to separate the work domain from the personal domain would be negatively related to WTNC. Results of one-tailed Pearson correlations used to test this hypothesis are presented in Table 10 below. Bonerroni corrections were applied to adjust the alpha levels of significance downwards and so maintain an overall family-wise error rate of .05. Results indicated that while WTNC was indeed significantly related to each of the segmentation actions (GSAs), more frequent use of each segmentation action was actually positively associated with WTNC. As these correlations were not in the hypothesized direction, Hypothesis 3 was not supported.

Table 10
Descriptives and Correlations between Work-to-Nonwork Conflict and General Segmentation Actions

	Variable	*M*	*SD*	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	WTNC	2.93	.92	-				
2.	GSA1	2.40	1.21	.43	-			
3.	GSA2	2.51	.93	.25	.50	-		
4.	GSA3	2.82	.84	.35	.42	.44	-	
5.	GSA4	2.74	.96	.27	.41	.24	.48	-

Note. All correlations are significant at the $p < .01$ level. WTNC = Work-to-Nonwork Conflict. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise $n = 156$.

Hypothesis 4a

Hypothesis 4a stated that the preference to segment would be positively related to the frequency of using specific segmentation behaviors during the week. To test this hypothesis, one-tailed Pearson correlations were run between segmentation preferences and each of the general segmentation actions. Bonferroni corrections were applied to adjust the alpha levels of significance downwards and so maintain an overall family-wise error rate of .05.

Results provided in Table 11 indicate that the only segmentation behavior significantly related to preferences was the frequency of making plans for leisure activities (GSA3; $r = -.24$, $p < .01$). Further, the correlation between preferences and planning leisure activities was negative—the opposite of the hypothesized direction. Thus, Hypothesis 4a was not supported.

Table 11

Descriptives and Correlations between Preference for Segmentation and General Segmentation Actions

	Variable	*M*	*SD*	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	Preference	5.44	0.92	-				
2.	GSA1	2.40	1.21	-.14	-			
3.	GSA2	2.51	0.93	.06	.50	-		
4.	GSA3	2.82	0.85	-.24	.42	.44	-	
5.	GSA4	2.74	0.96	-.13	.41	.34	.48	-

Note. Correlations larger than .22 have p-values less than .01 (1-tailed) and are significant using Bonferroni corrections. Preference = Preference for Segmentation. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise $n = 156$.

Hypothesis 4b

Hypothesis 4b stated that the preference to segment would be positively related to the frequency of using segmentation responses during the week. To test this hypothesis, one-tailed Pearson correlations were run between preferences and each of the general segmentation responses (see Table 12). Bonferroni corrections were applied to adjust the alpha levels of significance downwards and so maintain an overall family-wise error rate of .05. The preference to segment only positively related to the frequency of responding to last minute work-tasks by scheduling tasks for the following work day (GSR1). The preference to segment did not positively associated with any of the other responses. Thus, Hypothesis 4b was only partially supported.

Table 12
Descriptives and Correlations between Preferences and GSRs

	Variable	M	SD	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	Preference	5.27	0.87	-				
2.	GSR1	2.62	0.99	.22	-			
3.	GSR2	2.65	1.06	-.11	.17	-		
4.	GSR3	2.72	0.96	.03	.21	.39	-	
5.	GSR4	2.51	0.98	.07	.31	.49	.42	-

Hypothesis 5a

Hypothesis 5a stated that self-efficacy would interact with segmentation preferences to predict how frequently an individual enacts a given segmentation action during the week. Specifically, the hypothesis stated that self-efficacy would moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of performing a segmentation action such that the preference-frequency relationship would be stronger for those high on self-efficacy. To examine this hypothesis, four hierarchical multiple regressions were conducted (see Table 13). Each of the regressions included the centered variables of self-efficacy and preferences in Step 1 and the interaction of the centered variables in Step 2.

Results indicated that neither preferences nor self-efficacy was related to the frequency with which individuals took mental breaks (GSA2) or physically distanced themselves from work (GSA4). However, the prediction models for restricting CIT use (GSA1) and making plans for leisure (GSA3) were significant. Although self-efficacy predicted *increases* in the frequency of restricting CIT use, preferences predicted *decreases;* the interaction of self-efficacy and preferences was not significant. Notably, preferences and self-efficacy did interact to predict the planning of leisure activities (see Figure 13).

To examine the interaction, the simple effects of preferences on planning leisure activities were tested at three values of self-efficacy: one standard deviation (SD) below the mean, at the mean, and one SD above the mean. Confidence intervals around the *p*-values for each of the simple effects were reviewed to substantiate the significance of effects (see Table 14). Results indicated an effect of preferences on planning at two levels of self-efficacy: one SD below the mean, and at the mean. For both groups, increases in the preference to segment predicted significant decreases in the frequency of making plans for leisure activities.

Together, results did not provide support for Hypothesis 5a. However, they do suggest that variation in some segmentation behaviors can be explained by an individual's preferences and self-efficacy. First, self-efficacy predicted increases in restricting CIT use, while preferences predicted decreases. Secondly, among those with low or average levels of self-efficacy, preferences predicted decreases in the frequency with which individuals made plans for leisure. This suggests that feeling incapable of managing the boundary between work and nonwork is a hindrance to enacting one's segmentation preferences by planning for leisure.

Further, post-hoc analyses were conducted to see if the preference to segment interacted with self-efficacy to affect individuals' average use of segmentation actions.

The model predicting average use of actions was not significant, $F(3,152) = 2.60$, $MSE = .55$, $p = .05$. Thus the significant interaction between preferences and self-efficacy on planning leisure activities was not captured after the segmentation actions were grouped together in the regression analyses.

Table 13

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Self-Efficacy and Preferences

GSA1 – Restricting CIT Use						
$F(3, 152) = 5.15$, $MSE = 1.35$, $p < .01$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.27	.08	.28	.20	.07	< .01
Preference	-.32	.11	-.24	-.14	.05	< .01
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.27	.08	.28	.20	07	< .01
Preference	-.33	.11	-.25	-.14	.05	< .01
Self-Efficacy*Preference	-.04	.07	-.04	-.01	.00	.58

GSA2 – Taking Mental Breaks						
$F(3, 152) = 1.97$, $MSE = .84$, $p = .12$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.12	.06	.17	.17	.03	.05
Preference	.00	.08	.00	.06	.00	.98
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.12	.06	.17	.17	.16	.05
Preference	-.02	.09	-.03	.06	.00	.77
Self-Efficacy*Preference	-.07	.06	-.10	-.11	.01	.25

GSA3 – Planning Leisure Activities						
$F(3, 152) = 5.49$, $MSE = .66$, $p < .01$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.01	.06	.01	-.07	.00	.87
Preference	-.22	.08	-.24	-.24	.05	< .01
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.01	.06	.02	-.07	.00	.82
Preference	-.17	.08	-.19	-.24	.03	.03
Self-Efficacy*Preference	.13	.05	.21	.26	.04	.01

GSA4 – Physically Distancing from Work						
$F(3, 152) = 1.33$, $MSE = .92$, $p = .27$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	-.00	.06	-.00	-.05	.00	.96
Preference	-.14	.09	-.13	-.13	.01	.13
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	-.00	.06	-.00	-.05	.00	.98
Preference	-.11	.09	-.10	-.13	.01	.25
Self-Efficacy*Preference	.07	.06	.10	.12	.01	.25

Note. Preference = Preference for Segmentation. GSA = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise $n = 156$.

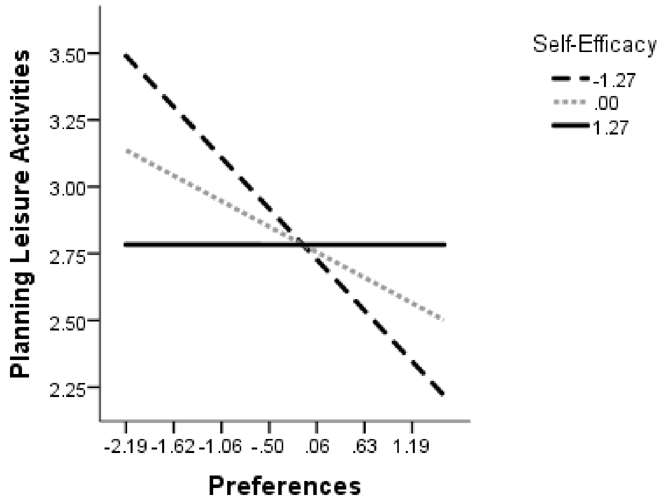

Figure 13. Interaction between Preferences and Self-Efficacy on Planning Leisure Activities.

Table 14
Conditional Effects of Preferences on Planning Leisure Activities at Values of Self-Efficacy

	SE	*b*	*se*	*t*	*p*	*LLCI(b)*	*ULCI(b)*
1 SD Below Mean	-1.27	-.34	.09	-3.88	< .01	-.51	-.17
Mean	.00	-.17	.08	-2.17	.03	-.32	-.02
1 SD Above Mean	1.27	.00	.11	-.00	1.00	-.23	.22

Note. SE = Self-Efficacy.

Hypothesis 5b

Hypothesis 5b stated that self-efficacy would interact with segmentation preferences to affect segmentation responses. Specifically, it argued that self-efficacy would moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of using a segmenting response such that the preference-frequency relationship would be stronger for those high on self-efficacy. To examine this hypothesis, four hierarchical multiple regressions were conducted (see Table 15). For each of the regressions, the centered variables of self-efficacy and preferences were entered in Step 1 and the interaction of these centered variables was entered in Step 2.

All four of the regression models explained significant amounts of variance in segmentation responses. Two of the models produced significant main effects: self-efficacy predicted (1) increases in scheduling last minute work-tasks (GSR1), and (2) increases in prioritizing personal responsibilities during simultaneous work and personal emergencies (GSR3). Additionally, the models predicting delegation of last minute tasks (GSR 2) and performing a limited range of work tasks at home (GSR4) produced significant interactions. To examine each of these interactions, the simple effects of preferences on GSR2 and (separately) GSR4 were evaluated at three levels of self-efficacy: one standard deviation (SD) below the mean, at the mean, and one SD above the mean. Confidence intervals around the *p*-values for each of the simple effects were reviewed to substantiate the significance of effects (see Table 16).

The interaction predicting the frequency of delegating last minute work tasks (GSR2) was examined first. Results indicated a negative effect of preferences on delegation at low levels of self-efficacy (one SD below the mean; see Figure 14). Thus, individuals who feel incapable of managing the work-nonwork boundary are especially unlikely to use delegation as a means to achieve segmentation.

The second significant interaction examined was the interaction between preferences and self-efficacy on the frequency of performing a limited range of work tasks at home (GSR4). Examining the simple effects of preferences on GSR4 at varying levels of self-efficacy, confidence intervals around each of the unstandardized regression coefficients contained zero. As a result, the moderation was judged unstable and a graphical interpretation of the results was not rendered.

Collectively, results did not provide support for Hypothesis 5b. However, they do suggest that self-efficacy is an important component of some segmentation responses. Specifically, the more individuals feel capable of managing the boundary between work and nonwork, the more likely they are to respond to last-minute work tasks by scheduling the tasks for the following workday. They are also more likely to prioritize their personal responsibilities when simultaneous work and personal emergencies occur. Further, results indicated that feeling incapable of keeping work from one's personal life affects the degree to which an individual uses delegation to enact their preferred level of segmentation. For these individuals, the more they desire to keep work out of their personal life, the less frequently they use others to help them segment.

Table 15

Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Self-Efficacy and Preferences

GSR1 – Scheduling Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 128) = 16.25$, $MSE = .72$, $p < .01$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.40	.06	.50	.52	22	< .01
Preferences	.03	.09	.03	.22	.00	.72
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.40	.06	.50	.52	.22	< .01
Preferences	.00	.10	.00	.22	.00	.99
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	-.08	.06	-.10	-.16	.01	.21
GSR2 – Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 128) = 4.97$, $MSE = 1.04$, $p < .01$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.10	.08	.12	.06	.01	.22
Preferences	-.18	.12	-.15	-.11	.02	.11
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.10	.08	.12	.06	.01	.19
Preferences	-.08	.11	-.06	-.11	.00	.51
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.25	.07	.30	.30	.08	< .01
GSR3 – Prioritizing Personal Life during Simultaneous Work & Personal Emergencies						
$F(3, 128) = 3.21$, $MSE = .88$, $p = .03$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.18	.07	.24	.22	.05	.01
Preferences	-.06	.10	-.06	.03	.00	.54
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.18	.07	.24	.22	.05	.01
Preferences	-.01	.11	-.01	.03	.00	.91
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.12	.07	.15	.12	.02	.10
GSR4 - Performing Limited Range of Work Tasks at Home						
$F(3, 128) = 2.86$, $MSE = .92$, $p = .04$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.12	.07	.16	.10	.02	.10
Preferences	.01	.10	.01	.92	.00	.92
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.13	.07	.16	.16	.02	.08
Preferences	.08	.11	.07	.07	.00	.47
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.16	.07	.20	.16	.04	.03

Note. GSR = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for GSR items. Listwise n = 132.

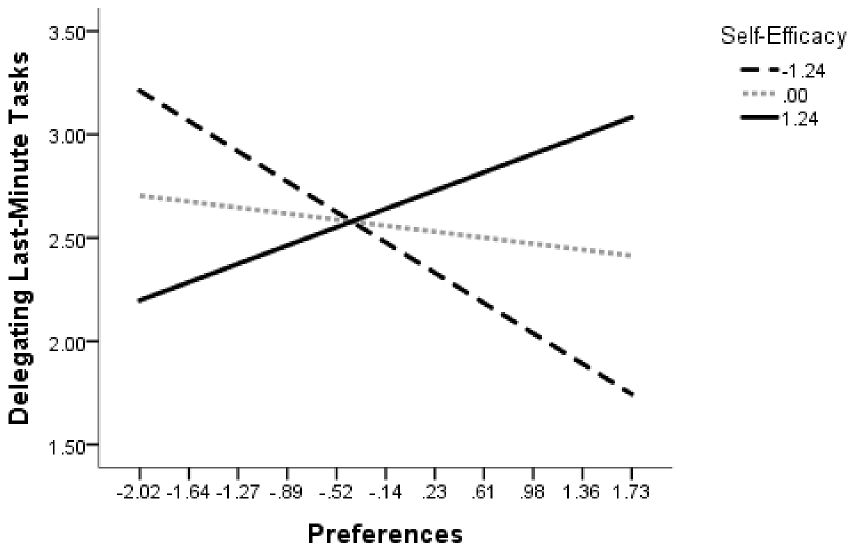

Figure 144. Interaction between Preferences and Self-Efficacy on Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks

Table 16
Conditional Effects of Preferences on Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks at Values of Self-Efficacy

	SE	*b*	*se*	*t*	*p*	*LLCI(b)*	*ULCI(b)*
1 SD Below Mean	-1.24	-.39	.13	-3.11	< .01	-.64	-.14
Mean	.00	-.08	.12	-.68	.50	-.30	.15
1 SD Above Mean	1.24	.24	.17	1.42	.16	-.09	.56

Note. SE = Self-Efficacy.

Hypothesis 6a

Hypothesis 6a stated that workplace norms would interact with segmentation preferences to predict how frequently an individual enacts a given segmentation action during the week. Specifically, it argued that workplace norms would moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of performing a segmentation action such that the preference-frequency relationship would be stronger for those who perceive strong norms for segmentation. To examine this hypothesis, four hierarchical multiple regressions were conducted (see Table 17). Each of the regressions entered the centered variables of norms and preferences in Step 1 and the interaction of these centered variables in Step 2.

While results did not indicate a significant regression model predicting physical distancing from work (GSA4), the remaining three models predicting segmentation actions were significant. One of the models produced a significant main effect, while two produced significant interactions. The model producing a main effect was the prediction of planning leisure (GSA3), with the preference to segment predicting decreases in making plans for leisure activities. The models producing interactions were (a) the prediction of restricting CIT use (GSA1) and (b) the prediction of taking mental breaks (GSA2). To examine these interactions, the simple effects of preferences on restricted CIT use and (separately) taking mental breaks were tested for three values of norms: one standard deviation (SD) below the mean, at the mean, and one SD above the mean. Confidence intervals around the *p*-values for each of the simple effects were also reviewed to substantiate the significance of effects (see Table 18).

Results for the prediction of restricting CIT use (GSA1) indicated an effect of preferences at two levels of norms: one SD above the mean, and at the mean. For both groups, increases in the preference to segment work from one’s personal life predicted significant decreases in restricting CIT use (see Figure 15).

Reviewing the simple effects of preferences on taking mental breaks at varying levels of norms, confidence intervals around each of the unstandardized regression coefficients contained zero. As a result, the moderation was judged unstable and a graphical interpretation of the results was not rendered.

Collectively, results did not provide support for Hypothesis 6a. However, they do suggest that variation in some of an individual's segmentation actions can be understood by examining his or her personal preferences and work environment. First, the preference to segment predicted decreases in the frequency with which individuals made plans for future leisure activities. Second, the preference to segment predicted decreases in the frequency of setting limits on checking for work correspondence among those who worked in environments with average to strong segmentation norms.

Table 17

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Norms and Preferences

GSA1 = Restricting CIT Use						
$F(3, 152) = 3.82$, $MSE = 1.39$, $p = .01$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	.08	.12	.06	-.01	.00	.52
Preferences	-.22	.11	-.16	-.14	.02	.06
STEP 2						
Norms	.18	.13	.12	-.01	.01	.16
Preferences	-.26	.11	-.20	-.14	.04	.02
Norms*Preferences	-.30	.11	-.23	-.18	.05	< .01

GSA2 = Taking Mental Breaks						
$F(3, 152) = 3.26$, $MSE = .82$, $p = .02$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	.12	.09	.11	.12	.01	.19
Preferences	.02	.09	.02	.06	.00	.83
STEP 2						
Norms	.20	.10	.18	.12	.03	.04
Preferences	-.02	.09	-.02	.06	.00	.82
Norms*Preferences	-.22	.08	-.22	-.18	.04	< .01

GSA3 = Planning Leisure Activities						
$F(3, 152) = 3.43$, $MSE = .68$, $p = .02$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	.08	.08	.08	-.02	.01	.32
Preferences	-.25	.08	-.27	-.24	.06	< .01
STEP 2						
Norms	.08	.09	.08	-.02	.00	.34
Preferences	-.25	.08	-.27	-.24	.06	< .01
Norms*Preferences	.00	.08	.00	.04	.00	.96

GSA4 = Physically Distancing from Work						
$F(3, 152) = 1.31$, $MSE = .92$, $p = .28$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	.07	.10	.06	.00	.00	.49
Preferences	-.16	.09	-.15	-.13	.02	.08
STEP 2						
Norms	.09	.10	.08	.00	.00	.37
Preferences	-.17	.09	-.16	-.13	.02	.06
Norms*Preferences	-.08	.09	-.07	-.04	.00	.38

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise n = 156.

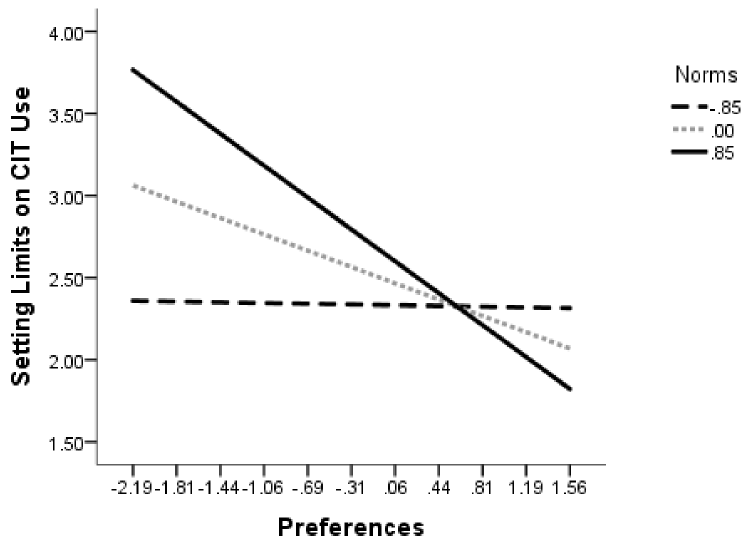

Figure 15. Interaction between Preferences and Norms on Restricting CIT Use

Table 18
Conditional Effects of Preferences on Restricting CIT Use at Values of Norms

	Norms	*b*	*se*	*t*	*p*	*LLCI(b)*	*ULCI(b)*
1 SD Below Mean	-.85	-.01	.13	-.09	.93	-.27	.25
Mean	.00	-.26	.11	-2.67	.02	-.49	-.04
1 SD Above Mean	.85	-.52	.16	-3.33	.00	-.82	-.21

Hypothesis 6b

Hypothesis 6b stated that workplace norms would interact with segmentation preferences to predict the frequency of segmentation responses. Specifically, the hypothesis stated that workplace norms would moderate the relationship between the preference to segment and the frequency of using a segmenting response such that the preference-frequency relationship would be stronger for those who perceive strong norms for segmentation. To examine this hypothesis, four hierarchical multiple regressions were conducted (see Table 19). For each of the regressions, the centered variables of norms and preferences were entered in Step 1 and the interaction of these centered variables was entered in Step 2.

While results did not indicate a significant regression model for the delegation of last-minute work tasks (GSR2), each of the remaining four prediction models explained significant amounts of variance in segmentation responses. Two of the models produced significant main effects. Specifically, norms predicted (1) increases in prioritizing personal responsibilities during simultaneous work and personal emergencies (GSR3), and (2) increases in performing a limited range of work tasks at home (GSR4). Further, the prediction model of scheduling last-minute tasks (GSR1) produced a significant interaction. Displayed in Figure 16, the preference to segment predicted increases in the frequency of scheduling last-minute work tasks among those who reporting working in organizations with weak segmentation norms (see Table 20 for confidence intervals around simple effects).

Together, these results did not provide support for Hypothesis 6b. However, they do provide initial evidence for the important role played by workplace norms in the examination of segmentation responses. Workplace norms predicted increases in the frequency of prioritizing personal responsibilities and choosing to only bring home certain work tasks. Further, the presence of weak segmentation norms drove increases in the frequency of scheduling behaviors among those with the preference to segment.

Table 19

Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Norms and Preferences

GSR1 – Scheduling Last-Minute Work Tasks						
F(3, 128) = 12.87, *MSE* = .76, $p < .01$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	*sr*^{2}	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.42	.11	.34	.38	.10	< .01
Preferences	.12	.10	.11	.22	.01	.20
STEP 2						
Norms	.52	.11	.42	.38	.14	< .01
Preferences	.06	.09	.05	.22	.00	.52
Norms*Preferences	-.34	.09	-.29	-.22	.08	< .01
GSR2 – Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks						
F(3, 128) = 1.33, *MSE* = 1.12, $p = .27$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	*sr*^{2}	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.12	.12	.09	.04	.01	.33
Preferences	-.17	.11	-.14	-.11	.02	.14
STEP 2						
Norms	.08	.13	.06	.04	.00	.52
Preferences	-.14	.11	-.12	-.11	.01	.22
Norms*Preferences	.14	.11	.11	.14	.01	.22
GSR3 – Prioritizing Personal Life during Simultaneous Work & Personal Emergencies						
F(3, 128) = 4.09, *MSE* = .86, $p = .01$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	*sr*^{2}	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.38	.11	.31	.29	.08	< .01
Preferences	-.07	.10	-.07	.03	.00	.45
STEP 2						
Norms	.38	.11	.31	.29	.08	< .01
Preferences	-.08	.10	-.07	.03	.00	.46
Norms*Preferences	-.00	.10	-.00	.07	.00	.98
GSR4 – Performing Limited Range of Work Tasks at Home						
F(3, 128) = 2.93, *MSE* = .91, $p = .04$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	*sr*^{2}	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.31	.11	.25	.24	.06	< .01
Preferences	-.01	.10	-.01	.07	.00	.90
STEP 2						
Norms	.28	.12	.23	.24	.04	.01
Preferences	.00	.10	.00	.07	.00	.99
Norms*Preferences	.08	.10	.07	.11	.00	.46

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise *n* = 132.

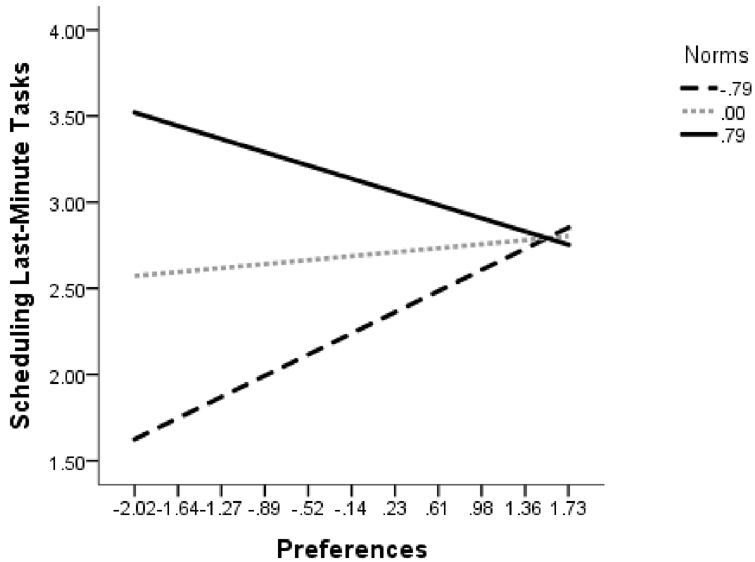

Figure 16. Interaction between Preferences and Norms on Scheduling Last-Minute Tasks

Table 20
Conditional Effects of Preferences on Scheduling Last-Minute Work Tasks at Values of Norms

	Norms	*b*	*se*	*t*	*p*	*LLCI(b)*	*ULCI(b)*
1 SD Below Mean	-.79	.33	.11	3.02	< .01	.11	.54
Mean	.00	.06	.09	.65	.52	-.12	.25
1 SD Above Mean	.79	-.20	.13	-1.58	.12	-.46	.05

Hypothesis 7

Hypothesis 7 stated that self-efficacy and segmentation norms would predict independent amounts of variance in each of the segmentation behaviors. To test this hypothesis, eight multiple hierarchical regressions were conducted. Examining Tables 21 and 22, results indicate that together self-efficacy and norms did not predict any actions. Interestingly, self-efficacy and norms predicted different actions. Self-efficacy predicted increases in restricting CIT use (GSA1) as well as scheduling last-minute work tasks into the next day's schedule (GSR1). Norms predicted the prioritization of personal responsibilities during emergencies (GSR3) and the frequency of performing a limited range of work tasks at home (GSR4). Specifically, the presence of strong norms for segmentation predicted increases in the frequency that individuals prioritized personal roles over work roles during simultaneous emergencies. Further, strong norms also predicted increases in how frequently individuals made the conscious decision to only work on specific types of tasks at home.

Table 21
Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Self-Efficacy and Norms

Item	Model	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
GSA1	$F(2, 153) = 4.83$, $MSE = 1.40$, $p = .01$						
	Self-Efficacy	.28	.09	.30	.20	.06	< .01
	Norms	-.25	.14	-.17	-.01	.02	.07
GSA2	$F(2, 153) = 2.34$, $MSE = .84$, $p = .10$						
	Self-Efficacy	.11	.07	.15	.17	.01	.12
	Norms	.04	.11	.04	.12	.00	.71
GSA3	$F(2, 153) = .46$, $MSE = .72$, $p = .63$						
	Self-Efficacy	-.06	.07	-.09	-.07	.01	.35
	Norms	.04	.10	.04	-.02	.00	.70
GSA4	$F(2, 153) = .29$, $MSE = .94$, $p = .75$						
	Self-Efficacy	-.06	.07	-.08	-.05	.00	.45
	Norms	.05	.11	.05	.00	.00	.65

Note. Listwise $n = 156$.

Table 22
Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Self-Efficacy and Norms

Item	Model	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
GSR1	$F(2, 129) = 24.32$, $MSE = .72$, $p < .01$						
	Self-Efficacy	.36	.07	.45	.52	.13	< .01
	Norms	.13	.12	.10	.38	.01	.27
GSR2	$F(2, 129) = .23$, $MSE = 1.14$, $p = .80$						
	Self-Efficacy	.04	.09	.05	.06	.00	.67
	Norms	.02	.15	.02	.05	.00	.88
GSR3	$F(2, 129) = 6.09$, $MSE = .85$, $p < .01$						
	Self-Efficacy	.05	.08	.07	.22	.00	.53
	Norms	.30	.13	.25	.29	.04	.02
GSR4	$F(2, 129) = 4.14$, $MSE = .91$, $p = .02$						
	Self-Efficacy	.02	.08	.02	.16	.00	.84
	Norms	.29	.13	.23	.25	.04	.03

Note. Listwise $n = 132$.

Hypothesis 8

Hypotheses 8 and 9 were generated in light of pilot study results. Together, they provide a more detailed examination of Hypothesis 3 by separately examining the relationships between (a) general segmentation actions and WTNC, (b) general segmentation responses and WTNC, and (c) segmentation responses to clients and WTNC.

Hypothesis 8 stated that temporal actions and behavioral actions that reflect the use of others and prioritization would be negatively related to WTNC. Specifically, it was expected that the temporal actions (GSA1, GSA2, and GSA3) and behavioral actions that either employ others in the boundary management process (i.e., delegation, GSR2) or reflect prioritization of the personal domain (GSR3) are most likely of all the actions to facilitate decreases in WTNC. To examine this hypothesis, two separate multiple hierarchical regressions were conducted. The first regressed WTNC on each of the general segmentation actions, and the second regressed WTNC on each of the general segmentation responses. Age, psychological demands, number of working hours, and level of education, were each controlled in the first step of both regression models. Justification for these controls stemmed from previous analyses indicating that each significantly affected experiences of WTNC in the current sample.

The results for each of the regression models are presented in Table 23. The first regression predicted 41% of the variance in WTNC ($F(7, 145) = 14.54$, $MSE = .50$, $p < .01$). However, only the control variables of age and psychological demands contributed to the prediction. Similarly, the second regression predicted 35% of the variance in WTNC ($F(6, 136) = 12.40$, $MSE = .54$, $p < .01$), and produced the same two significant predictors: age and psychological demands. Accordingly, Hypothesis 8 was not supported.

Table 23

Predicting Work-to-Nonwork Conflict from General Segmentation Actions and General Segmentation Responses

Predictors	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
General Segmentation Actions						
STEP 1						
Age	-.03	.01	-.31	-.39	.08	< .01
Psychological Demands	.88	.15	.42	.48	.15	< .01
Hours Worked	-.11	.13	-.06	-.30	.00	.40
Education Level	.10	.05	.14	.38	.02	.05
STEP 2						
Age	-.03	.01	-.26	-.39	.04	< .01
Psychological Demands	.82	.15	.39	.48	.12	< .01
Hours Worked	-.11	.13	-.06	-.30	.00	.40
Education Level	.07	.06	.09	.38	.00	.24
GSA1	.11	.07	.15	.41	.01	.09
GSA2	-.06	.08	-.06	.22	.00	.40
GSA3	.10	.08	.09	.32	.01	.23
General Segmentation Responses						
STEP 1						
Age	-.03	.01	-.31	-.40	.08	< .01
Psychological Demands	.76	.16	.36	.42	.11	< .01
Hours Worked	-.14	.13	-.08	-.27	.00	.31
Education Level	.11	.07	.14	.40	.01	.09
STEP 2						
Age	-.03	.01	-.29	-.40	.06	< .01
Psychological Demands	.74	.16	.35	.42	.10	< .01
Hours Worked	-.11	.14	-.06	-.27	.00	.45
Education Level	.10	.07	.13	.40	.01	.13
GSR2	.06	.06	.08	.32	.00	.35
GSR3	-.01	.07	-.01	.13	.00	.94

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action. GSR = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for GSA and GSR items. Model 1 *n* = 153. Model 2 *n* = 143.

Hypothesis 9

Hypothesis 9 stated that behavioral responses to clients that reflect strict temporal boundaries around one's personal time would be negatively related to WTNC. Two examine this hypothesis, a hierarchical multiple regression was conducted (see Table 24). Controlling for age, psychological demands, hours worked, and level of education, results revealed a significant regression model ($F(9,112) = 13.87$, $MSE = .33$, $p < .01$) that explained 49% of the variance in WTNC. Beyond the controls, waiting to respond to a client's voicemail until one's normal working hours (VMR2_CL) and waiting to respond to a client's email until one's normal working hours (ER2_CL) each predicted increases in WTNC. However, as these effects were not in the hypothesized direction, Hypothesis 9 was not supported.

Table 24

Predicting Work-to-Nonwork Conflict from Segmentation Behaviors with a Client

Model	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Age	-.03	.01	-.28	-.30	.07	< .01
Psychological Demands	.85	.16	.42	.46	.16	< .01
Hours Worked	-.11	.13	-.07	-.26	.00	.41
Education Level	.15	.07	.17	.31	.03	.04
STEP 2						
Age	-.02	.01	-.21	-.30	.04	< .01
Psychological Demands	.83	.14	.41	.46	.14	< .01
Hours Worked	-.05	.11	-.03	-.26	.00	.66
Education Level	.12	.06	.13	.31	.01	.07
GSR_CL	-.07	.08	-.07	.14	.00	.37
VMR1_CL	.13	.07	.14	.15	.02	.05
VMR2_CL	.15	.06	.21	.43	.03	.01
ER1_CL	.09	.07	.09	.18	.01	.23
ER2_CL	.19	.07	.25	.47	.04	< .01

Note. GSR_CL = General Segmentation Response to Client. VMR_CL = Voicemail Response to Client. ER_CL = Email Response to Client. See Table 7 for CL Items. Sample *n* = 122.

Research Question

A research question posed for the study was, ‘does the usage of one or more segmentation actions affect the correspondence between job demands and perceptions of WTNC?’ To examine this question, two-tailed Pearson correlations were first reviewed to assess how each of the four types of job demands (i.e., psychological, mental, emotional, and physical) related to WTNC. These correlations were examined both for the full sample as well as between those in white-collar and blue-collar jobs. Examining Tables J19-J21 in the Appendix, psychological and emotional demands were each positively related to WTNC for workers in both job-types, while physical demands were only associated with WTNC for those in blue-collar jobs.

Multiple hierarchical regressions were next conducted to see if each of the demands predicted unique amounts of variance in WTNC. For the full sample, results revealed a significant regression model explaining 30% of the variance in WTNC. Examining Table 25, WTNC was predicted by increases in psychological and emotional demands and decreases in physical demands.

Further insight into these relationships was then gleaned from running separate regressions for those in white-collar and blue-collar jobs. Among white-collar participants, job demands explained 27% of the variance in WTNC and the pattern of relationships was consistent with the results of the full sample. However, for blue-collar participants, only psychological demands and emotional demands predicted increases in WTNC (in a regression model explaining 34% of the variance in WTNC).

Table 25
Predicting Work-to-Nonwork Conflict from Job Demands

Full Sample (n = 160)						
Model	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
$F(4, 155) = 16.46$, $MSE = .61$, $p < .01$						
Psychological Demands	.98	.20	.46	.47	.10	< .01
Mental Demands	-.05	.11	-.03	.07	.00	.67
Emotional Demands	.56	.15	.35	.43	.06	< .01
Physical Demands	-.42	.13	-.31	.21	.04	< .01
White-Collar Sample (n = 81)						
Model	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
$F(4, 76) = 7.00$, $MSE = .66$, $p < .01$						
Psychological Demands	.84	.29	.41	.39	.08	< .01
Mental Demands	-.03	.18	-.02	.02	.00	.87
Emotional Demands	.66	.22	.40	.40	.08	< .01
Physical Demands	-.52	.19	-.39	.13	.07	< .01
Blue-Collar Sample (n = 79)						
Model	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
$F(4, 74) = 9.67$, $MSE = .56$, $p < .01$						
Psychological Demands	1.11	.30	.51	.55	.13	< .01
Mental Demands	-.07	.15	-.04	.09	.00	.67
Emotional Demands	.44	.21	.29	.47	.04	.04
Physical Demands	-.31	.19	-.21	.30	.02	.12

As the pattern of relationships between demands and WTNC changed according to job type, subsequent analyses were conducted separately for those in white-collar and blue-collar jobs. For the white-collar sample, analyses were conducted to see if any of the

GSAs interacted with psychological, emotional, or physical demands, to predict WTNC. For the blue-collar sample, analyses were conducted to see if any of the GSAs interacted with psychological or emotional demands to predict WTNC.

Analyses with White-Collar Participants: For each analysis, WTNC was regressed on (1) job demands (either psychological, emotional, or physical) and each of the segmentation actions in the first step, and (2) the interaction of job demands and each of the segmentation actions in the second step. While all of the models explained significant amounts of variance in WTNC, the only significant predictors were psychological and emotional demands. Specifically, psychological demands explained 4% of the variance in WTNC ($\beta = .24$, $p = .04$; $F(9, 69) = 3.94$, $MSE = .64$, $p < .01$) and emotional demands explained 4% of the variance in WTNC ($\beta = .25$, $p = .04$; $F(9, 69) = 3.11$, $MSE = .69$, $p < .01$). Although the overall model predicting WTNC from physical demands and actions was significant ($F(9, 69) = 2.51$, $MSE = .73$, $p = .02$), none of the variables were independently significant predictors.

Analyses with Blue-Collar Participants: Mirroring the analyses using white-collar workers, WTNC was regressed on (1) job demands (either psychological or emotional) and each of the segmentation actions in the first step, and (2) the interaction of job demands and each of the segmentation actions in the second step. The model predicting WTNC from psychological demands and general segmentation actions was significant ($F(9, 67) = 7.65$, $MSE = .45$, $p < .01$). However, psychological demands ($\beta = .44$, $p < .01$) and restricting CIT use (GSA1; $\beta = .47$, $p < .01$) were the only significant predictors—explaining 16% and 14% of the variance in WTNC, respectively. Similarly, the model predicting WTNC from emotional demands was significant ($F(9, 66) = 5.33$, *MSE* = .53, $p < .01$), with emotional demands ($\beta = .34$, $p = .01$) and restriction of CIT use ($\beta = .42$, $p < .01$) indicated as the only significant predictors. Each of these explained 6% and 11% of the variance in WTNC, respectively.

Post-Hoc Analyses

Additional analyses were conducted to see if those who reported working in environments with strong or weak norms for segmentation experienced significantly different levels of WTNC or used segmentation behaviors to different degrees. To answer these questions, first a median split was performed on norms to produce a high and low group of respondents. Next, a one-way univariate analysis of variance was conducted with WTNC as the criterion variable. Results indicated a significant model. $F(1, 159) = 7.79$, $p = .01$. Individuals who reported working in environments with low norms for segmentation indicated significantly greater amounts of conflict between their work and personal lives ($M = 3.11$, $SD = .67$, *CI*: +2.97/+3.26) than those who reported working in environments with strong norms for segmentation ($M = 2.72$, $SD = 1.11$, *CI*: 2.46/+2.98).

CHAPTER 10

GENERAL DISCUSSION

The primary purpose of this study was to (1) construct a measure of WTNW segmentation behaviors, (2) to examine the relationship between these segmentation behaviors and WTNC, and (3) to examine the role of individual difference factors (i.e., self-efficacy) and contextual factors (i.e., work place norms) on the use of segmentation behaviors. To assess these objectives, I first conducted a pilot study to generate specific behavioral indictors of segmentation. These indicators included *actions* that individuals take throughout a work week to segment their work from their non-work domains, *responses* to specific segmentation opportunities, the role of *work targets* (i.e., supervisor, co-worker, client) and *communication technologies* (i.e., email, text, phone call) in these segmentation behaviors. Next, in a second study I examined the relationships between these behavioral indicators of segmentation, WTNC, self-efficacy, and workplace norms.

This chapter is organized in the following way: first I will discuss contributions of the pilot study. Next, I focus on the results and associated interpretations of primary study's hypotheses. In this section,   I first discuss hypotheses with partial support and then focus on hypotheses that were not supported. Finally, I discuss the unanticipated and interesting findings that emerged from hypothesis testing, as well as the results of the study's research question.

Pilot Study

A pilot study was conducted to identify, assess, and refine a range of unique behaviors that individuals may use to segment their work domains from their personal lives. An understanding of the actual actions/behaviors that individuals use to effectively segment work and nonwork enhances our understanding of the segmentation construct. Past research has largely focused on the implications of individuals segmentation preferences (e.g. Kirchmeyer, 1995; Chen, Powell, & Greenhaus, 2009; Edwards & Rothbard, 1999) without including the variety of ways in which individuals may enact segmentation. Accordingly, upon reviewing the extant literature on boundary management—and conceptually grounding the behaviors within the boundary work dimensions offered by Kreiner, Hollensbe, and Sheep (2009)—a variety of behaviors were generated and subjected to a multi-stage peer review process prior to being examined in a snowball sample of 101 workers.

The behaviors assessed in this study were associated with four conceptual categories that reflected distinct approaches to measuring segmentation, and provided unique information on how individuals separate their work and personal domains. Collectively, these actions provide a comprehensive picture of how individuals enact segmentation under a variety of conditions. Specifically, these categories cover not only the actions individuals take throughout the workweek to segment their domains, but also the responses individuals have to circumstances that may elicit segmentation and the responses individuals have to such circumstances elicited by specific people in their workplace.

The first of the four categories—General Segmentation Actions (GSAs) —reflects behaviors that individuals may use during their personal time to keep work responsibilities from entering their personal space (e.g., restricting CIT use during nonwork hours). These actions were grouped into one conceptual dimension because they may theoretically be performed as frequently or as infrequently as a person desires, as opposed to some other behaviors that require specific environmental conditions. For example, the behaviors falling within the General Segmentation Responses (GSRs – a second conceptual category of behaviors) dimension cannot be performed independently of specific opportunities (i.e., a given General Segmentation Opportunity, GSO). Rather, an individual can only enact a GSR (e.g., scheduling a last-minute work task) when it is elicited by a specific GSO (e.g., an important work task arising late in the work day). Thus, the frequency with which a person uses a GSR throughout his or her workweek is dependent upon the opportunities he or she is given. Accordingly, GSAs and GSRs provide unique information on how a person may enact segmentation.

Further, I assessed the segmentation behaviors that individuals may use with unique targets (i.e., supervisors, clients, and colleagues – a third conceptual category of items). Distinct from *general* segmentation responses, these *target-based* responses provided yet another lens through which segmentation may be examined, as they allow for a researcher to consider the influence of specific work targets on how individuals behave to keep work demands out of their personal domains. Additionally, the influence of CIT devices was also considered in combination with the influence of targets — providing the fourth and final conceptual category of items. Together, measuring the general and CIT-related responses that individuals use with work targets provides researchers additional information on how segmentation is enacted.

Three primary conclusions can be drawn from the results of the pilot study. First, as responses to each of the segmentation actions and responses were normally distributed, results suggest variation in the use of segmentation behaviors. This is in line with past research indicating that individuals vary in their desire to keep work and nonwork domains separated (Ashforth, Kreiner, Fugate, 2000; Kossek, Noe, & deMarr, 1999). Second, results indicated that *how* an individual responds to unique opportunities to segment is unrelated to the *frequency* with which such opportunities arise. These results do not rule out the possibility that other workplace factors (e.g., workplace norms) may affect individuals' use of segmentation. However, they do suggest that the unique opportunities for segmentation that occur across different work environments do not explain variation in individuals' segmentation responses. Finally, results also indicated that individuals segment more from clients than from supervisors (by waiting to respond to client emails and voicemails until standard work hours). Combined with results indicating that clients are more likely than supervisors to request the completion of a work task during personal hours, the unique degrees of segmentation used with work targets suggests that workers feel more confident enacting segmentation with targets who are external to their organizations. These findings have implications for both organizations seeking to better the work-life balance of their employees and for consultants leading work-life coaching engagements. For each, results suggest that clarifying the nature of the relationship between an employee and a target, and especially the shared expectations employees and targets have regarding work and personal boundaries, is a vital first step to building effective boundary management strategies for individual employees.

Interpretation of Results for Supported Hypotheses

The Outcomes of WTNC

The first set of relationships examined focused on replicating the relationships between work-to-nonwork conflict (WTNC), physical health, job attitudes (i.e., job satisfaction and organizational commitment) and citizenship performance. Full support was found for this hypothesis, such that, over and beyond job involvement, WTNC was associated with physical health, job satisfaction, organizational commitment, and citizenship behaviors. These findings add further support to the existing literature on such relationships. Work-nonwork conflict refers to the conflict that arises from work and personal demands being incompatible in some respect, such that meeting the demands of one role hinders meeting the demands of another (Greenhaus & Beutell, 1985) thereby inducing stress (Frone, 2000; Grzywacz & Bass, 2003, Thomas & Ganster, 1995). A wealth of empirical studies substantiates this assertion. Further, individuals make attributions for the source of the conflict they experience between work and personal demands, such that the workplace is blamed when work demands interfere with one's personal life. These attributions substantiate meta-analytic reporting substantial negative correlations between WTNC, job satisfaction, and organizational commitment (Allen et al., 2000). Finally, research indicates that those who report high job involvement tend to also report strong WTNC (Duxbury & Higgins, 1991; Frone et al., 1992a; Kossek & Ozeki, 1999). Results of the current study provide further evidence that although the association between involvement and conflict may produce positive associations between conflict, job attitudes, and performance, there is still a predominantly negative association among these constructs.

The Relationship between Preferences and Segmentation Behaviors

A second set of relationships examined focused on the associations between individuals' preferences for segmentation and their segmentation behaviors (both their GSAs and GSRs). Results partially supported the notion that individual preferences to segment would be positively associated with each of the GSRs, as those who tended to prefer keeping work out of their personal domain also tended to respond to last minute work tasks by scheduling the tasks for the following work day (GSR1). Examining each of the segmentation opportunities and potential segmentation responses, a possible explanation for GSR1 being the only response significantly related to preferences is the likelihood of an individual having relatively greater control over their response to last-minute work tasks – in comparison to the amount of control an individual is likely to have over being able to delegate work (GSR2), prioritize personal agendas over work responsibilities (GSR3), and limit the work elements they bring home with them (GSR4).

Regarding the segmentation opportunity of last-minute work tasks, individuals generally have more flexibility to schedule such tasks for the following day than to delegate, as the nature of the work may not allow for another colleague to handle the specific work task. In other words, delegation might not be as viable a segmentation response for some positions and workplaces, while scheduling is a more generalizable strategy across positions and workplaces. Similarly, individuals may also have less control over their responses to emergencies (GSR3) and what they bring home work them (GSR4) compared to the control they have over last-minute tasks.

Indeed, analyses conducted to test the relationships between workplace norms and segmentation behaviors indicated that GSR3 and GSR4 were positively associated with workplace norms. Thus, those who perceived that their workplaces supported segmentation tended to also (a) prioritize their personal responsibilities when simultaneous work and personal emergencies arose and (b) limit the work elements they bring home with them at the end of the workday. This suggests that contextual factors drive individuals' responses to emergencies and bringing work home more so than their preferences.

These findings expand upon current understanding of boundary work, as while research suggests that the alignment between individuals' preferences and organizational practices is important for predicting well-being (Edwards & Rothbard, 1999), WTNC (Chen et al., 2009) and job attitudes (Kirchmeyer, 1995; Rothbard et al., 2005), past research has not investigated the interaction of preferences and workplace factors on the enactment of specific behaviors. For organizations seeking to improve worker perceptions of work-life balance, results of the current study suggest that by modifying the workplace policies and supervisory practices that focus on personal emergency situations and non-standard working hours, organizations can affect the degree to which workers enact their segmentation preferences. As this ultimately improves the alignment between an individual's preferences and his or her work environment, the aforementioned past research suggests such changes should result in positive employee outcomes.

Study results did not support the notion that individual preferences to segment would be positively associated with specific segmentation actions (GSAs). Rather, correlations between preferences and three of the four GSAs were negative. One possible explanation for these findings is that individuals who prefer to segment may have self-selected in to jobs that facilitate the separation of one's work and personal domains. Accordingly, these workers may have less of a need to set limits on checking for work correspondence (GSA1), take mental breaks from work (GSA2), plan for future leisure (GSA3), or physically distance themselves from work (GSA4). Future research can provide further insight into this explanation by examining the relationship between preferences and segmentation behaviors between those who work in jobs with highly dissimilar norms for segmentation, such as doctors who are on-call and nurses who work in shifts.

Interpretation of Results for Unsupported Hypotheses

The Outcomes of WTNE

Work-to-nonwork enrichment (WTNE) reflects the perception that the resources one obtains from work (e.g., psychological assets, social capital, and/or behaviors and skills) enhances one's ability to perform personal roles. In the current study, WNTE was examined with a third set of proposed relationships that focused on the theoretical associations between WTNE, physical health, job attitudes (i.e., job satisfaction and organizational commitment) and citizenship performance. No support was found for these relationships, as WTNE did not relate to any of the hypothesized outcomes once job involvement was controlled for in the analyses.

A possible explanation for the lack of relationship found between WNTE and job attitudes is that the degree to which an individual is satisfied with his or her job or committed to his or her organization is to a large extent influenced by personal identification with the job (i.e., job involvement). If one's job is highly salient to one's identity, a person is likely be satisfied at work and exhibit organization commitment — regardless of the extent to which the person perceives that work positively affects his or her personal life. Thus, beyond the effects of job involvement, there is not much room for other possible work-related resources (e.g., resources that aid a person in performing personal roles) to contribute to variation in job attitudes.

It should, however, also be noted that in the current study WTNE was positively related to organizational commitment at the $p < .05$ level. Although not considered significant for the current study's purposes (because a stringent p value of $< .01$ was used as a result of Bonferroni corrections), these results do suggest that at least some variation in commitment may be explained by WTNE independently from job involvement. A possible explanation for WTNE positively relating to organizational commitment but not to job satisfaction is offered by reviewing the social exchange theory (Blau, 1964; Homans, 1958) and comparing the constructs of job satisfaction and organizational commitment. The social exchange theory suggests that individuals who feel supported by their organizations—for example, by perceiving that resources obtained from work positively affect their personal lives (i.e., by perceiving WTNE)—tend to reciprocate their organization's behavior through their attitudes and performance. Whereas job satisfaction reflects an individual's feelings about her or her job, affective organizational commitment reflects how strongly a person identifies with organizational goals and wants to remain an employee. Considering these definitions, commitment is the attitude that better reflects reciprocation of organizational support; an individual who feels supported by his or her organization is better able to reciprocate support through commitment behaviors than through positive feelings about his or her job.

Theory and empirical research on WTNE also suggest that enrichment has positive effects for worker well-being. Specifically, enrichment theories suggest that holding multiple meaningful roles facilitates the transfer of resources and ultimately benefits psychological well-being (Greenhaus & Powell, 2006). Empirical research has also found that WTNE reduces psychological strain (e.g., depressive symptoms, Hammer, Cullen, Neal, Sinclair, & Shafiro, 2005; psychological distress, Haar & Bardoel, 2008). However, a negative relationship between WTNE and physical health symptoms was not found in the present study. A possible explanation is that while enrichment may compensate for conflict in some way by providing buffers and supports across multiple roles (Sieber, 1974), such resources only affect psychological indicators of well-being (e.g., depression, distress), rather than behavioral indicators (e.g., substance dependence) or physical indicators (e.g., diagnosed conditions). Indeed, past research examining the health consequences of WTNE has predominantly examined psychological indicators of stress (e.g., depression, distress). As the current study assessed somatic health symptoms (an index of physical strain), the lack of relationship between WTNE and such symptoms may indicate a combination the distal relationship between WTNE and psychological health indicators and the cross-sectional nature of this data.

Further, while little research to date has examined the direct effect of WTNE on performance constructs, the job demands and resources framework suggests that WTNE may be viewed as a resource that facilitates performance (JD-R, Voydanoff, 2004, 2005a, 2005b, 2005c; Friedman & Greenhaus, 2000). The framework posits that support systems at work can be perceived as resources for increasing the efficiency and functioning of employees. Such resources can play motivational roles, ultimately leading to stronger work engagement, lower cynicism, and better work performance (Bakker & Demerouti, 2007). Thus, as individuals reporting WTNE are by definition benefiting from work resources (by utilizing them in their personal domain), the JD-R framework indicates that WNTE should facilitate better work performance. Further, social exchange theory (Blau, 1964) and perceived organizational support theory (Eisenberger et al., 1986) suggest that feeling supported by one's organization promotes employee participation and initiative through a felt obligation to give extra effort in return for the resources received (Lambert, 2000). As research indicates that individuals attribute the experience of WTNE to the work domain (Wayne et al., 2004), suggesting that those who report WTNE are indeed accessing work-based resources, WNTE is poised to drive citizenship behaviors. Indeed, Baral & Bhargava (2009) found that WTNE mediated the positive relationship between the presence of work-life benefits and polices and the performance of citizenship behaviors. Unfortunately, enrichment was not positively associated with either interpersonally-oriented or organizationally-oriented citizenship behaviors in the current study. Thus, despite the strong theoretical support for the associations between enrichment and citizenship performance and the preliminary evidence provided by Baral & Bhargava, results speak to the need for future research to examine the possible boundary characteristics of these relationships. The effect of enrichment on citizenship performance may be qualified by the attributions individuals make for their enrichment experiences. For example, perhaps there is a positive relationship between WNTE and citizenship performance for those who believe their supervisor(s) and/or colleagues provide the source of their enrichment, and a negative relationship between WTNE and citizenship performance for those who believe their work tasks provide the source of their enrichment.

Segmentation Behaviors and WTNC

A fourth set of relationships examined in the study included the associations between unique segmentation behaviors and the experience of work-to-nonwork conflict (WTNC). Results did not indicate that WTNC was negatively related to the frequency of using general segmentation actions throughout the work week or to the frequency of responding to segmentation opportunities with segmenting responses. Rather, the initial results of correlation analyses indicated that each of the general segmentation actions (GSAs) was positively related to the experience of WTNC. A possible explanation for the direction of these findings is that it captures the tendency of those experiencing conflict to react by using segmentation behaviors. This contrasts with the current study's conceptual model of these relationships, which theoretically places WTNC as an antecedent to segmentation. Further, additional analyses indicated that neither general actions (GSAs) nor responses (GSRs) were related to conflict once the established antecedents of conflict (i.e., age, education, number of hours worked, and psychological job demands) were considered in the analysis. These findings suggest that individuals may use segmentation behaviors as a means to cope with the conflict that arises from experiencing an overwhelming work pace and/or heavy workload (both characteristic of psychological job demands).

Additionally, for two segmentation behaviors in particular, the positive relationship indicated between segmentation and WTNC may reflect contamination in the segmentation items. The first of these behaviors is the tendency to restrict CIT use during one's personal time, and the second is the tendency to limit the types of work tasks one performs from home. Regarding the first behavior, although individuals may be limiting how frequently they access work through their mobile devices, such limiting may nonetheless also generally reflect the tendency to check in with work remotely (e.g., by checking work email or voicemail). Similarly, regarding the second behavior, although individuals may be limiting the range of tasks they chose to perform at home, such limiting may generally reflect the tendency to work in a variety of settings. Furthermore, the current study did not consider the motivations for why individuals might bring their mobile devices or certain work tasks home with them. To elaborate, the current study did not differentiate between the use of mobile devices that are used for specific purposes (i.e., devices used solely for work versus devices used for both work and personal use). Similarly, the current study did not question individuals on whether they limited the performance of work tasks at home because they personally wanted to keep certain tasks out of their home environment, or because the nature of their work did not allow for them to bring certain work tasks home. Future research might consider the use of multiple items regarding (a) CIT use, to better delineate the implications of bringing home devices that have dual-purposes and bringing home devices that are solely used for work, and (b) the mobility of work tasks, to better understand the implications of volitionally limiting work tasks at home and being forced to do so by one's job.

Regarding the relationship between WTNC and segmentation from clients, results did not indicate that responding to clients with segmentation behaviors was negatively associated with conflict. Rather, waiting to respond to client emails and voicemails until one's standard work hours was positively associated with conflict. Thus, as with the unforeseen positive associations between general segmentation actions and conflict, these results too indicate that those who perceive high levels of conflict between their work and personal domains tend to respond to such conflict by segmenting themselves from clients during their personal time. Further, even after controlling for the significant effects of age and psychological demands on conflict, segmenting from clients was still positively related to the experience of conflict. Thus, clients may impose a set of demands on individuals that are unique from other job pressures and require additional efforts to control.

Relationships between Preferences, Self-Efficacy, Norms and Segmentation

A fifth set of relationships investigated in the current study included the assessment of how segmentation preferences might (a) interact with individual differences to affect usage of segmentation behaviors, and (b) interact with contextual factors to affect usage of segmentation behaviors. While research on boundary management has thoroughly explored the role of individuals' segmentation preferences and workplace climates on experiencing WTNC, it has with few exceptions overlooked how individual differences and contextual factors are related to the actual behaviors individuals perform to enact their preferred boundary strategy. Thus, to advance extant knowledge of these behaviors, the current study sought to empirically examine how segmentation actions and responses are affected by individuals' preferences, self-efficacy for managing the work-nonwork boundary, and perceptions of workplace norms.

Preferences and Self-Efficacy

Self-efficacy refers to an individual's perception that he or she can be successful in a given situation (Bandura, 1977). Research indicates that those who have high self-efficacy for performing a given behavior are more likely to actually perform the behavior when provided the opportunity – for example, to adopt parental roles (Ardelt & Eccles, 2001) or effectively navigate a marital relationship (Fincham et al., 2000). It was hypothesized in the current study that the preference to segment would be positively associated with (a) the frequency of enacting a specific segmentation behavior during the work week, and (b) the frequency of responding to a given opportunity with a segmentation response —and that these positive associations would be stronger for those high on self-efficacy. While this hypothesis was not supported by the data, results did indicate that preferences and self-efficacy do indeed interact to affect how frequently individuals enact certain segmentation behaviors.

First, preferences and self-efficacy interacted to affect how frequently individuals made plans for leisure activities, such that the preference to segment was negatively related to the frequency of making plans for leisure activities among those reporting low levels of self-efficacy for what?. Second, preferences and self-efficacy interacted to affect how frequently individuals delegated last minute work tasks, such that the preference to segment was negatively related to delegation among those reporting low self-efficacy. The negative associations found in both sets of relationships indicates self-selection of individuals into workplaces that provide their preferred level of segmentation. By working in environments that support segmentation, these individuals do not need to proactively segment by planning leisure activities or by delegating. However, given that these negative associations were only found for those reporting low levels of self-efficacy, indicates that feeling incapable of controlling one's boundaries is an important component to planning leisure and delegating, no matter the how supportive one's organization is for segmentation. With the speed with which technology is advancing and embedding itself in everyday organizational communications, these results provide further rationale for scholars to examine how organizations can better facilitate workers' self-efficacy for managing technological intrusions in their personal environments.

Preferences and Norms

Norms (or "normative standards") refer to the explicit or implicit standards that govern behavior (Jex, 2002). Organizational norms affect worker functioning by prescribing the expectations to which individuals should meet. Individuals who perceive that their work environments support segmentation efforts should be more likely than those without such perceptions to feel allowed to enact segmentation behaviors. Accordingly, it was hypothesized in the current study that the preference to segment would be positively associated with (a) the frequency of enacting a specific segmentation behavior during the work week, and (b) the frequency of responding to a given opportunity with a segmentation response —and that these positive associations would be significantly stronger for those reporting strong workplace norms for segmentation. These propositions were not supported by the data. A possible explanation is that individuals who prefer to keep their work out of their personal domain self-select into organizations or occupations that provide their preferred level of segmentation. By doing do, these individuals have less of a need to enact segmentation behaviors.

Interestingly, however, results did indicate that preferences and norms interacted to affect specific segmentation behaviors. First, the preference to segment interacted with workplace norms to affect the frequency with which individuals restricted CIT use (GSA1), such that the relationship between preferences and restricting CIT use was negative for those reporting average or strong segmentation norms. Second, the preference to segment interacted with workplace norms to affect how frequently individuals scheduled last-minute tasks for the following workday (GSR1), such that the relationship between preferences and scheduling was positive among those reporting weak segmentation norms. These results suggest that in regards to CIT restriction and scheduling, the norms or standards of one’s workplace might elicit compensatory behaviors from an individual, as opposed to congruent behaviors. To elaborate, individuals who desire segmentation and work environments that support segmentation do not feel the need to restrict CIT use because their workplace discourages excessive CIT-based contact with individuals after standard work hours. Thus, the infrequency of an individual's restriction of CIT use is compensated for by a workplace that strongly supports segmentation. Placing the compensatory argument in the context of the second interaction, individuals working in organizations with weak norms for segmentation feel the need to compensate by enacting scheduling behaviors.

Self-Efficacy and Norms

A sixth set of analyses focused on the collective effects of self-efficacy and norms on segmentation behaviors — independently of individuals' preferences for segmentation. These analyses were conducted to examine whether an individual's confidence in his or her ability to manage the work-nonwork boundary matters more than one's perception of the norms of their workplace for performing unique segmentation behaviors. Results did not support the notion that self-efficacy and segmentation norms would each explain *why* individuals perform unique segmentation behaviors. This may be due to the fact that individuals' sense of self-efficacy regarding work-nonwork boundary management is to an extent influenced by the perceptions they have about how supportive their work environment is of employees' personal lives. For example, people may feel more confident in being able to manage their work and personal obligations when they have strong role models to emulate from their workplace, or when they can learn vicariously through coworkers about how to best handle conflicting work and personal situations.

Interestingly, however, self-efficacy and norms for segmenting predicted unique types of behaviors. Individuals who felt capable of segmenting work from their personal domain restricted CIT use (GSA1) more and responded to last minute work-tasks by scheduling (GSR1) them for another day. Perception of norms that facilitate segmentation behaviors was related to higher likelihood of f prioritizing personal responsibilities during emergencies (GSR3) and deciding to only bring home specific work tasks at the end of the day (GSR4). Thus, efficacy, an individual difference factor, is related to actions that seem to be more in control of the individual such as should I or should I not respond to a work related e-mail. Whereas actions that can have implications for others in the work environment such as if I prioritize taking my child to the hospital my colleagues will not get affected because everyone in this environment does that periodically have a more normative influence because I will not be able to prioritize personal responsibilities if the environment does not facilitate it.

Research Question: Job Demands and Segmentation Behaviors

Job demands refer to the physical, social, or organizational aspects of a job that require some form of sustained effort and are therefore associated with specific physiological and psychological costs (Demerouti, Bakker, Nachreiner, & Schaufeli 2001). Demands ultimately drain a worker's resources by invoking a health impairment process. A plethora of prior research has established that psychological demands such as long work hours (Frone et al., 1997; Grzywacz & Goodman & Crouter, 2009 Marks, 2000; Gutek et al, 1991) and work pressure (Goodman & Crouter, 2009) drive increases in work-nonwork conflict. Studies have also indicated that emotional demands (Montgomery et al., 2005, 2006), and cognitive demands (Van Yperen and Hagedoornb (2003) are positively associated with WTNC; and few research efforts have examined the effects of physical demands (Hammig, Knecht, Laubli, & Bauer (2011). Thus, additional objectives for the current study included, first, assessing how unique job demands may relate to experiences of conflict, and second, assessing how the performance of segmentation might qualify these relationships. Research on psychological detachment (Etzion, Eden, & Lapidot, 1998) suggests that those who can effectively stop thinking about work during their personal time are able to replenish their lost resources (Demerouti, Bakker, Geurts, & Taris, 2009; Sonnentag & Fritz, 2007) and ultimately may experience better mood, less negative affect and fatigue, and fewer sleep disturbances at home (Cropley et al., 2006; Sonnentag & Bayer, 2005; Sonnentag, Binnewies, & Mojza, 2008). Segmentation actions and responses that facilitate detachment should therefore provide a buffer against the resource loss than accompanies demands. However, given that individuals lose distinct types of resources from different job demands, it may be that the psychological detachment enabled by segmentation is better suited to buffer against specific types of resource loss. For example, detaching from work may allow for the replenishment of lost mental or emotional resources (brought on by strong psychological, mental, or emotional job demands), but may not allow for the replenishment of lost physical resources (brought on by strong physical work demands).

Results of exploratory analyses did not indicate that segmentation behaviors significantly affected the relationship between job demands and experiences of WTNC. However, restricting CIT use (GSA1) did explain significance variance in the WTNC of blue-collar workers, beyond the effects of psychological or emotional demands. These results suggest that being in constant connection with work through CIT devices is more burdensome for blue-collar workers than it is for white-collar workers. A possible explanation is the comparatively greater incorporation of CIT-based communication in the day-to-day tasks of those in white-collar positions, which may decrease the extent to which being contacted through these devices is perceived by these workers as intrusive.

Theoretical Implications and Future Research Directions

The primary purpose of this study was to identify specific actions that individuals enact to segment work from nonwork. Further I explored the relationship between the frequency of enactment of segmentation oriented activities and levels of work-to-nonwork conflict (WTNC). Some actions that individuals use to keep work away from their personal domains are setting limits on CIT use during personal time, scheduling last-minute work tasks, and prioritizing personal responsibilities during work and personal emergencies. Interestingly, the more frequently individuals segmented throughout the workweek by enacting specific action especially with their clients, the more conflict they experienced. Thus, I captured the relationship between actions and conflict but not the expected direction. The experience of conflict leads individuals to behave in specific segmenting ways. Given the cross-sectional survey design of the current study, a possible explanation is that these results are capturing the tendency of individuals experiencing WTNC to react to such conflict by performing segmentation behaviors. To provide accurate insight into the direction of effects between segmentation and behaviors, two avenues for future research are suggested.

One direction for research is examining the day-to-day use of segmentation behaviors and perceptions of conflict through diary studies (Experience Sampling Method; Hektner, Schmidt, & Csikszentmihalyi, 2006). By capturing the timing of individuals' segmentation behaviors and their relationship with conflict experiences, a diary design would for the examination of whether individuals routinely enact segmentation as a reflection of their own preferences, or whether individuals enact segmentation as a response to conflict. Further, the use of diaries would also allow researchers to gather qualitative information from respondents on why they are using specific segmentation behaviors. This might provide additional insight into which segmentation behaviors are perhaps more or less likely to reflect an individual's preferences or an individual's perceptions of conflict.

A second direction for future research is examining whether segmentation behaviors might reduce experiences of work-to-nonwork conflict over time. Studies could be conducted to compare the effects of traditional coaching sessions on work-life balance to those that include instruction on various segmentation behaviors. Further, by working with clients to ascertain the variety of sources of potential conflict (e.g., supervisors, clients), coaches could include within their interventions more tailored strategies to fit unique worker circumstances.

Practical Implications

One practical implication of this study is that it provides multiple instruments for assessing segmentation behaviors that practitioners can use to guide coaching and development efforts. All workers have roles and responsibilities outside of the workplace that at some point provide the potential for conflict with work. Individuals have a variety of choices to make when deciding how to balance these competing obligations. Being able to effectively measure the spectrum of behaviors individuals use to keep their work and personal domains from colliding is a necessary first step to understanding which behaviors are most and least effective for specific people, jobs, and organizational environments.

Another practical implication of the study is that it provides initial evidence that individual differences and contextual factors affect the propensity of individuals to engage in segmentation. Enacting segmentation is more than a result of an individual's preference to keep work out of their personal domain. To perform some segmentation behaviors, an individual must perceive that he or she has control over successfully meeting their personal responsibilities, no matter the difficulties associated with their work. For other segmentation behaviors, an individual's perceptions regarding whether or not their workplace endorses segmentation is the driving factor. Understanding which variables contribute to variance in segmentation behaviors is important for developing effect organizational development initiatives concerned with work-nonwork balance.

Limitations

The segmentation behaviors assessed in this study were pilot tested once prior to be being used for empirical analyses and thus lacked potential validity evidence from a range of occupational samples. However, the behavioral measures were conceptually grounded and extensively analyzed to ensure representativeness of the segmentation construct. Future research should nonetheless examine the functioning of these behaviors alongside a wider range of potential integration behaviors to strengthen the validity of the assessments.

Further, the occupational categories of white-collar and blue-collar used for exploratory analyses were broad in scope and so raise questions about the external validity of the findings to specific jobs. The current study balanced the number of professional and managerial-level individuals across white-collar and blue-collar categories. However, the participant pool was not large enough to make sound comparisons across workers in specific occupations. Future research on more narrowly defined samples of participants may provide better insight on the jobs for which segmentation is best suited.

Data collection for the study also took place online, using self-report instruments and demographic data that could not be formally verified. Notably, a number of steps were taken both during creation of the surveys and during data cleaning procedures to assure the trustworthiness of the data. However some caution is nonetheless warranted for generalizing the study's findings.

Conclusion

Enacting effective boundary behaviors is becoming increasingly important for today's workforce, as rapid technological advancements further enable individuals to access work at all hours of the day (Kossek et al., 2010), and generally facilitate boundary blurring more than boundary segmentation. The current study identified specific behaviors that individuals perform to manage realms of work and nonwork, and as such offers initial evidence for how segmentation behaviors are placed in the nomological network of boundary management. It also highlights the unique roles that specific work targets play in initiating cross-domain contact with workers – and in particular, the comparatively greater role played by clients in the frequency of cross-domain contact. Furthermore, the study also contributes to the body of knowledge on the state of CIT-based communication in the workplace, helping to inform the advice practitioners may offer to professionals trying to manage their work and nonwork boundaries.

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APPENDIX A

GLOSSARY OF CONSTRUCTS

AFFECTIVE ORGANIZATIONAL COMMITMENT**:** The state of emotional attachment to the organization that an individual develops out of shared organizational values and interests.

AUTONOMOUS MOTIVATION: Refers to people's tendency to be self-regulating and to orient toward environmental elements that support self-initiations.

BOUNDARY FLEXIBILITY: The degree to which an individual contracts or expands a domain boundary in response to demands from another domain; Traditionally is has been conceptualized and operationalized in terms of a person's beliefs that he or she can change when and where activities take place.

BOUNDARY MANAGEMENT: An active navigation of the work-nonwork interface, where one is concerned with either preventing or facilitating the movement of elements from one domain (e.g., work) into another domain (e.g., family life).

BOUNDARY PERMEABILITY: Characterized by the extent to which a given domain boundary can be penetrated by elements from another domain. Strong permeability is reflected for a given domain when an individual can be physically located in the domain but behaviorally responding to elements from a second domain.

BOUNDARY PREFERENCES: Relatively stable individual differences that reflect one's desired level of segmented or integrated work or nonwork boundaries.

BOUNDARY TACTICS: The behaviors that individuals use to construct and maintain their (segmented or integrated) boundaries; strategies people use to construct, dismantle, and maintain the work-nonwork border.

CITIZENSHIP PERFORMANCE: Discretionary behaviors that are not “directly or explicitly recognized by the formal reward system, and that in the aggregate promotes the effective functioning of the organization” (Organ, 1988, p.4)

JOB INVOLVEMENT: Represents the extent to which a particular job serves to fill the basic needs of an individual and reflects how strongly a person identifies with the job with in and out of the work environment.

ROLE CONFLICT: A psychological experience defined by the presence of incompatible role demands, where fulfilling the demands of one role impedes one’s performance in a second role.

ROLE REFERENCING: Characterized by whether or not an individual acknowledges a second role, either orally (e.g., discussion) or symbolically (e.g., through pictures or artifacts), while in an alternative domain.

SEGMENTATION-INTEGRATION CONTINUUM: A spectrum of boundary preferences that characterizes the relationships people form with each (work or nonwork) domain.

SELF-EFFICACY: Belief in one's ability to perform specific tasks. This belief helps determine an individual’s willingness to initiate specific behaviors, as well as their persistence and emotional reactions when confronting barriers and conflicts

WORK-NONWORK INTERFACE: The point at which the work and nonwork systems/realms/domains meet and interact.

WORK ENGAGEMENT: Represents an individual's willingness to dedicate physical, cognitive, and emotional resources to work performed in an organization; Rather than being an attitude towards features of the job, work engagement reflects a psychological connection with the *performance of work tasks.*

WORK ROLE PERFORMANCE: Defined by how well an individual employee rates his or her ability to carry out the duties required by the job.

WORK-NONWORK CONFLICT: Experienced when participation in the work (nonwork) role is made more difficult by virtue of participation in the nonwork (work) role.

WORK-NONWORK ENRICHMENT: Experienced when participation in the work (nonwork) role enhances the quality of performance of the second nonwork (work) role.

APPENDIX B

PILOT STUDY SURVEY

APPENDIX C

BOUNDARY DIMENSIONS OF KREINER, HOLLENSBE, & SHEEP (2009)

Table C1
Work-Home Boundary Work Tactics

Name	Description
Behavioral Tactics	
Using other people	Utilizing the skills and availability of other individuals who can help with the work home boundary (e.g., staff members screen calls)
Leveraging technology	Using technology to facilitate boundary work (e.g., voicemail, caller ID, e-mail)
Invoking triage	Prioritizing seemingly urgent and important work and home demands (e.g., pastoral emergency and childcare emergency)
Allowing differential permeability	Choosing which specific aspects of work-home life will or will not be permeable
Temporal Tactics	
Controlling work time	Manipulations of one's regular or sporadic plans (e.g., banking time from home or work domain to be used later, blocking off segments of time, deciding when to do various aspects of work)
Finding respite	Removing oneself from work-home demands for a significant amount of time (e.g., vacations, getaways, retreats)
Physical Tactics	
Adapting physical boundaries	Erecting or dismantling physical borders or barriers between work and home domains

Table C1 (cont.)
Work-Home Boundary Work Tactics

Manipulating physical space	Creating or reducing a physical distance or "no man's land" between the work and home domains
Managing physical artifacts	Using tangible items such as calendars, keys, photos, and mail to separate or blend aspects of each domain
Communicative Tactics	
Setting expectations	Managing expectations in advance of a work-home boundary violation (e.g., stating preferences to parish or family ahead of time)
Confronting violators	Telling violator(s) of work-home boundaries either during or after a boundary violation (e.g., telling a parishioner to stop calling at home for frivolous reasons)

APPENDIX D

EXPLORATORY ANALYSES OF HYPOTHESES

Table D1

Descriptives and Correlations between Work-to-Nonwork Conflict and General Segmentation Actions by Collar

		White-Collar		Blue-Collar						
	Variable	*M*	*SD*	*M*	*SD*	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	WTNC	3.05	.93	2.82	.89	-	.47	.13	.37	.14
2.	GSA1	2.39	1.25	2.40	1.18	.41	-	.38	.26	.31
3.	GSA2	2.48	.99	2.53	.87	.35	.61	-	.39	.30
4.	GSA3	2.82	.86	2.82	.84	.33	.56	.48	-	.42
5.	GSA4	2.80	.94	2.69	.99	.39	.51	.38	.54	-

Note. Correlations below the diagonal are white-collar; all correlations are significant at the $p < .01$ level. Correlations above the diagonal are blue-collar; correlations above .25 are significant at the $p < .05$ level; correlations above .30 are significant at the $p < .01$ level. WTNC = Work-to-Nonwork Conflict. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. White-collar $n = 79$; blue-collar $n = 77$.

Table D2

Descriptives and Correlations between WTNC and GSAs by Collar

	Variable	White-Collar M	White-Collar SD	Blue-Collar M	Blue-Collar SD	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	Preference	5.37	.94	5.50	.91	-	-.12	.11	-.17	-.13
2.	GSA1	2.40	1.18	2.39	1.25	-.17	-	.61	.56	.51
3.	GSA2	2.53	.87	2.48	.99	.02	.38	-	.48	.38
4.	GSA3	2.82	.84	2.82	.86	-.31	.26	.38	-	.54
5.	GSA4	2.69	.99	2.80	.94	-.14	.31	.26	.42	-

Note. Correlations below the diagonal are white-collar; correlations larger than .29 have *p*-values less than .01 (1-tailed) and are significant using Bonferroni corrections. Correlations above the diagonal are blue-collar; correlations larger than .37 have *p*-values less than .01 (1-tailed) and are significant using Bonferroni corrections. Preference = Preference for Segmentation. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. White-collar n = 79; Blue-collar n = 77.

Table D3

Descriptives and Correlations between Preferences and General Segmentation Responses by Collar

	Variable	White-Collar M	White-Collar SD	Blue-Collar M	Blue-Collar SD	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	Preference	5.26	.84	5.27	.91	-	.05	-.22	-.10	.03
2.	GSR1	2.65	1.03	2.59	.94	.39	-	.23	.20	.42
3.	GSR2	2.70	1.02	2.61	1.11	.03	.10	-	.39	.47
4.	GSR3	2.74	.90	2.70	1.02	.20	.22	.27	-	.45
5.	GSR4	2.56	.98	2.45	.98	.11	.21	.51	.39	-

Note. Correlations below the diagonal are white-collar; values larger than .38 have *p*-values of less than .01 (1-tailed) and are significant using Bonferroni corrections. Correlations above the diagonal are blue-collar; values larger than .41 have *p*-values of less than .01 (1-tailed) and are significant using Bonferroni corrections. Preference = Preference for Segmentation. GSR = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for content of GSR items. White-collar n = 79; Blue-collar n = 77.

Table D5

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Self-Efficacy and Preferences in Blue-Collar Sample

GSA1 – Restricting CIT Use						
$F(3, 73) = 4.20$, $MSE = 1.24$, $p = .01$	B	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.32	.11	.35	.22	.10	< .01
Preferences	-.40	.15	-.32	-.17	.08	.01
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.33	.11	.36	.22	.11	< .01
Preferences	-.45	.16	-.36	-.17	.10	< .01
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	-.12	.10	-.13	-.06	.02	.24
GSA2 – Taking Mental Breaks						
$F(3, 73) = .46$, $MSE = .77$, $p = .71$	B	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.10	.09	.15	.13	.02	.25
Preferences	-.04	.12	-.05	.02	.00	.71
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.10	.09	.15	.13	.02	.25
Preferences	-.05	.12	-.05	.01	.00	.69
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	-.01	.08	-.02	-.02	.00	.86
GSA3 – Planning Leisure Activities						
$F(3, 73) = 3.28$, $MSE = .65$, $p = .03$	B	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	-.06	.08	-.09	-.21	.01	.47
Preferences	-.25	.11	-.28	-.31	.06	.03
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	-.06	.08	-.09	-.20	.01	.44
Preferences	-.21	.11	-.24	-.31	.04	.07
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.08	.07	.13	.21	.01	.28
GSA4 – Physically Distancing from Work						
$F(3, 73) = .55$, $MSE = 1.00$, $p = .65$	B	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.04	.10	.05	-.02	.00	.70
Preferences	-.17	.13	-.16	-.14	.02	.21
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.04	.10	.05	-.02	.00	.70
Preferences	-.17	.14	-.16	-.14	.02	.22
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	-.00	.09	-.00	.04	.00	.97

Note. See Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise $n = 77$.

Table D4

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Self-Efficacy and Preferences in White-Collar Sample

	B	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
GSA1 – Restricting CIT Use						
$F(3, 75) = 1.67$, $MSE = 1.51$, $p = .18$						
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.23	.12	.23	.18	.05	.05
Preferences	-.25	.16	-.18	-.12	.03	.12
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.23	.12	.23	.18	.05	.05
Preferences	-.24	.16	-.17	-.12	.03	.15
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.02	.11	.03	.04	.00	.83
GSA2 – Taking Mental Breaks						
$F(3, 75) = 1.94$, $MSE = .94$, $p = .13$						
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.16	.09	.20	.21	.04	.09
Preferences	.06	.13	.05	.11	.00	.65
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.15	.09	.19	.21	.03	.11
Preferences	.02	.13	.01	.11	.00	.91
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	-.12	.08	-.16	-.19	.02	.17
GSA3 – Planning Leisure Activities						
$F(3, 75) = 3.50$, $MSE = .67$, $p = .02$						
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.08	.08	.11	.06	.01	.33
Preferences	-.19	.11	-.20	-.17	.04	.09
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.09	.08	.14	.06	.12	.23
Preferences	-.12	.11	-.13	-.17	.01	.28
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.19	.07	.30	.31	.08	.01
GSA4 – Physically Distancing from Work						
$F(3, 75) = 1.48$, $MSE = .87$, $p = .23$						
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	-.05	.09	-.06	-.09	.00	.61
Preferences	-.12	.12	-.11	-.13	.01	.34
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	-.03	.09	-.05	-.09	.00	.70
Preferences	-.07	.12	-.07	-.13	.00	.59
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.14	.08	.20	.22	.04	.10

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise n = 79.

Table D6

Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Self-Efficacy and Preferences in White-Collar Sample

GSR1 – Scheduling Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 62) = 12.73$, $MSE = .69$, $p < .01$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.40	.09	.49	.57	.20	< .01
Preferences	.27	.13	.22	.39	.04	.05
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.38	.09	.47	.57	.18	< .01
Preferences	.22	.14	.18	.39	.03	.11
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	-.12	.08	-.15	-.30	.02	.17
GSR2 – Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 62) = 1.24$, $MSE = 1.03$, $p = .30$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.02	.11	.03	.03	.00	.84
Preferences	.02	.16	.02	.03	.00	.89
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.05	.11	.06	.03	.00	.67
Preferences	.10	.17	.08	.03	.00	.55
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.19	.10	.25	.21	.06	.06
GSR3 – Prioritizing Personal Life during Simultaneous Work & Personal Emergencies						
$F(3, 62) = 2.03$, $MSE = .77$, $p = .12$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.17	.09	.24	.28	.05	.07
Preferences	.12	.14	.11	.20	.01	.40
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.17	.09	.24	.28	.05	.07
Preferences	.13	.14	.12	.20	.01	.36
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.04	.09	.05	-.04	.00	.68
GSR4 – Performing Limited Range of Work Tasks at Home						
$F(3, 62) = 2.76$, $MSE = .89$, $p = .05$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.04	.10	.04	.08	.00	.74
Preferences	.11	.16	.10	.11	.01	.48
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.07	.10	.09	.08	.01	.50
Preferences	.21	.15	.18	.11	.03	.18
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.25	.09	.34	.27	.10	< .01

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise $n = 66$.

Table D7
Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Self-Efficacy and Preferences in Blue-Collar Sample

GSR1 – Scheduling Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 62) = 6.39$, $MSE = .71$, $p < .01$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.40	.09	.52	.46	.23	< .01
Preferences	-.16	.12	-.16	.05	.02	.19
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.41	.09	.53	.46	.23	< .01
Preferences	-.19	.13	-.18	.05	.03	.16
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	-.05	.09	-.06	-.01	.00	.59
GSR2 – Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 62) = 4.56$, $MSE = 1.05$, $p < .01$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.18	.12	.20	.07	.03	.14
Preferences	-.37	.16	-.30	-.22	.08	.02
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.14	.11	.15	.07	.02	.24
Preferences	-.23	.16	-.19	-.22	.03	.16
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.31	.11	.33	.39	.10	< .01
GSR3 – Prioritizing Personal Life during Simultaneous Work & Personal Emergencies						
$F(3, 62) = 2.47$, $MSE = .98$, $p = .07$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.20	.11	.24	.16	.05	.08
Preferences	-.22	.15	-.19	-.10	.03	.16
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.17	.11	.21	.16	.04	.12
Preferences	-.12	.16	-.11	-.10	.01	.43
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.20	.11	.24	.27	.05	.07
Model GSR4 – Performing Limited Range of Work Tasks at Home						
$F(3, 62) = 1.35$, $MSE = .94$, $p = .27$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Self-Efficacy	.21	.11	.27	.24	.06	.05
Preferences	-.08	.14	-.08	.03	.00	.57
STEP 2						
Self-Efficacy	.21	.11	.26	.24	.07	.06
Preferences	-.07	.15	-.07	.03	.00	.64
Self-Efficacy*Preferences	.02	.11	.02	.04	.00	.86

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise n = 66.

Table D8

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Norms and Preferences in White-Collar Sample

GSA1 – Restricting CIT Use						
$F(3, 75) = 2.30$, $MSE = 1.48$, $p = .08$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	.17	.16	.12	.09	.01	.30
Preferences	-.20	.16	-.14	-.12	.02	.22
STEP 2						
Norms	.29	.17	.20	.09	.04	.09
Preferences	-.27	.16	-.20	-.12	.04	.09
Norms*Preferences	-.33	.15	-.25	-.17	.06	.04
GSA2 – Taking Mental Breaks						
$F(3, 75) = 3.78$, $MSE = .88$, $p = .01$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	.16	.13	.15	.16	.02	.21
Preferences	.08	.12	.08	.12	.00	.52
STEP 2						
Norms	.28	.13	.26	.16	.06	.03
Preferences	.01	.12	.01	.12	.00	.96
Norms*Preferences	-.35	.12	-.34	-.26	.10	< .01
GSA3 – Planning Leisure Activities						
$F(3, 75) = 1.16$, $MSE = .73$, $p = .33$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	.12	.11	.12	.08	.01	.28
Preferences	-.18	.11	-.19	-.17	.04	.10
STEP 2						
Norms	.13	.12	.14	.08	.02	.27
Preferences	-.19	.11	-.20	-.17	.04	.09
Norms*Preferences	-.03	.11	-.04	.03	.00	.76
GSA4 – Physically Distancing from Work						
$F(3, 75) = .51$, $MSE = .90$, $p = .68$	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
STEP 1						
Norms	-.03	.12	-.03	-.06	.00	.80
Preferences	-.13	.12	-.12	-.13	.01	.29
STEP 2						
Norms	-.01	.13	-.01	-.06	.00	.92
Preferences	-.14	.12	-.13	-.13	.02	.27
Norms*Preferences	-.05	.12	-.05	-.04	.00	.67

Note. See Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise $n = 79$.

Table D9

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Norms and Preferences in Blue-Collar Sample

GSA1 – Restricting CIT Use						
$F(3, 73) = 1.98$, MSE = 1.35, $p = .13$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	-.05	.20	-.04	-.12	.00	.78
Preferences	-.19	.17	-.15	-.17	.02	.28
STEP 2						
Norms	.02	.20	.01	-.12	.00	.92
Preferences	-.20	.17	-.16	-.17	.02	.23
Norms*Preferences	-.30	.16	-.22	-.23	.04	.06
GSA2 – Taking Mental Breaks						
$F(3, 73) = .45$, MSE = .77, $p = .72$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.10	.14	.09	.07	.00	.51
Preferences	-.03	.13	-.03	.02	.00	.81
STEP 2						
Norms	.12	.15	.12	.07	.00	.41
Preferences	-.04	.13	-.04	.02	.00	.77
Norms*Preferences	-.11	.12	-.11	-.09	.01	.35
GSA3 – Planning Leisure Activities						
$F(3, 73) = 2.79$, MSE = .66, $p = .05$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.06	.13	.06	-.13	.00	.65
Preferences	-.31	.12	-.34	-.31	.08	.01
STEP 2						
Norms	.05	.14	.05	-.13	.00	.73
Preferences	-.30	.12	-.34	-.31	.08	.01
Norms*Preferences	.05	.11	.05	.04	.00	.65
GSA4 – Physically Distancing from Work						
$F(3, 73) = 1.26$, $MSE = .97$, $p = .30$	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.23	.16	.19	.06	.03	.16
Preferences	-.26	.14	-.25	-.14	.04	.07
STEP 2						
Norms	.25	.17	.21	.06	.03	.14
Preferences	-.26	.14	-.25	-.14	.04	.07
Norms*Preferences	-.06	.13	-.06	-.03	.00	.64

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise n = 77.

Table D10

Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Norms and Preferences in White-Collar Sample

GSR1 – Scheduling Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 62) = 9.50$, $MSE = .76$, $p < .01$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.47	.14	.36	.42	.13	< .01
Preferences	.41	.13	.33	.39	.13	< .01
STEP 2						
Norms	.53	.14	.41	.42	.15	< .01
Preferences	.33	.14	.27	.39	.06	.02
Norms*Preferences	-.24	.13	-.20	-.19	.03	.08
GSR2 – Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks						
$F(3, 62) = .46$, $MSE = 1.07$, $p = .72$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	-.06	.16	-.05	-.04	.00	.72
Preferences	.04	.16	.04	.03	.00	.77
STEP 2						
Norms	-.11	.17	-.08	-.04	.01	.53
Preferences	.10	.16	.09	.03	.01	.53
Norms*Preferences	.17	.16	.15	.11	.02	.28
GSR3 – Prioritizing Personal Life during Simultaneous Work & Personal Emergencies						
$F(3, 62) = 1.46$, $MSE = .79$, $p = .24$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.19	.14	.17	.20	.03	.18
Preferences	.18	.13	.17	.20	.03	.18
STEP 2						
Norms	.18	.15	.16	.20	.02	.22
Preferences	.19	.14	.18	.20	.03	.19
Norms*Preferences	.02	.14	.02	.01	.00	.86
GSR4 – Performing Limited Range of Work Tasks at Home						
$F(3, 62) = 1.91$, $MSE = .92$, $p = .14$	*B*	*SEB*	β	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.18	.16	.15	.16	.02	.24
Preferences	.10	.15	.09	.11	.01	.49
STEP 2						
Norms	.11	.16	.09	.16	.01	.51
Preferences	.20	.15	.17	.11	.03	.21
Norms*Preferences	.27	.15	.24	.21	.06	.07

Note. See Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise $n = 66$.

Table D11

Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Norms and Preferences in Blue-Collar Sample

GSR1 – Scheduling Last-Minute Work Tasks						
F(3, 62) = 6.46, *MSE* = .71, *p* < .01	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.47	.16	.40	.33	.12	< .01
Preferences	-.14	.14	-.14	.05	.01	.32
STEP 2						
Norms	.58	.15	.48	.33	.18	< .01
Preferences	-.16	.13	-.15	.05	.02	.23
Norms*Preferences	-.39	.13	-.34	-.24	.12	< .01
GSR2 – Delegating Last-Minute Work Tasks						
F(3, 62) = 3.10, *MSE* = 1.12, *p* = .03	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.40	.19	.29	.12	.07	.04
Preferences	-.44	.16	-.36	-.22	.10	< .01
STEP 2						
Norms	.36	.19	.26	.12	.05	.07
Preferences	-.43	.16	-.35	-.22	.10	.01
Norms*Preferences	.17	.16	.13	.16	.01	.30
GSR3 – Prioritizing Personal Life during Simultaneous Work & Personal Emergencies						
F(3, 62) = 6.21, *MSE* = .84, *p* < .01	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.69	.16	.53	.37	.22	< .01
Preferences	-.39	.14	-.35	-.10	.10	< .01
STEP 2						
Norms	.68	.17	.53	.37	.20	< .01
Preferences	-.39	.14	-.35	-.10	.10	< .01
Norms*Preferences	.02	.14	.02	.12	.01	.88
GSR4 – Performing Limited Range of Work Tasks at Home						
F(2, 62) = 2.97, *MSE* = .88, *p* = .04	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
STEP 1						
Norms	.48	.16	.39	.31	.12	< .01
Preferences	-.17	.14	-.15	.03	.02	.25
STEP 2						
Norms	.51	.17	.41	.32	.12	< .01
Preferences	-.17	.14	-.16	.03	.02	.25
Norms*Preferences	-.08	.14	-.06	.02	.00	.60

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise *n* = 66.

Table D12

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Self-Efficacy and Norms in White-Collar Sample

Item	Model	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
GSA1	$F(2, 76) = 1.28$, $MSE = 1.54$, $p = .28$						
	Self-Efficacy	.19	.14	.19	.18	.03	.17
	Norms	-.02	.19	-.02	.09	.00	.91
GSA2	$F(2, 76) = 1.92$, $MSE = .95$, $p = .15$						
	Self-Efficacy	.14	.11	.18	.21	.02	.19
	Norms	.07	.15	.06	.16	.00	.66
GSA3	$F(2, 76) = .28$, $MSE = .75$, $p = .76$						
	Self-Efficacy	.01	.10	.02	.06	.00	.88
	Norms	.07	.13	.07	.08	.00	.60
GSA4	$F(2, 76) = .31$, $MSE = .90$, $p = .73$						
	Self-Efficacy	-.07	.10	-.09	-.09	.00	.53
	Norms	-.01	.15	-.01	-.06	.00	.97

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise n = 79.

Table D14

Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Self-Efficacy and Norms in White-Collar Sample

Item	Model	B	SEB	β	r	sr^2	p
GSR1	$F(2, 63) = 12.28$, $MSE = .74$, $p < .01$						
	Self-Efficacy	.41	.11	.50	.56	.15	< .01
	Norms	.13	.17	.10	.42	.00	.47
GSR2	$F(2, 63) = .24$, $MSE = 1.07$, $p = .79$						
	Self-Efficacy	.08	.13	.10	.03	.00	.54
	Norms	-.13	.21	-.10	-.04	.01	.53
GSR3	$F(2, 63) = 2.63$, $MSE = .77$, $p = .08$						
	Self-Efficacy	.18	.11	.25	.28	.04	.11
	Norms	.04	.18	.04	.20	.00	.82
GSR4	$F(2, 63) = .90$, $MSE = .96$, $p = .41$						
	Self-Efficacy	-.03	.12	-.04	.08	.00	.81
	Norms	.23	.20	.19	.16	.02	.24

Table D13

Predicting General Segmentation Actions from Self-Efficacy and Norms in Blue-Collar Sample

Item	Model	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
GSA1	$F(2, 74) = 5.74$, $MSE = 1.25$, $p < .01$						
	Self-Efficacy	.38	.12	.42	.22	.12	< .01
	Norms	-.52	.19	-.36	-.12	.09	< .01
GSA2	$F(2, 74) = .61$, $MSE = .76$, $p = .54$						
	Self-Efficacy	.08	.09	.13	.13	.01	.36
	Norms	-.00	.15	-.00	.07	.00	.99
GSA3	$F(2, 74) = 1.63$, $MSE = .69$, $p = .20$						
	Self-Efficacy	-.13	.09	-.20	-.21	.03	.16
	Norms	-.02	.14	-.02	-.13	.00	.91
GSA4	$F(2, 74) = .29$, $MSE = 1.0$, $p = .75$						
	Self-Efficacy	-.06	.11	-.08	-.02	.00	.57
	Norms	.13	.17	.11	.06	.01	.46

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action; see Table 6 for GSA items. Listwise n = 77.

Note. GSR = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for GSR items. Listwise n = 66.

Table D15

Predicting General Segmentation Responses from Self-Efficacy and Norms in Blue-Collar Sample

Item	Model	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
GSR1	$F(2, 63) = 8.81$, $MSE = .72$, $p < .01$						
	Self-Efficacy	.31	.10	.40	.46	.11	< .01
	Norms	.12	.16	.10	.33	.01	.44
GSR2	$F(2, 63) = .46$, $MSE = 1.25$, $p = .63$						
	Self-Efficacy	.01	.14	.01	.07	.00	.95
	Norms	.16	.21	.12	.12	.01	.45
GSR3	$F(2, 63) = 5.14$, $MSE = .93$, $p < .01$						
	Self-Efficacy	-.06	.12	-.07	.16	.00	.62
	Norms	.53	.18	.41	.37	.12	< .01
GSR4	$F(2, 63) = 3.79$, $MSE = .88$, $p = .03$						
	Self-Efficacy	.06	.12	.08	.24	.00	.58
	Norms	.34	.18	.28	.32	.05	.06

Note. GSR = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for GSR items. Listwise n = 66.

Table D16

Predicting Work-to-Nonwork Conflict from General Segmentation Actions and General Segmentation Responses in White-Collar Sample

Predictors	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
Model 1: General Segmentation Actions						
STEP 1						
Age	-.04	.01	-.39	-.48	.12	< .01
Psychological Demands	.73	.20	.36	.41	.12	< .01
Hours Worked	-.03	.18	-.02	-.26	.00	.88
Education Level	.08	.08	.11	.37	.01	.34
STEP 2						
Age	-.04	.01	-.42	-.48	.08	< .01
Psychological Demands	.70	.21	.34	.41	.10	< .01
Hours Worked	-.04	.19	-.02	-.26	.00	.83
Education Level	.06	.08	.08	.37	.00	.50
GSA1	-.06	.11	-.09	.37	.00	.56
GSA2	.03	.11	.03	.32	.00	.79
GSA3	.12	.13	.11	.29	.01	.36
Model 2: General Segmentation Responses						
STEP 1						
Age	-.04	.01	-.39	-.47	.12	< .01
Psychological Demands	.61	.21	.30	.36	.08	< .01
Hours Worked	-.04	.19	-.02	-.22	.01	.85
Education Level	.09	.10	.11	.37	.01	.37
STEP 2						
Age	-.04	.01	-.35	-.47	.08	< .01
Psychological Demands	.57	.21	.28	.36	.07	< .01
Hours Worked	.09	.20	.05	-.22	.00	.67
Education Level	.10	.10	.12	.37	.01	.32
GSR2	.16	.09	.21	.37	.03	.08
GSR3	-.05	.10	-.05	.10	.00	.61

Note. GSA = General Segmentation Action. GSR = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for GSA and GSR items. For both models, *n* = 77.

Table D17

Predicting Work-to-Nonwork Conflict from General Segmentation Actions and General Segmentation Responses in Blue-Collar Sample

Predictors	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	sr^2	*p*
Model 1: General Segmentation Actions						
STEP 1						
Age	-.03	.01	-.28	-.33	.07	< .01
Psychological Demands	1.04	.22	.48	.55	.18	< .01
Hours Worked	-.13	.18	-.07	-.32	.00	.47
Education Level	.12	.08	.16	.41	.02	.11
STEP 2						
Age	-.02	.01	-.17	-.33	.02	.09
Psychological Demands	.92	.22	.42	.55	.12	< .01
Hours Worked	-.09	.18	-.05	-.32	.00	.60
Education Level	.07	.08	.09	.41	.00	.39
GSA1	.23	.08	.29	.48	.06	< .01
GSA2	-.02	.01	-.17	.08	.02	.12
GSA3	.92	.22	.42	.38	.01	.18
Model 2: General Segmentation Responses						
STEP 1						
Age	-.03	.01	-.26	-.32	.06	.02
Psychological Demands	.97	.24	.43	.49	.15	< .01
Hours Worked	-.20	.19	-.12	-.30	.01	.30
Education Level	.10	.09	.13	.41	.01	.25
STEP 2						
Age	-.03	.01	-.28	-.32	.06	.02
Psychological Demands	.96	.24	.42	.49	.14	< .01
Hours Worked	-.26	.21	-.14	-.30	.01	.22
Education Level	.10	.09	.13	.41	.01	.28
GSR2	-.06	.10	-.08	.25	.00	.55
GSR3	.08	.10	.09	.15	.00	.02

GSA = General Segmentation Action. GSR = General Segmentation Response; see Table 6 for GSA and GSR items. For both models, n = 66.

Table D18

Predicting Work-to-Nonwork Conflict from Segmentation Behaviors with a Client in White-Collar and Blue-Collar Samples

Predictors	*B*	*SEB*	*β*	*r*	*sr2*	*p*
			White-Collar Sample			
STEP 1						
Age	-.04	.01	-.37	-.40	.13	< .01
Psychological Demands	.68	.22	.35	.40	.12	< .01
Hours Worked	-.18	.19	-.12	-.28	.01	.33
Education Level	.08	.11	.08	.24	.01	.49
STEP 2						
Age	-.03	.01	-.28	-.40	.07	< .01
Psychological Demands	.63	.20	.32	.40	.09	< .01
Hours Worked	-.22	.18	-.14	-.28	.01	.21
Education Level	-.01	.10	-.01	.24	.00	.90
GSR_CL	-.07	.11	-.07	.13	.00	.53
VMR1_CL	.08	.10	.08	.17	.00	.47
VMR2_CL	.23	.09	.30	.48	.06	.01
ER1_CL	.10	.11	.09	.19	.01	.40
ER2_CL	.17	.11	.20	.45	.02	.13
			Blue-Collar Sample			
STEP 1						
Age	-.02	.01	-.20	-.19	.04	.07
Psychological Demands	1.05	.24	.50	.52	.21	< .01
Hours Worked	-.02	.18	-.01	-.22	.00	.91
Education Level	.21	.10	.24	.36	.05	.03
STEP 2						
Age	-.02	.01	-.16	-.19	.02	.145
Psychological Demands	.99	.22	.47	.52	.18	< .01
Hours Worked	.03	.16	.02	-.22	.00	.84
Education Level	.20	.09	.22	.36	.04	.03
GSR_CL	-.03	.11	-.03	.16	.00	.77
VMR1_CL	.14	.10	.14	.11	.02	.14
VMR2_CL	.11	.08	.15	.37	.01	.19
ER1_CL	.11	.10	.11	.16	.01	.28
ER2_CL	.20	.09	.28	.48	.04	.03

Note. GSR_CL = General Segmentation Response to Client. VMR_CL = Voicemail Response to Client. ER_CL = Email Response to Client. See Table 7 for CL Items. White-Collar *n* = 61. Blue-Collar *n* = 61.

Table D19
Means, Standard Deviations, and Correlations among WTNC and Demands

	Variable	M	SD	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	WTNC	2.94	.92	-				
2.	PACE/LOAD	2.36	.42	.47	-			
3.	MENTAL	2.87	.55	.07	.19	-		
4.	EMOTIONAL	2.14	.57	.43	.62	.11	-	
5.	PHYSICAL	2.07	.66	.22	.65	.09	.64	-

Note. Correlations larger than .18 are significant at the $p < .05$ level; correlations larger than .20 are significant at the $p < .01$ level. *M* =Mean; *SD* =Standard Deviation. Listwise n =160.

Table D20
Means, Standard Deviations, and Correlations among WTNC and Demands for White-(Sample

	Variable	M	SD	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	WTNC	3.06	.92	-				
2.	PACE/LOAD	2.40	.45	.39	-			
3.	MENTAL	2.92	.52	.02	.20	-		
4.	EMOTIONAL	2.16	.56	.40	.59	-.02	-	
5.	PHYSICAL	2.11	.69	.13	.65	.08	.63	-

Note. Correlations larger than .38 are significant at the $p < .01$ level. *M* =Mean; *SD* =Standard Deviation. Listwise n = 81.

Table D21
Means, Standard Deviations, and Correlations among WTNC and Demands for Blue-C Sample

	Variable	M	SD	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.
1.	WTNC	2.81	.90	-				
2.	PACE/LOAD	2.32	.41	.55	-			
3.	MENTAL	2.83	.58	.09	.18	-		
4.	EMOTIONAL	2.11	.58	.47	.64	.23	-	
5.	PHYSICAL	2.03	.53	.30	.66	.09	.65	-

Note. Correlations larger than .22 are significant at the $p < .05$ level; correlations larger than .29 are significant at the $p < .01$ level. *M* =Mean; *SD* =Standard Deviation. Listwise n =79.

APPENDIX E

PRIMARY STUDY PRE-SCREEN SURVEY

APPENDIX F

FUNCTIONAL WORK AREAS AND INDUSTRIES IN SAMPLE

Table F1

Functional Work Areas Represented in Sample (N =161)

Functional Work Area	**Sample (*n*)**	**Sample (%)**
Executive Management	34	21%
Operations/Productions	18	11%
Customer Service	15	9%
Engineering	14	9%
Information	11	7%
Sales	9	6%
Finance	8	5%
Administrative	6	4%
Business Development	6	4%
Account Management	3	2%
Distribution	3	2%
Human Resources	3	2%
Clerical Processing	2	1%
Creative Design	2	1%
Law Enforcement/Security	2	1%
Public Safety	2	1%
Advertising/Marketing	1	1%
Consulting	1	1%
Education	1	1%
Health Administration	1	1%
R&D/Scientific	1	1%
Other	13	8%
Missing	5	3%

Table F2
Industries Represented in Sample (N =161)

Industry	**Sample (*n*)**	**Sample (%)**
Manufacturing	48	30%
Construction/Home Improvement	15	9%
Retail/Wholesale Trade	13	8%
Business/Professional Services	12	7%
Engineering/Architecture	10	6%
Accounting/Finance/Banking/Insurance	8	5%
Transportation/Distribution	6	4%
Consulting	5	3%
Entertainment/Recreation	5	3%
Service Industry - Hotels/Lodging	5	3%
Computer	4	2%
Healthcare/Medical	4	2%
Service Industry - Food/Dining	4	2%
Government/Military	3	2%
Mining	3	2%
Other	3	2%
Advertising/Marketing/PR	2	1%
Aerospace/Aviation/Automotive	2	1%
Agriculture/Forestry/Fishing	2	1%
Media/Printing/Publishing	1	1%
Non-profit	1	1%
Pharmaceutical/Chemical	1	1%
Telecommunication	1	1%
Utilities	1	1%
Wholesale	1	1%
Transportation,Electricity,Gas,Sanitary Services	1	1%

APPENDIX G

PRIMARY STUDY CONSENT FORM AND SURVEYS

Informed Consent for research conducted under the auspices of the University of Tulsa

Project Title: The Role of Boundary Tactics in the Work-Nonwork Interface
Principal Investigators: Dr. Anupama Narayan, Assistant Professor University of Tulsa.
Kathryn M. Packell, Graduate Student, University of Tulsa

You have been asked to participate in a study being conducted under the supervision of Dr. Anupama Narayan, an assistant professor of Psychology at the University of Tulsa. This document is an individual's consent form for participation in this research project.

The purpose of this study is to gain a better understanding of how people create and manage the personal boundaries they set around their work domain (e.g., the office) and all other domains outside of work (e.g., the home). We will ask you questions about how you allow or prevent certain work-related issues from entering your non-work domains (e.g., your time with friends or family. How you feel about the interaction between your work and home responsibilities, and your feelings about your job will be addressed as well. Finally, we will also ask for some basic demographic and job information (e.g., age, tenure at job) to see if different groups of people have distinct methods for managing their work and non-work boundaries.

Participation in this study consists of filling out two questionnaires. The first questionnaire takes approximately ten minutes to complete. It primarily asks about your boundary management behavior and how you feel about the interaction between your work and personal life. The second questionnaire is to be taken two weeks after the first questionnaire and also takes roughly ten minutes to complete. It primarily asks about your attitudes towards your job and your individual differences (i.e., your personality and demographic information).

In order to encourage continued participation in the study, we will offer monetary incentives to those who participate. Those who purposefully respond to a questionnaire will be compensated upon completion with a non-transferrable $5 Amazon gift card by the Study Response Project; full participation in the study will provide participants with two $5 gift cards (one for each questionnaire). There are no foreseeable risks beyond those present in normal, everyday life associated with participation. This study is not intended to benefit you personally, but rather, is intended to gain knowledge about how people manage the interface between their work and non-work domains.

Ultimately, the research may benefit participants generally by contributing to the understanding of how people can better manage their work and non-work boundaries to improve employee attitudes and health.

All information that you will provide will be held in strict confidentiality. No one in your organization will obtain your responses to this survey. We ask that you fill out the survey without outside help. That way, your responses will be truly confidential.

Your IP address will not be recorded for this study. Accordingly, your IP address will not be used to identify you in any way; you will not be identified as a participant in any future publications. Again, no one from your place of employment will see your individual responses; only the researchers will have access to your data.

By clicking below, you acknowledge that you understand the following:

Your participation in this study is entirely voluntary.

You have the right to withdraw consent and discontinue participation at any time, without prejudice.

You have been informed in advance as to what tasks would be required and what procedure would be followed.

There are no risks as a result of participation.

To participate, you must be 18 years of age or older.

Your data will be kept in strict confidentiality.

Dr. Narayan can be reached at 918-681-2472, or by email at anupama-narayan@utulsa.edu. If you are interested in getting more information about your rights as a participant in this study, you may direct your inquiries to the Office of Research and Sponsored Programs, Dawnett Watkins, 918-631-3310 (or Dawnett-watkins@utulsa.edu).

Informed consent agreement:

I hereby agree to participate in the above-described research. I understand that my participation is entirely voluntary and that I may withdraw at any time without penalty or loss of benefits.

[Click here to accept this agreement and continue to the survey.]

APPENDIX H

SURVEY INVITATIONS

Time 1 Survey Invitation

The StudyResponse Center for Online Research
A Social Science Research Project

Dear StudyResponse Project Participant:

We are requesting your assistance with a study conducted by a researcher at The University of Tulsa on the topic of work and personal life balance. You must be at least 18 years of age and working full-time to participate in this study. The study will take you approximately 10-15 minutes to complete.

If you choose not to respond within the first week, we will send you a reminder in one week. Note that instructions on how to discontinue your participation in StudyResponse and stop receiving emails from us appear at the end of this message.

This study is anonymous, so please do not enter any identifying information into the research instrument except your StudyResponse ID, which is «ID». The researcher has pledged to keep your data confidential and only to report aggregated results in any published scientific study. Survey participation is on a first come first served basis.

We are always interested in your opinions but please be aware that the survey might fill up fast.

In appreciation of your participation in the project, you will receive a $5 gift certificate to Amazon.com.

StudyResponse will start issuing the certificates approximately two weeks after the researcher receives the completed survey.

Note that your StudyResponse ID number is «ID» and that you must enter that number into the survey to be eligible for the direct payment.

Follow this link to participate:
http://

Participation in this study is voluntary and you may withdraw from participation at any time. If you have any questions you may contact the researcher:

Katie Packell, M.A.
Doctoral Student, I/O Psychology
University of Tulsa
kathryn-packell@utulsa.edu
918-845-0813

We very much appreciate your participation in the StudyResponse project and your willingness to consider completing this study.

You received this email because you signed up as a research participant for the StudyResponse project, which is based state of
New York, USA. You also provided a confirmation of that signup in a subsequent step. Although StudyResponse is not a
commercial service and does not send unsolicited email, the project complies with the obligations of the 2003 CAN-SPAM
act. In accordance with the act, you have the following options for ceasing participation in the StudyResponse project:
1. You may simply reply to this email with the word UNSUBSCRIBE in the subject.
2. You may use our self-service account management interface at:
http://studyresponse.net/update.htm
3. You may contact a staff member of the StudyResponse project using the contact information provided below.
For further information about the StudyResponse project, you may contact a member of the StudyResponse staff at
help@studyresponse.net

STUDYRESPONSE • P.O. BOX 4518 UTICA, NEW YORK • 13504-4518
EMAIL: ADMIN@STUDYRESPONSE.NET • HTTP://STUDYRESPONSE.ORG

Time 2 Survey Invitation

The StudyResponse Center for Online Research
A Social Science Research Project

Dear StudyResponse Project Participant:

Thank you for your willingness to participate in the Work-Personal Balance study. Below you will find a link that will take you to the second and final questionnaire for the study. We urge you to please complete this questionnaire as soon as possible – ideally by midnight tonight. This way all participants who take part in the study will have questionnaire responses that are equally spaced by a two-week interval.

This final survey should take you around 10 to 15 minutes to complete. Please be sure to indicate your study response number at the end of the survey as this is the only way we will be able to connect your responses to this survey to the previous one. Completing both surveys is very important for the success of this study.

Note that instructions on how to discontinue your participation in StudyResponse and stop receiving emails from us appear at the end of this message.

This study is anonymous, so please do not enter any identifying information into the research instrument except your StudyResponse ID, which is «ID». The researchers have pledged to keep your data confidential and only to report aggregated results in any published scientific study.

In appreciation of your participation in the project, you will receive a $5 gift certificate to Amazon.com. StudyResponse will start issuing the certificates approximately two weeks after the researchers receive the completed survey.

Note that your StudyResponse ID number is «ID» and that you must enter that number into the survey to be eligible for the direct payment.

Follow this link to participate:

Participation in this study is voluntary and you may withdraw from participation at any time. If you have any questions you may contact one of the researchers:

Katie Packell, M.A.
Doctoral Student, I/O Psychology
University of Tulsa
kathryn-packell@utulsa.edu
918-845-0813

We very much appreciate your participation in the StudyResponse project and your willingness to consider completing this study.

You received this email because you signed up as a research participant for the StudyResponse project, which is based NY state, USA. You also provided a confirmation of that signup in a subsequent step. Although StudyResponse is not a commercial service and does not send unsolicited email, the project complies with the obligations of the 2003 CAN-SPAM act. In accordance with the act, you have the following options for ceasing participation in the StudyResponse project:

1. You may simply reply to this email with the word UNSUBSCRIBE in the subject.
2. You may use our self service account management interface at: http://studyresponse.net/update.htm
3. You may contact a staff member of the StudyResponse project using the contact information provided below.

* Conditions apply. In case of any clarifications, please feel free to contact us at help@studyresponse.net

For further information about the StudyResponse project, you may contact a member of the StudyResponse staff at help@studyresponse.net

APPENDIX I

FREQUENCIES OF GENERAL AND TARGET-BASED RESPONSES TO SEGMENTATION OPPORTUNITIES

Table I1

Frequencies of General Segmentation Actions

	GSA1		GSA2		GSA3		GSA4	
	n	%	n	%	n	%	n	%
Never	20	13%	4	2.5	1	1.0	4	2.5
Rarely	12	8%	19	11.9	7	4.4	9	5.6
Occasionally	42	26%	47	29.5	46	29.1	46	28.9
Frequently	58	36%	71	44.6	70	44.3	63	39.6
Constantly	28	18%	18	11.3	34	21.5	37	23.3
Total N	160		159		158		159	

Table I2

Frequencies of General Segmentation Responses

	GSR1		GSR2		GSR3		GSR4	
	n	%	n	%	n	%	n	%
Never	7	4.3	13	8.1	6	4	6	3.7
Rarely	12	7.5	18	11.2	10	6	13	8.1
Occasionally	43	26.7	25	15.5	46	29	42	26.1
Frequently	57	35.4	64	39.8	61	38	57	35.4
Always	27	16.8	27	16.8	28	17	18	11.2
Not Applicable	15	9.3	14	8.7	9	6	25	15.5
Total N	161		161		160		161	

*Note – *Not Applicable* response option read, ‘Not Applicable – (This situation never occurs so I don’t have a response).’

Table I3
Frequencies of Segmentation Responses to a Supervisor

	GSR SPV		VMR1 SPV		VMR2 SPV		ER1 SPV		ER2 SPV	
	n	%	n	%	n	%	n	%	n	%
Never	1	1	2	1.4	11	7.7	3	2.1	10	6.9
Rarely	9	6.3	10	6.9	10	7.0	6	4.2	13	9.0
Occasionally	34	23.7	19	13.2	32	22.5	17	12.0	29	2.0
Frequently	61	42.6	69	47.9	45	31.7	81	56.3	54	37
Always	22	15.4	25	17.4	25	17.6	15	10.4	15	10.3
Not Applicable	16	11.2	19	13.2	19	13.4	22	15.7	24	16.6
Total N (%)	143		144		142		144		145	

Table I4
Frequencies of Segmentation Responses to a Client

	GSR CL		VMR1 CL		VMR2 CL		ER1 CL		ER2 CL	
	n	%	n	%	n	%	n	%	n	%
Never	2	1.5	2	1.0	9	6.5	2	1.4	8	5.8
Rarely	10	7.3	9	6.5	12	8.6	7	5.1	21	15.1
Occasionally	29	21.2	28	20.1	38	27.3	30	21.7	31	22.3
Frequently	73	53.3	73	52.5	45	32.4	79	57.2	56	33.1
Always	15	10.9	17	12.2	23	16.5	13	9.4	15	8.9
Not Applicable	8	5.8	10	7.2	12	8.6	7	5.1	8	5.8
Total N (%)	137		139		139		138		139	

APPENDEX J

PRIMARY STUDY CORRELATIONS

Table J1
Primary Study Correlations

		M	SD	1.	2.	3.	4.	5.	6.
1.	PREF	5.42	0.93	-					
2.	SEPL	7.09	1.29	0.36	-				
3.	NORMS	5.47	0.84	0.40	0.57	-			
4.	SUP	3.87	0.52	0.20	0.52	0.40	-		
5.	WTNC	2.91	0.90	-0.18	-0.31	-0.35	-0.14	-	
6.	WTNE	3.38	0.92	-0.18	0.20	0.11	0.29	0.36	-
7.	JI	3.34	0.76	-0.42	0.19	0.06	0.33	0.29	0.54
8.	AUT	3.51	0.83	-0.26	0.15	0.16	0.23	0.28	0.49
9.	JS	5.55	1.05	-0.02	0.30	0.29	0.32	-0.15	0.18
10.	AC	5.07	1.17	-0.21	0.37	0.31	0.52	-0.05	0.49
11.	OCBI	4.96	1.27	0.00	0.18	0.17	0.31	-0.31	0.04
12.	OCBO	5.12	1.17	0.40	0.33	0.37	0.18	-0.25	0.12
13.	Symp	4.91	4.95	-0.23	-0.46	-0.33	-0.32	0.40	0.02
14.	PACE	2.37	0.43	-0.16	-0.30	-0.29	-0.19	0.49	-0.07
15.	MENT	2.84	0.53	0.07	0.11	0.21	0.03	0.08	0.09
16.	EMO	2.13	0.56	-0.41	-0.29	-0.29	-0.08	0.43	0.10
17.	PHY	2.08	0.66	-0.24	-0.34	-0.29	-0.24	0.22	-0.18
18.	GSA1	2.39	1.20	-0.18	0.20	0.00	0.33	0.41	0.46
19.	GSA2	2.50	0.93	0.03	0.17	0.15	0.26	0.22	0.37
20.	GSA3	2.81	0.84	-0.27	-0.08	0.00	0.08	0.31	0.35
21.	GSA4	2.73	0.97	-0.16	-0.06	0.02	0.09	0.25	0.26
22.	ORGTEN	9.67	6.42	0.00	-0.17	0.05	-0.09	0.00	-0.12
23.	JOBTEN	6.85	5.11	0.10	-0.03	0.17	-0.11	0.00	-0.06
24.	AGE	39.77	8.95	0.17	0.01	0.27	-0.23	-0.38	-0.32
26.	INCOME	85383.64	35040.90	0.05	0.10	-0.01	0.03	0.15	0.10

n = 150; Correlations above .15 are significant at the *p* < .05 level (2-tailed) ; correlations above .20 are significant at the *p* < .01 level (2-tailed). *M* = Mean. *SD* = Standard Deviation.

Table J1 (cont.)

		7.	8.	9.	10.	11.	12.	13.	14.	15.
1.	PREF									
2.	SEPL									
3.	NORMS									
4.	SUP									
5.	WTNC									
6.	WTNE									
7.	JI	-								
8.	AUT	0.57	-							
9.	JS	0.24	0.14	-						
10.	AC	0.70	0.45	0.56	-					
11.	OCBI	0.13	0.03	0.15	0.25	-				
12.	OCBO	-0.12	-0.12	0.16	0.20	0.06	-			
13.	Symp	-0.11	0.16	-0.29	-0.29	-0.11	-0.27	-		
14.	PACE	0.04	0.16	-0.32	-0.24	-0.11	-0.43	0.47	-	
15.	MENT	0.13	0.16	-0.01	0.20	0.02	0.36	0.14	0.20	-
16.	EMO	0.29	0.36	-0.21	-0.05	0.02	-0.60	0.46	0.61	0.11
17.	PHY	-0.10	0.04	-0.39	-0.30	0.03	-0.46	0.42	0.64	0.09
18.	GSA1	0.65	0.46	0.08	0.44	-0.09	-0.21	-0.02	0.19	0.02
19.	GSA2	0.33	0.21	0.03	0.23	0.15	-0.02	0.03	0.20	0.17
20.	GSA3	0.34	0.43	-0.05	0.13	0.04	-0.31	0.36	0.31	0.09
21.	GSA4	0.30	0.26	-0.02	0.18	0.01	-0.08	0.23	0.31	0.27
22.	ORGTEN	-0.16	0.00	0.10	-0.11	-0.22	-0.12	0.26	0.07	0.02
23.	JOBTEN	-0.21	0.02	0.16	-0.07	-0.22	0.10	0.07	-0.09	-0.10
24.	AGE	-0.38	-0.25	-0.02	-0.20	0.05	0.22	-0.03	-0.03	0.14
26.	INCOME	0.03	0.18	-0.15	-0.03	0.02	-0.11	0.23	0.14	0.03

n = 150; Correlations above .15 are significant at the $p < .05$ level (2-tailed) ; correlations above .20 are significant at the $p < .01$ level (2-tailed). *M* = Mean. *SD* = Standard Deviation.

Table J1 (cont.)

		16.	17.	18.	19.	20.	21.	22.	23.	24.	26.
1.	PREF										
2.	SEPL										
3.	NORMS										
4.	SUP										
5.	WTNC										
6.	WTNE										
7.	JI										
8.	AUT										
9.	JS										
10.	AC										
11.	OCBI										
12.	OCBO										
13.	Symp										
14.	PACE										
15.	MENT										
16.	EMO	-									
17.	PHY	0.65	-								
18.	GSA1	0.30	0.02	-							
19.	GSA2	0.33	0.19	0.48	-						
20.	GSA3	0.56	0.32	0.40	0.43	-					
21.	GSA4	0.40	0.22	0.40	0.33	0.47	-				
22.	ORGTEN	0.11	0.10	-0.20	-0.14	0.06	-0.03	-			
23.	JOBTEN	-0.08	-0.02	-0.19	-0.10	-0.07	-0.06	0.67	-		
24.	AGE	-0.18	0.10	-0.54	-0.28	-0.15	-0.08	0.40	0.34	-	
26.	INCOME	0.20	0.11	0.06	0.12	0.12	0.02	0.04	0.08	-0.04	-

n = 150; Correlations above .15 are significant at the *p* < .05 level (2-tailed) ; correlations above .20 are significant at the *p* < .01 level (2-tailed). *M* = Mean. *SD* = Standard Deviation.